

INDIAN TRADITIONS, CULTURE AND SOCIETY

The following is a detailed ASCII diagram for Indian traditions, culture and society, based on the information from the web search results.

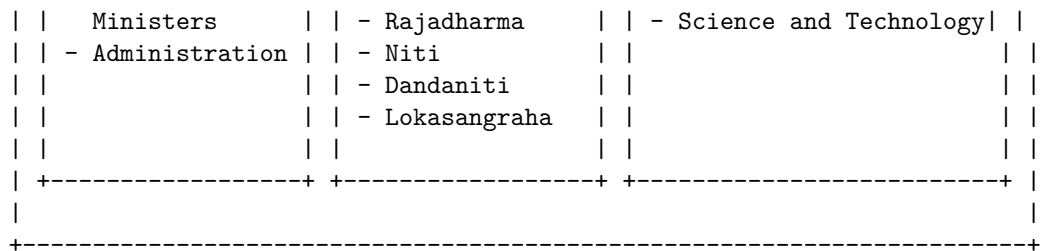
Arts and Language	Philosophy and Religion	Food and Drink
- Sanskrit - Hindi - Urdu - Tamil - Bengali - Many other languages - Classical dance - Folk dance - Bollywood dance - Classical music - Folk music - Film music - Painting - Sculpture - Architecture - Literature - Handicrafts	- Hinduism - Buddhism - Jainism - Sikhism - Islam - Christianity - Zoroastrianism - Judaism - Baha'i - Atheism	- Regional and ethnic cuisines - Spices and herbs - Vegetarian and non-vegetarian - Tea and coffee - Sweets and desserts
Customs and Traditions	Society and Culture	History and Heritage
- Greeting with Namaste - Wearing bindi - Celebrating festivals - Respecting elders - Offering	- Multilingual, multicultural, and multi-ethnic - Caste system - Joint family - Arranged marriages - Dowry system	- Ancient civilizations - Vedic period - Mauryan empire - Gupta dynasty - Mughal empire - British Raj - Independence

	hospitality		- Gender roles		movement	
	- Practicing yoga		- Education		- Partition	
	- Meditating		- Sports		- Republic	
	- Wearing		- Media		- Economic growth	
	traditional		- Cinema		- Cultural	
	clothes		- Fashion		diversity	
	- Eating with		- Music		- World heritage	
	hands		- Dance		sites	
	- Applying henna		- Literature		- Famous leaders	
	- Wearing		- Art		- Nobel laureates	
	jewelry		- Science		- Contributions to	
	- Many other		- Technology		humanity	
	customs and		- Many other		- Many other	
	traditions		aspects of		aspects of	
			society and		history and	
			culture		heritage	
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Module 1- Society State and Polity in India

The following diagram is an attempt to illustrate the main topics and subtopics covered in this module, based on the search results. It is not a comprehensive or definitive representation of the module, but rather a simplified and schematic overview.

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Module 1- Society State and Polity in India					
+-----+-----+-----+					
+-----+		+-----+		+-----+	
State in Ancient India		Political Ideals in Ancient India		Society and Culture in Medieval India	
+-----+		+-----+		+-----+	
- Evolutionary Theory		- Conditions of the Welfare of Societies		- Social Structure and Hierarchy	
- Force Theory		- The Seven Limbs of the State		- Religious and Cultural Diversity	
- Mystical Theory				- Bhakti and Sufi Movements	
- Contract Theory		- Dharma			
- Stages of State Formation		- Artha		- Regional Languages and Literatures	
- Kingship		- Kama			
- Council of		- Moksha		- Art and Architecture	

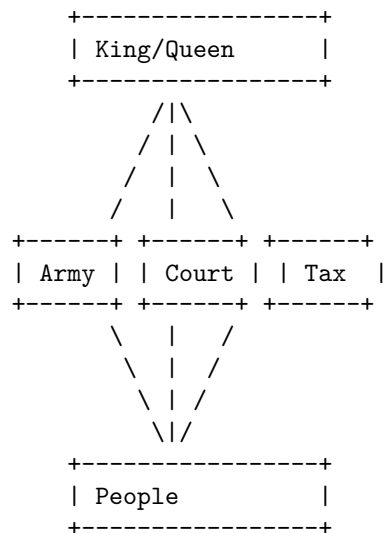


According to the web sources, there were three main types of states in ancient India: monarchy, republic and oligarchy. Monarchy was the most common form of state, where a king or a queen ruled over a territory. Republic was a form of state where the people elected their representatives or leaders. Oligarchy was a form of state where a few powerful people or groups controlled the state.

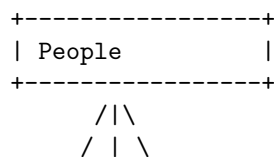
The following diagram illustrates the basic structure of each type of state in ancient India using ASCII characters:

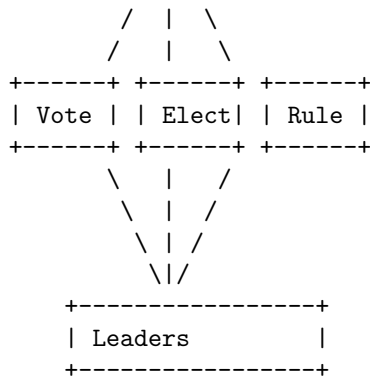
State in Ancient India

Monarchy:

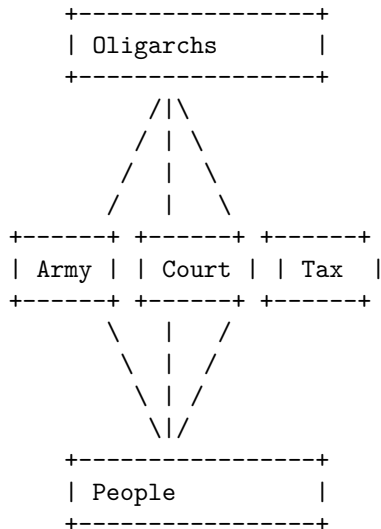


Republic:





Oligarchy:



According to the web sources, there are three main theories of origin of state in ancient India: social contract theory, divine origin theory and organic theory. The social contract theory holds that the state emerged from a voluntary agreement among the people to form a political society and surrender some of their rights to a sovereign authority. The divine origin theory holds that the state was established by God or gods and the rulers derived their legitimacy from divine sanction. The organic theory holds that the state was a natural and inevitable outcome of the social evolution and the growth of human needs and capacities.

The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of these theories in ASCII art:

Theories of origin of State in India

-----+	-----+	-----+
Social Contract	Divine Origin	Organic
-----+	-----+	-----+
- Voluntary	- God or gods	- Natural
agreement	established	evolution
- People	the state	- Growth of
surrender	- Rulers have	human needs
some rights	divine	and
- Sovereign	sanction	capacities
authority		
-----+	-----+	-----+

The Evolutionary Theory of origin of State is the theory that explains the state as the product of historical and social evolution, influenced by various factors such as kinship, religion, war, migration, economic activities and political consciousness. The theory traces the development of the state from the primitive stage of family to the modern stage of nation.

The following is a possible ASCII diagram for the Evolutionary Theory of origin of State, based on the information from the search results :

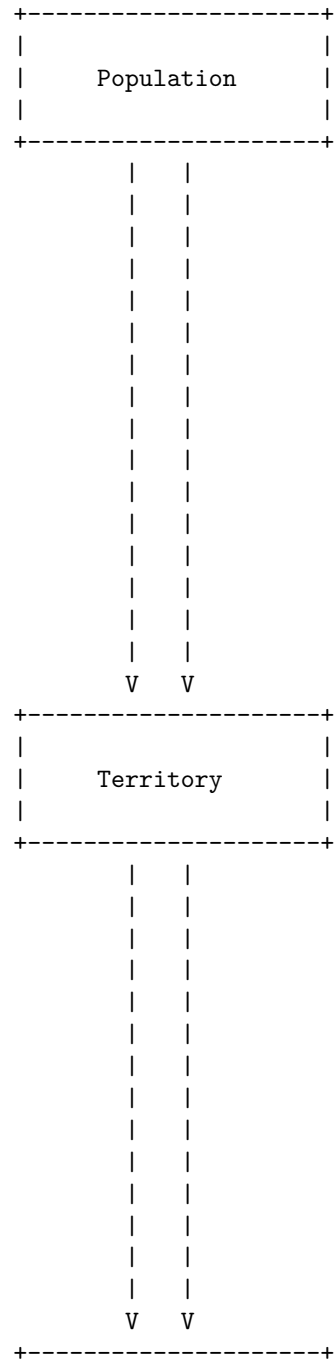
Evolutionary Theory of origin of State

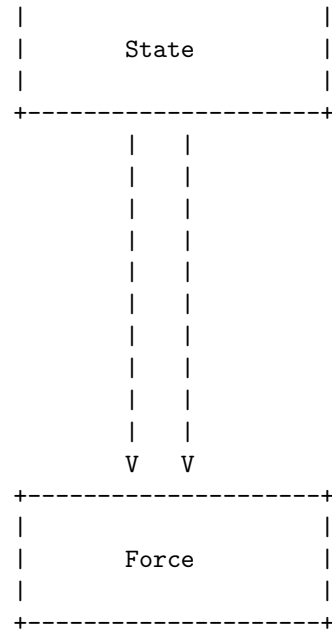
-----+	-----+	-----+	-----+
Primitive Stage	Tribal Stage	City State	Nation State
Family	-----> Clan	-----> Polis	-----> Sovereignty
Patriarchy	-----> Totemism	-----> Citizenship	-----> Democracy
Communalism	-----> War and Conquest	-----> Trade and Culture	-----> Nationalism
-----+	-----+	-----+	-----+

The Force Theory of origin of State is a theory that proposes that the state emerged from the use of force by one person or a small group of people over a larger population in a certain territory. The theory suggests that the state is a result of war, conquest, or domination by the strong over the weak. The theory implies that the state is based on coercion, violence, and power, rather than consent, cooperation, or legitimacy.

Force Theory of origin of State

The following diagram illustrates the basic idea of the Force Theory of origin of State using ASCII characters:



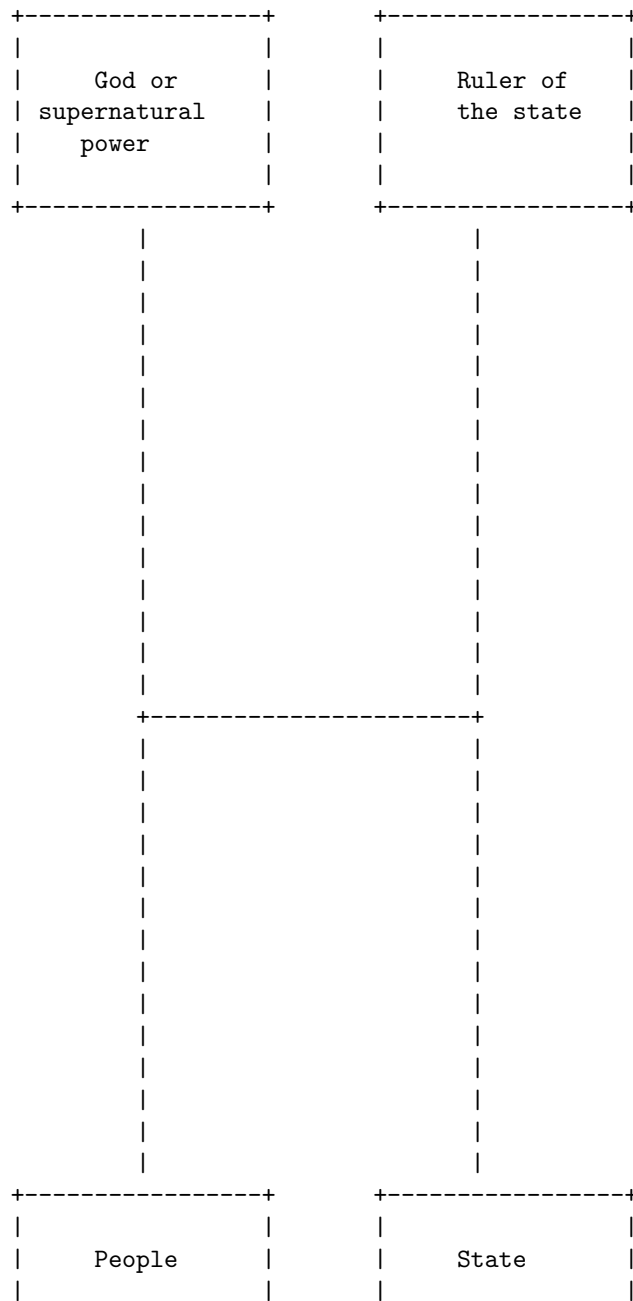


The diagram shows that the state is formed by applying force on a population living in a territory. The force can be physical, psychological, or ideological, and it can come from a single person, a small group, or a foreign power. The force is used to establish control, authority, and order over the population and the territory, and to extract resources, taxes, or obedience from them. The force can also be used to defend the state from external or internal threats, or to expand the state by conquering other territories and populations. The state, in turn, can provide some benefits to the population, such as security, stability, or infrastructure, or it can oppress, exploit, or neglect them. The state can also change over time, as the force can be challenged, resisted, or replaced by other forces, or as the population or the territory can change due to migration, revolt, or natural disasters. The state can also interact with other states, either peacefully or violently, depending on the balance of power and the interests of the actors involved. The state can also evolve into different forms of government, such as monarchy, dictatorship, democracy, or federation, depending on the distribution of power and the participation of the population in the decision-making process. The state can also dissolve, collapse, or merge with other states, depending on the internal or external factors that affect its stability and viability. The state, therefore, is a dynamic and complex entity that is shaped by the use of force and its consequences.

The Mystical Theory of origin of State is a theory that claims that the state is created by God or some supernatural power, and that the ruler of the state is an agent of God or a chosen one. This theory is also known as the Divine Right Theory or the Theocratic Theory. According to this theory, the state is not a product of human effort or social contract, but a divine gift or a sacred

institution. The people have no right to question or resist the authority of the ruler, who is accountable only to God or the higher power.

The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of the Mystical Theory of origin of State using ASCII art:



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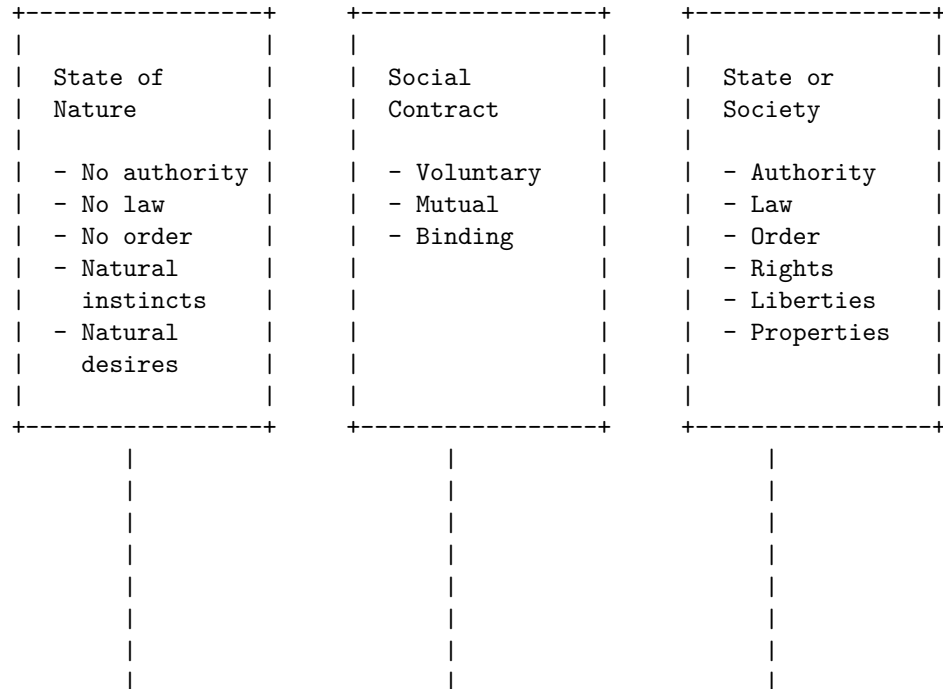
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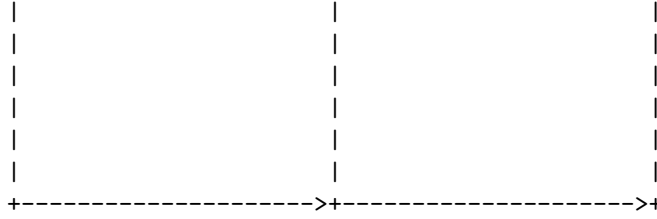
The diagram shows that God or the supernatural power is the source of the state and the ruler, and that the people and the state are subordinate to them. The ruler has absolute power over the state and the people, and the people have no voice or participation in the state. The state is a sacred and unchangeable entity that exists to fulfill the will of God or the supernatural power.

The Contract Theory of origin of State is a theory that explains how the state or the society emerged from a voluntary agreement or contract between individuals who lived in a state of nature. The state of nature was a condition where there was no authority, law, or order, and people lived according to their natural instincts and desires. The contract theory assumes that people agreed to form a state or a society to escape the inconveniences and dangers of the state of nature, and to secure their rights, liberties, and properties. The contract theory has been developed by different philosophers, such as Thomas Hobbes, John Locke, and Jean-Jacques Rousseau, who had different views on the nature of the contract, the rights and duties of the individuals and the state, and the extent of the state's power and sovereignty.

Contract Theory of origin of State

The following diagram illustrates the basic idea of the contract theory of origin of state using ASCII characters:





The stages of state formation in ancient India can be broadly divided into four phases:

- The first phase was the emergence of the **Janapadas**, or territorial states, in the river valleys of the Indo-Gangetic plain, around the 6th century BCE. These states were based on agricultural surplus, trade, urbanization, and a centralized administration. Some of these states were monarchies, while others were republics or oligarchies. The most prominent Janapadas were Magadha, Kosala, Kuru, Panchala, Vatsa, and Avanti.
- The second phase was the rise of the **Mahajanapadas**, or great states, which expanded their territories through conquest and alliance, around the 5th to 4th centuries BCE. These states were more powerful and complex than the Janapadas, and had a larger army, bureaucracy, and revenue system. The most important Mahajanapadas were Magadha, Kosala, Vatsa, Avanti, Gandhara, and Kamboja.
- The third phase was the formation of the **Mauryan Empire**, the first pan-Indian empire, under the leadership of Chandragupta Maurya, around the 4th to 3rd centuries BCE. The Mauryan Empire unified most of the Indian subcontinent under a centralized and hierarchical administration, with a strong military, economic, and cultural influence. The Mauryan Empire reached its peak under Ashoka, who promoted Buddhism and welfare policies. The Mauryan Empire collapsed after the death of Ashoka, and was succeeded by various regional kingdoms.
- The fourth phase was the emergence of the **Gupta Empire**, the second pan-Indian empire, under the leadership of Chandragupta I, around the 4th to 5th centuries CE. The Gupta Empire is considered the golden age of ancient India, as it witnessed a remarkable development in art, literature, science, mathematics, astronomy, and philosophy. The Gupta Empire maintained a decentralized and feudal system of governance, with a network of alliances and tributaries. The Gupta Empire declined after the invasion of the Huns, and was replaced by various regional powers.

Stages of State Formation in Ancient India

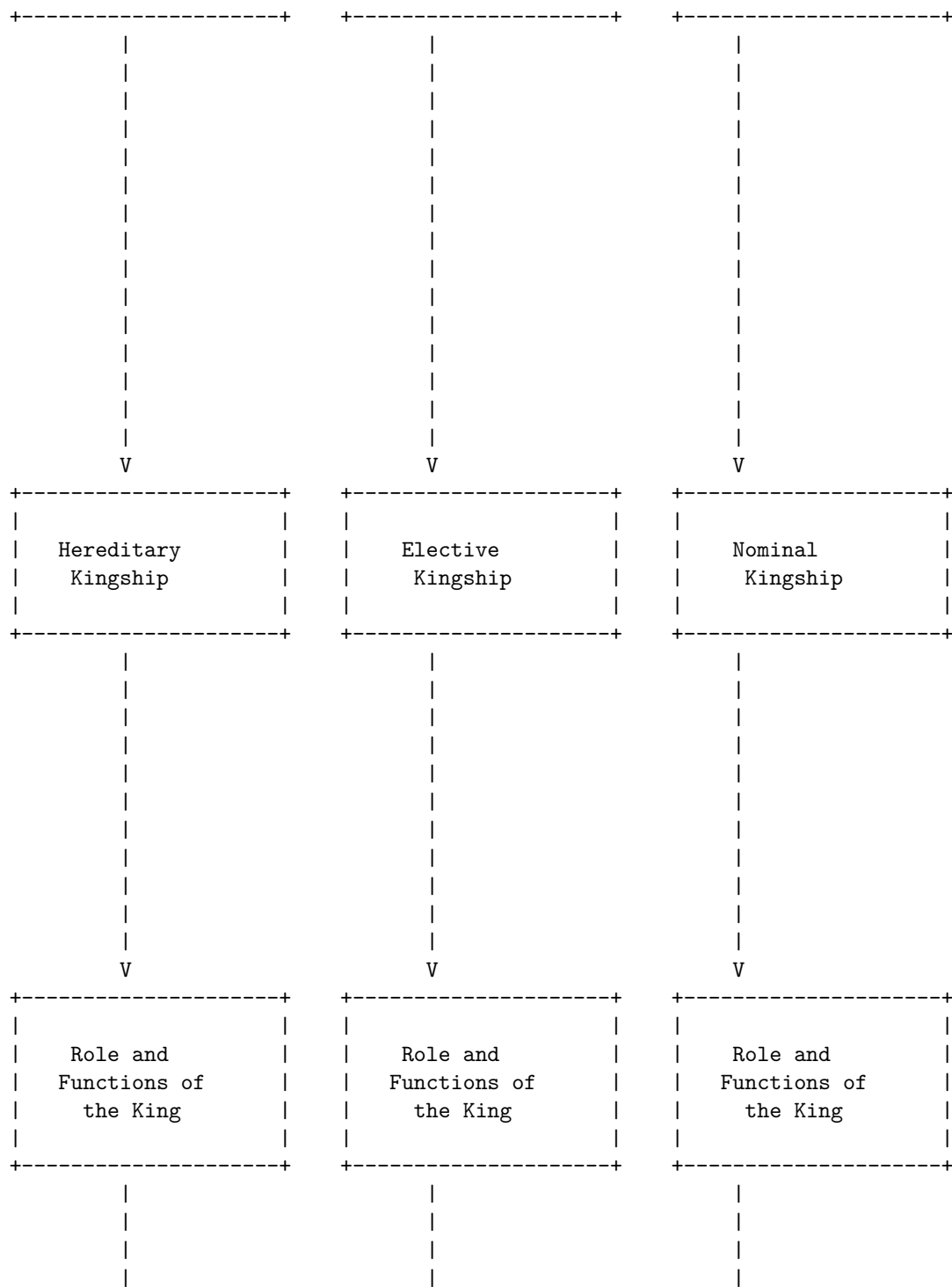
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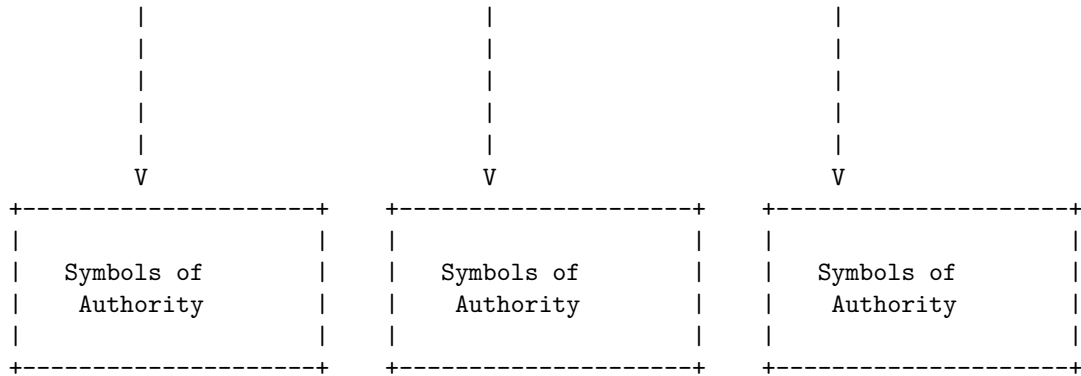
Janapadas	Mahajanapadas	Mauryan Empire	Gupta Empire
6th century BCE	5th-4th century BCE	4th-3rd century BCE	4th-5th century CE
River valleys of Indo-Gangetic plain	Conquest and alliance	Centralized and hierarchical administration	Decentralized and feudal system
Agricultural surplus, trade, urbanization, and centralized administration	Larger army, bureaucracy, and revenue system	Strong military, economic, and cultural influence	Remarkable development in art, literature, science, mathematics, astronomy, and philosophy
Monarchies or republics or oligarchies	Magadha, Kosala, Vatsa, Avanti, Gandhara, Kamboja	Chandragupta, Maurya, Ashoka	Chandragupta I, Samudragupta, Chandragupta II
Magadha, Kosala, Kuru, Panchala, Vatsa, Avanti			

Kingship in states in Ancient India was a complex and diverse phenomenon that evolved over time and across regions. There were different theories of origin of kingship, such as divine, social contract, and patriarchal. There were also different types of kingship, such as hereditary, elective, and nominal. The role and functions of the king varied according to the political, social, religious, and cultural context of each state. The king was expected to protect the territory, maintain justice, uphold dharma, perform sacrifices, and patronize arts and sciences. The king was also subject to the law and the advice of the council of ministers, elders, and priests. The king was often associated with various symbols of authority, such as the throne, the crown, the scepter, the umbrella, the chariot, and the lion.

The following diagram illustrates the basic structure of kingship in states in Ancient India using ASCII characters:

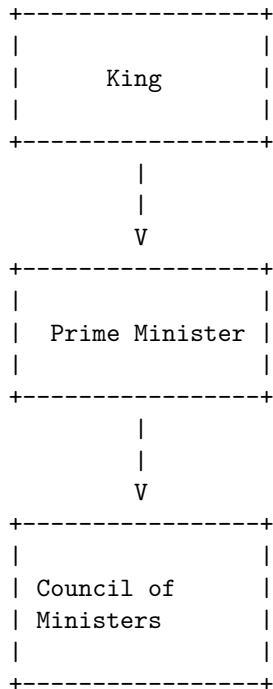
Divine Theory	Social Contract Theory	Patriarchal Theory





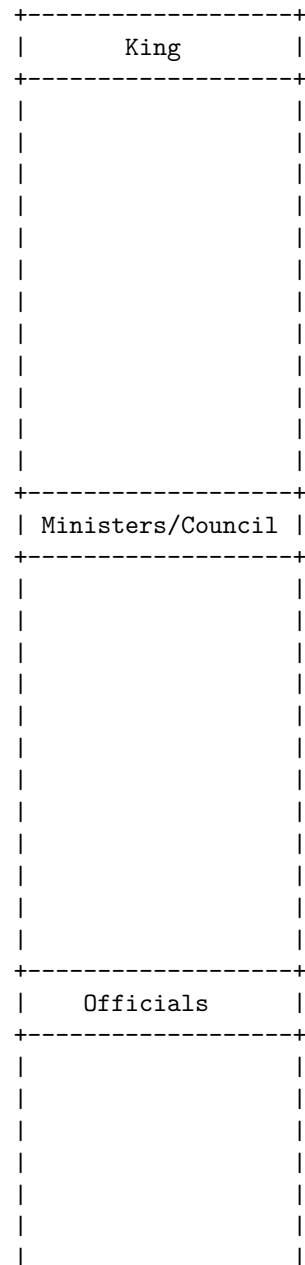
The Council of Ministers in Ancient India was a group of advisers and officials who assisted the king in governing the kingdom. The council was also known as Mantri-parishad, Mantri-mandala or Mantri-gana. The council was headed by the Prime Minister, who was also called Mantrimukhya or Mahamantri. The council members were selected based on their qualifications, character and loyalty to the king. The council had various functions, such as making policies, executing orders, supervising administration, conducting diplomacy and advising the king on various matters.

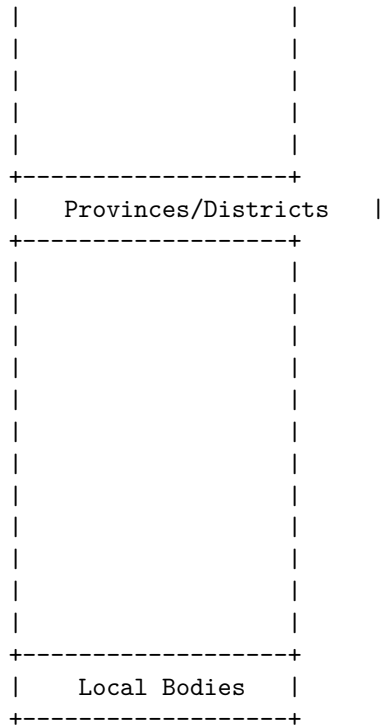
Council of Ministers in Ancient India



Administration in Ancient India

The following diagram illustrates the basic structure of administration in ancient India, based on the information from the web search results. The diagram is drawn using ASCII characters.

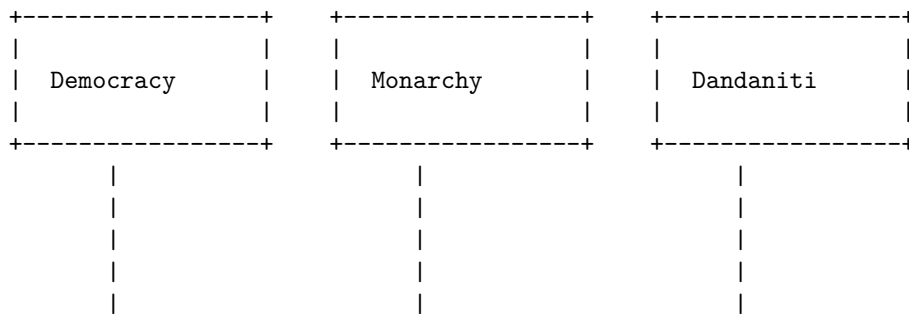


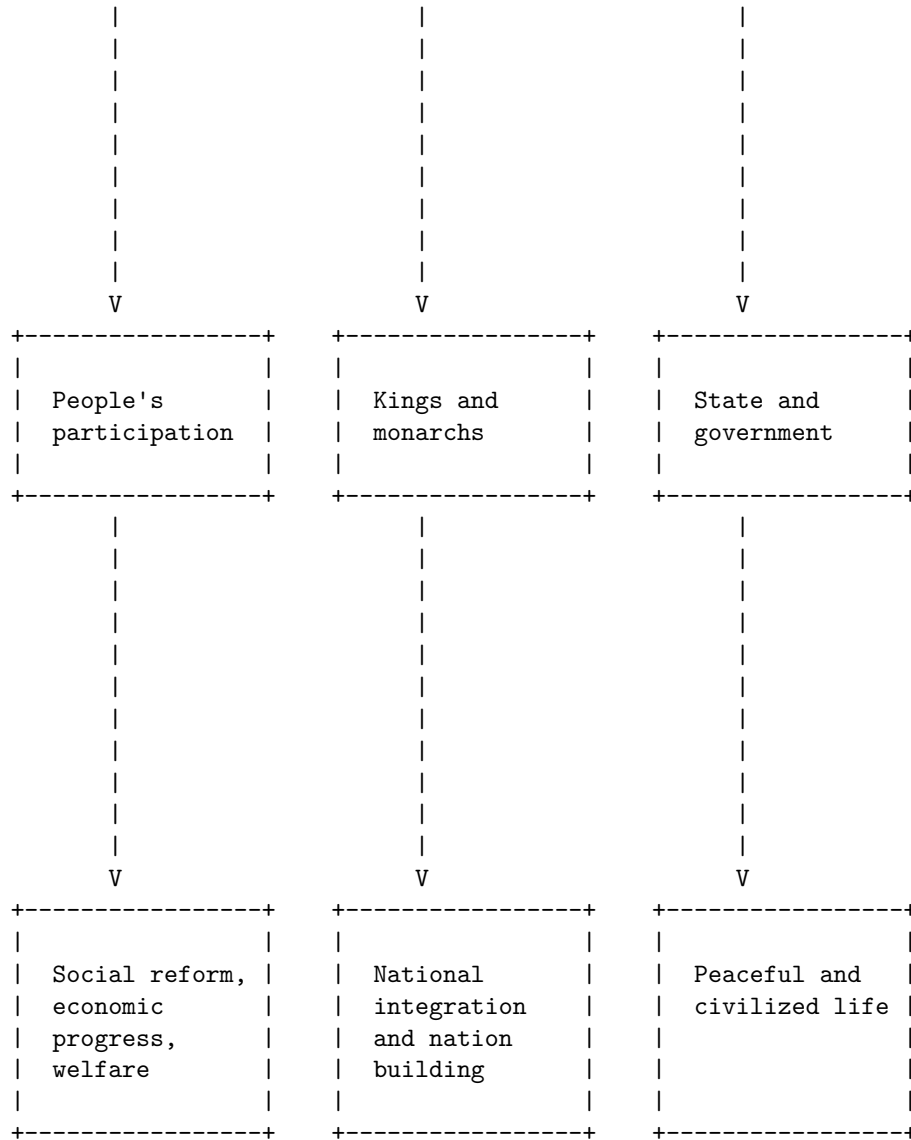


The king was the supreme head of the legislative, executive and judiciary branches. He was assisted by ministers and councilors who advised him on matters of state and government. The officials were the administrative staff who carried out the orders of the king and the ministers. The provinces and districts were the territorial divisions of the empire or the kingdom, each headed by a governor or a chief. The local bodies were the village assemblies or the republics that had some elements of democracy and self-governance.

The following is a detailed ASCII diagram for Political Ideals in Ancient India and their relevance in modern times.

Political Ideals in Ancient India and their relevance in modern times





The diagram shows the three main political ideals that existed in ancient India: democracy, monarchy, and dandaniti. Democracy refers to the system of governance where the people have a say in the decision-making process. Monarchy refers to the system of governance where a single ruler or a dynasty has the supreme authority. Dandaniti refers to the science of politics and statecraft that was developed by ancient Indian thinkers like Kautilya.

The diagram also shows the outcomes and impacts of these political ideals on the society and the nation. Democracy led to social reform, economic progress, and welfare of the people. Monarchy led to national integration and nation

building. Dandaniti led to peaceful and civilized life.

The diagram also shows the relevance of these political ideals in modern times. Democracy is still the most preferred form of governance in India and many other countries. Monarchy is still prevalent in some parts of the world, but with limited powers and constitutional checks. Dandaniti is still a valuable source of wisdom and guidance for political leaders and administrators.

Conditions of the Welfare of Societies in Ancient India

The following diagram is an attempt to illustrate the main aspects of the conditions of the welfare of societies in ancient India, based on the information from the web search results. It is not a comprehensive or definitive representation, but rather a simplified and schematic one. The diagram uses ASCII characters to draw shapes and lines, and uses numbers to indicate the references to the sources.

The diagram shows four main components: the Varna system, the Ashrama system, the Sanskaras or Sacraments, and the State or the King. Each component has some sub-components or features that are relevant to the welfare of the societies. The diagram also shows some of the interrelations and influences among the components.

The Varna system was the social division of the society into four classes: Brahmins (priests and scholars), Kshatriyas (warriors and rulers), Vaishyas (merchants and farmers), and Shudras (servants and laborers). The Varna system was based on the concept of Dharma, or the duty and moral law of each individual according to their nature and occupation. The Varna system was not rigid or hereditary, but rather flexible and merit-based, allowing for mobility and change of occupation. The Varna system also provided for the protection and welfare of the weaker and lower classes by the higher and stronger ones.

The Ashrama system was the division of the life of an individual into four stages: Brahmacharya (student life), Grihastha (householder life), Vanaprastha (retired life), and Sannyasa (renounced life). The Ashrama system was also based on the concept of Dharma, and aimed to prepare the individual for the spiritual and moral development and liberation. The Ashrama system also ensured the social and economic welfare of the individual and the society by providing for the education, family, retirement, and charity of each person.

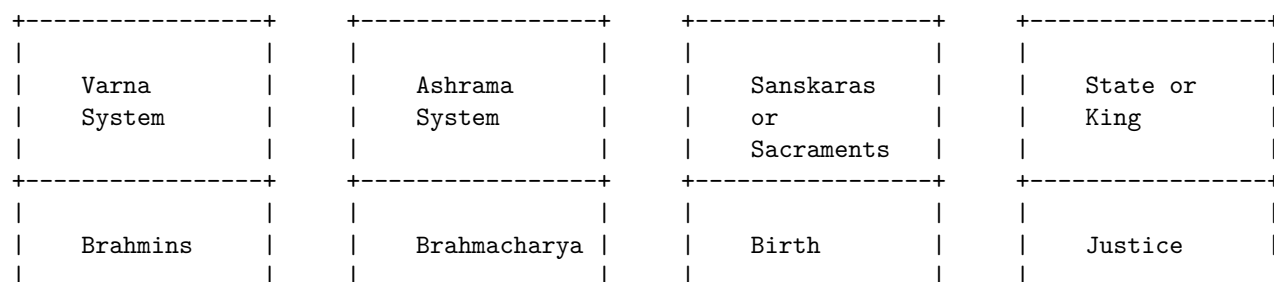
The Sanskaras or Sacraments were the rites and ceremonies that marked the important events and transitions in the life of an individual, such as birth, initiation, marriage, death, etc. The Sanskaras were also based on the concept of Dharma, and served to purify, sanctify, and elevate the individual and the society. The Sanskaras also contributed to the welfare of the individual and the society by providing for the physical, mental, and spiritual health, happiness, and harmony of each person.

The State or the King was the political and administrative authority that gov-

erned the society and maintained the law and order. The State or the King was also based on the concept of Dharma, and was bound by the duty and responsibility to protect and promote the welfare of the people. The State or the King also ensured the welfare of the people by providing for the justice, security, prosperity, and culture of the society.

The diagram also shows some of the interrelations and influences among the components. For example, the Varna system influenced the Ashrama system by determining the occupation and duty of each individual in each stage of life. The Ashrama system influenced the Sanskaras by determining the rites and ceremonies appropriate for each stage of life. The Sanskaras influenced the State or the King by providing the moral and ethical guidance and legitimacy for the governance and administration of the society. The State or the King influenced the Varna system by regulating and supporting the social and economic activities and welfare of each class.

The diagram is as follows:

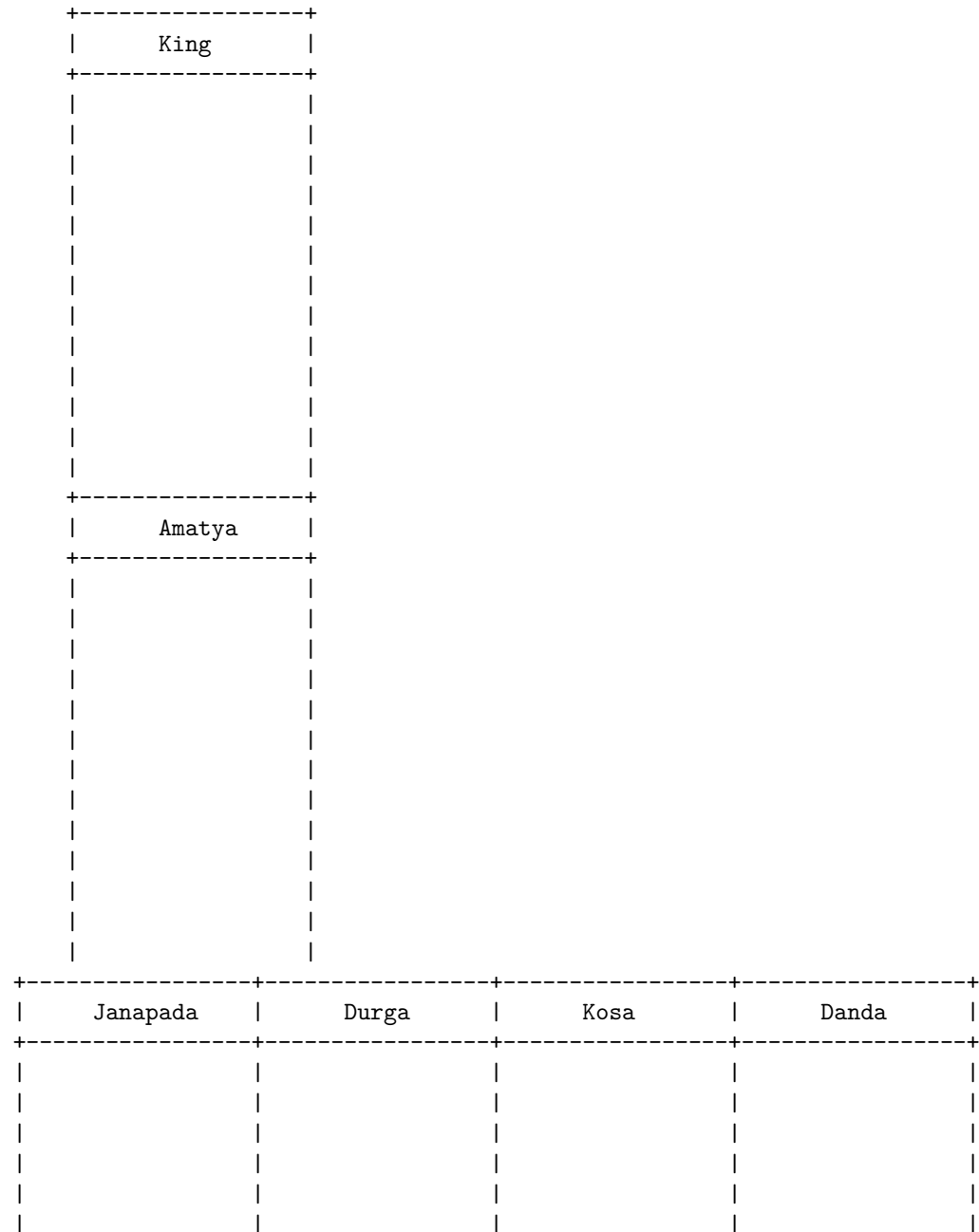


The Seven Limbs of the State in Ancient India is a political theory formulated by Kautilya in his treatise Arthashastra. It describes the seven essential elements of a state that are necessary for its stability and prosperity. The seven limbs are:

- King: The ruler of the state who is responsible for peace, justice and welfare of the people. He is the supreme authority and the source of law.
- Amatya: The ministers or bureaucrats who assist the king in administration and policy making. They are selected based on merit and loyalty.
- Janapada: The territory or population of the state. It is the basis of the state's resources and power. It should be well protected and cultivated.
- Durga: The fort or capital of the state. It is the center of the state's defense and economy. It should be strategically located and well fortified.
- Kosa: The treasury or wealth of the state. It is the source of the state's expenditure and revenue. It should be well managed and increased.
- Danda: The coercive authority or military of the state. It is the instrument of the state's security and expansion. It should be well trained and disciplined.
- Mitra: The ally or friend of the state. It is the partner of the state's diplomacy and trade. It should be well chosen and maintained.

The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of the Seven Limbs of the State in Ancient India:

The Seven Limbs of the State in Ancient India



A diagram illustrating a grid structure. A horizontal dashed line with '+' markers at the ends and four intermediate points is shown. Below it, a vertical dashed line with '+' markers at the top and bottom and four intermediate points is shown. The intersection of these two lines is labeled 'Mitra'.

Society in Ancient India

The following diagram illustrates the basic structure of society in ancient India, based on the sources from the web search results. It shows the four main classes or varnas, the four stages or ashrams of life, and some of the features of the Indus Valley Civilization and the Iron Age Civilization.

Brahmins (priests, teachers, scholars)	Kshatriyas (warriors, rulers, administrators)	Vaishyas (merchants, farmers, artisans)	Shudras (servants, laborers, outcasts)
Brahmacharya (student stage,	Grihastha (householder	Vanaprastha (retired stage,	Sannyasa (renunciation

celibacy, learning)	stage, marriage, family, work)	detachment, forest)	stage, asceticism, liberation)	
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
Indus Valley Civilization (3300-1300 BCE) (urbanization, sanitation, trade, writing)			Iron Age Civilization (1200-300 BCE) (Vedic culture, kingdoms, literature, art)	

Purusārtha is a key concept in Hinduism that refers to the four proper goals or aims of a human life. These are Dharma (righteousness, moral values), Artha (prosperity, economic values), Kama (pleasure, love, psychological values) and Moksha (liberation, spiritual values).

In ancient India, the concept of Purusārtha was used to guide the social ethics and individual conduct of different classes and stages of life. The four goals were not mutually exclusive, but rather interdependent and complementary. However, different goals were given different priorities depending on the varna (social class) and ashrama (stage of life) of a person. The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of a Purusārtha in Society in Ancient India:

Purusārtha in Society in Ancient India

+-----+	+-----+	+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
Dharma	Artha	Kama	Moksha	
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
Brahmins	Kshatriyas	Vaishyas	Shudras	
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+	+-----+	+-----+

	Brahmacharya		Grihastha		Vanaprastha		Sannyasa	
+-----+-----+-----+-----+								

The diagram shows the four goals of Purusārtha along the top row, and the four varnas and the four ashramas along the left and right columns, respectively. The diagram also shows the relative importance of each goal for each class and stage of life, indicated by the size of the cell. For example, Dharma was the most important goal for Brahmins (priests and teachers), who were expected to uphold the moral and religious laws of the society. Artha was the most important goal for Kshatriyas (warriors and rulers), who were responsible for protecting and governing the society. Kama was the most important goal for Vaishyas (merchants and farmers), who were engaged in economic and productive activities. Moksha was the most important goal for Shudras (servants and laborers), who were considered to be the lowest in the social hierarchy and had limited rights and opportunities. Similarly, Brahmacharya (student stage) was the stage of life where Dharma was the primary focus, Grihastha (householder stage) was the stage where Artha and Kama were the main pursuits, Vanaprastha (retired stage) was the stage where Moksha became more important, and Sannyasa (renunciant stage) was the stage where Moksha was the sole aim. The diagram also shows that the goals of Purusārtha were not fixed or rigid, but rather flexible and adaptable to the changing circumstances and needs of a person. For example, a person could pursue Moksha at any stage of life, or a person could switch from one varna to another based on their qualifications and actions. The concept of Purusārtha was thus a dynamic and holistic framework for leading a balanced and meaningful life in ancient India.

Varnāshrama System in Society in Ancient India

The Varnāshrama system was a social and moral order that divided the Hindu society into four classes (varnas) and four stages of life (ashramas). The four varnas were Brahman (priests and teachers), Kshatriya (kings and warriors), Vaishya (traders and merchants), and Sudra (servants and laborers). The four ashramas were Brahmacharya (student), Grihastha (householder), Vanaprastha (forest dweller), and Sannyasa (renunciate). Each varna and ashrama had specific duties and obligations (dharma) that were meant to ensure the harmony and welfare of the individual and the society.

The following diagram illustrates the basic structure of the Varnāshrama system using ASCII characters:

+-----+-----+-----+-----+			
BRAHMAN	KSHATRIYA	VAISHYA	SUDRA
Priests and teachers	Kings and warriors	Traders and merchants	Servants and laborers

BRAHMACHARYA	BRAHMACHARYA	BRAHMACHARYA	BRAHMACHARYA
Student stage	Student stage	Student stage	Student stage
Learn the scriptures and the arts	Learn the skills of administration and warfare	Learn the skills of commerce and agriculture	Learn the skills of service and craftsmanship
GRIHASTHA	GRIHASTHA	GRIHASTHA	GRIHASTHA
Householder stage	Householder stage	Householder stage	Householder stage
Perform the rituals and sacrifices	Perform the duties of protection and justice	Perform the duties of production and trade	Perform the duties of support and maintenance
Support the other varnas	Support the other varnas	Support the other varnas	Support the other varnas
VANAPRASTHA	VANAPRASTHA	VANAPRASTHA	VANAPRASTHA
Forest dweller stage	Forest dweller stage	Forest dweller stage	Forest dweller stage
Retire from worldly life	Retire from worldly life	Retire from worldly life	Retire from worldly life
Seek spiritual wisdom and detachment	Seek spiritual wisdom and detachment	Seek spiritual wisdom and detachment	Seek spiritual wisdom and detachment

Āshrama or the Stages of Life in Society in Ancient India

The following is a detailed ascii diagram for Āshrama or the Stages of Life in Society in Ancient India :

Brahmacharya	Gṛhastha	Vanaprastha	Sannyasa
Student	Householder	Forest dweller	Renunciate
Age: 8-25	Age: 25-50	Age: 50-75	Age: 75+
Duties: - Chastity - Devotion - Obedience	Duties: - Marriage - Procreation - Sustenance	Duties: - Retreat - Meditation - Service	Duties: - Detachment - Liberation - Wisdom
Goals: - Dharma - Artha - Kama	Goals: - Dharma - Artha - Kama	Goals: - Dharma - Artha - Moksha	Goals: - Dharma - Moksha

Marriage in Society in Ancient India was a complex and diverse institution that varied according to region, caste, religion, and time period. It was not only a legal and social bond between a man and a woman, but also a sacred and spiritual one that involved the families and the communities of both parties. Marriage was also influenced by various factors such as economic, political, and cultural conditions. The following diagram attempts to illustrate some of the main aspects and types of marriage in ancient India, based on the information from the web search results .

Marriage in Society in Ancient India

Brahma	Daiva
The most righteous form of marriage.	The daughter is given to a priest as a sacrificial
The groom is well-	

|

|



Understanding Gender as a social category in Society in Ancient India

The following diagram is an attempt to illustrate the concept of gender as a social category in society in ancient India, based on the information from the search results. It is not a comprehensive or accurate representation of the historical reality, but a simplified and generalized model.

The diagram uses the following symbols:

- M: Male
- F: Female
- T: Third gender
- R: Rishi (sage)
- K: King
- Q: Queen

- P: Priest
- W: Warrior
- V: Vaishya (merchant)
- S: Shudra (servant)
- C: Caste
- E: Education
- L: Law
- R: Religion
- A: Art
- P: Politics

The diagram shows the following aspects:

- The gender spectrum in ancient India, which included the third gender as a natural and recognized category.
- The gender roles and expectations in different periods of ancient India, such as the Indus Valley Civilization, the early Vedic period, the later Vedic period, and the Buddhist and Jain cultures.
- The gender inequalities and discriminations that emerged and intensified in the later Vedic period and beyond, such as the loss of political rights, the practice of child marriage and sati, and the exclusion from religious ceremonies and education for women and the third gender.
- The gender achievements and contributions in various fields of ancient Indian society, such as religion, art, law, and politics, by women and the third gender.

The diagram is as follows:

	Indus Valley Civilization	Early Vedic Period	Later Vedic Period	Buddhist and Jain Cultures
Gender Spectrum	M F T	M F T	M F	M F T
Gender Roles and Expectations	M F T: Equal participation in social and economic life	M F T: Equal participation in social and religious life	M: Dominant F: Subordinate T: Marginalized	M F T: Equal participation in social and religious life
Gender Inequalities and Discriminations	M F T: Equal rights and opportunities	M F T: Equal rights and opportunities	M: Privileged F: Oppressed T: Ignored	M F T: Equal rights and opportunities
Gender Achievements and	M F T: Contributions in C E L R A P	M F T: Contributions in C E L R A P	M: R K P W V S F: Q W V S T: None	M F T: Contributions in C E L R A P

Contributions				
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+	+-----+	+-----+

The following is a detailed ASCII diagram for the representation of women in historical traditions in society in ancient India.

The representation of women in historical traditions in society in ancient India

Indus Valley Civilization	Vedic Period	Post-Vedic Period
- Worship of mother goddess	- Women had access to education and religious rites	- Women's status declined
- Equal honor with men	- Participated in public life	- Restricted to domestic roles
- Full freedom	- Could choose their husbands	- Subordinate to men
- Good condition	- Role models in epics and scriptures	- Child marriage, sati, prostitution and devadasi system prevalent

Challenges faced by Women in Society in Ancient India

The following is a detailed ascii diagram for Challenges faced by Women in Society in Ancient India:

Ancient India	Medieval India	Modern India
- Women enjoyed high status and equality with men	- Women faced decline in status and rights	- Women have more opportunities and rights than before
- Women participated in economic, religious and	- Women were confined to domestic sphere	- Women face challenges such as gender discrimination,
	- Women were subjected to social evils such	

educational activities		as sati, child marriage, purdah, polygamy etc.		violence, dowry, female foeticide, etc.
- Women had freedom of choice in marriage and divorce		- Women had limited access to education and public life		- Women are still underrepresented in politics and leadership roles
- Women were respected and honored as mothers and goddesses		- Women were dependent on men for their survival and status		- Women are striving for empowerment and equality
+-----+ +-----+ +-----+				

The four-class classification of society in ancient India, also known as the varna system, was a hierarchical division of people based on their occupation and duty. The four classes were:

- Brahmins: the priests, scholars, and teachers who performed rituals and studied the sacred texts.
- Kshatriyas: the rulers, warriors, and administrators who protected the society and maintained order.
- Vaishyas: the farmers, traders, and artisans who produced and exchanged goods and services.
- Shudras: the laborers and service providers who performed menial and low-caste tasks.

The following diagram illustrates the four-class classification of society in ancient India using ASCII characters:

Four-class Classification of Society in Ancient India

BRAHMINS	KSHATRIYAS	VAISHYAS	SHUDRAS
Priests, scholars, teachers	Rulers, warriors, administrators	Farmers, traders, artisans	Laborers, service providers
Perform rituals and study sacred texts	Protect society and maintain order	Produce and exchange goods and services	Perform menial and low-caste tasks

-----+

Slavery in society in ancient India was a complex and varied phenomenon that changed over time and across regions. There is no consensus among scholars about the extent, nature, and causes of slavery in ancient India. Some sources suggest that slavery was unknown or rare in ancient India, while others indicate that slavery was a common and accepted institution in various periods and contexts. The following diagram attempts to illustrate some of the main aspects and sources of slavery in ancient India, based on the available evidence.

Slavery in Society in Ancient India

Vedic Period (1500-500 BCE)	Mauryan Period (321-185 BCE)	Gupta Period (320-550 CE)
- Slavery was a recognized institution in the Smritis and other Hindu law books - Slaves were mainly non-Aryan enemies (Dasyu and Dasa) - Slaves were employed in domestic service, ritual sacrifice, and warfare - Slaves were treated as property and commodities - Slaves had no legal rights and protections	- Slavery was regulated by state laws and edicts - Slaves were mainly prisoners of war, criminals, and debtors - Slaves were employed in agriculture, mining, domestic service, and administration - Slaves were treated as property and commodities - Slaves had some legal rights and protections	- Slavery was widespread and diverse in forms - Slaves were mainly debtors, criminals, prisoners of war, and tributaries - Slaves were employed in agriculture, crafts, domestic service, and administration - Slaves were treated as property and commodities - Slaves had some legal rights and protections

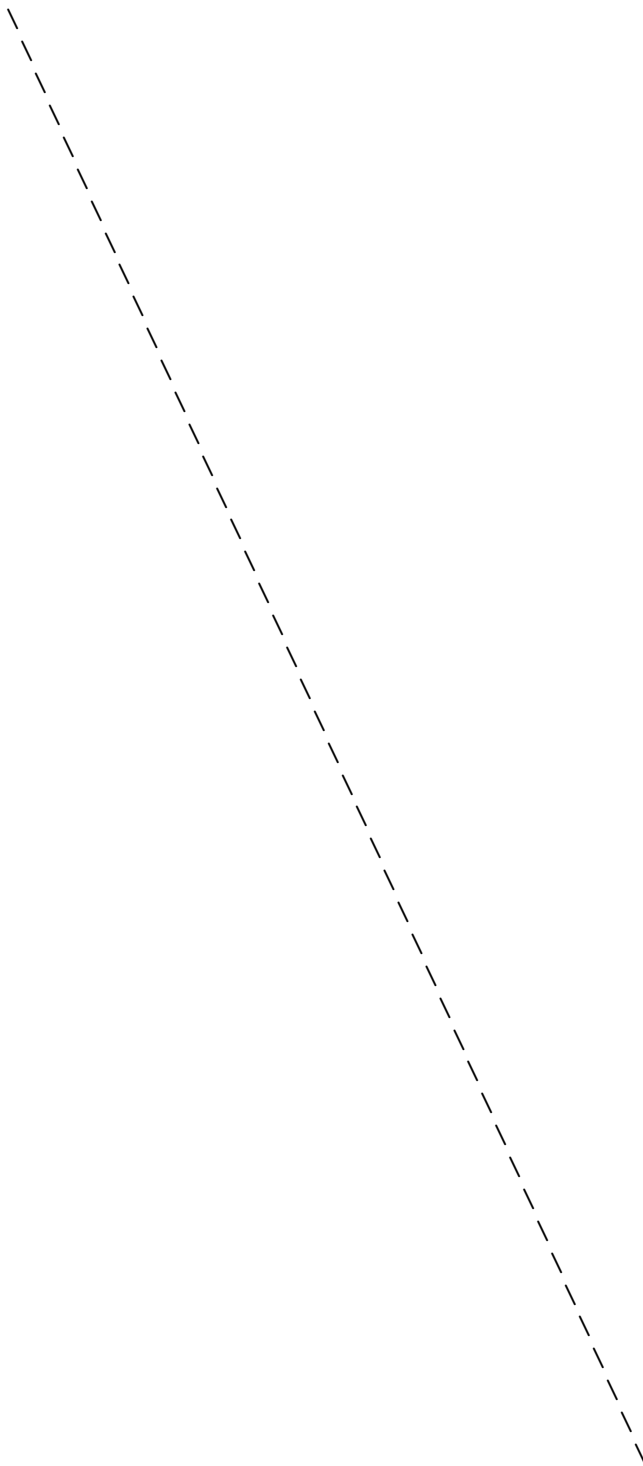
- |
- Classical Literature
 - | * Sanskrit drama and poetry
 - | * Pali and Prakrit literature
 - | * Tamil Sangam literature
 - | * Kannada and Telugu literature
 - |
- Medieval Literature
 - | * Bhakti and Sufi literature
 - | * Regional languages and dialects
 - | * Persian and Arabic influences
 - | * Historical and biographical works
 - |
- Modern Literature
 - * Colonial and post-colonial literature
 - * Indian English literature
 - * Dalit and feminist literature
 - * Indian diaspora literature
 - * Contemporary genres and themes
- + Indian Culture
 - |
 - Religion and Philosophy
 - | * Hinduism
 - | * Buddhism
 - | * Jainism
 - | * Sikhism
 - | * Islam
 - | * Christianity
 - | * Zoroastrianism
 - | * Judaism
 - | * Other faiths and sects
 - | * Indian schools of philosophy
 - |
 - Art and Architecture
 - | * Indus Valley Civilization
 - | * Mauryan and Gupta art
 - | * Buddhist and Jain art
 - | * Temple and cave architecture
 - | * Islamic and Mughal art
 - | * Rajput and Deccan art
 - | * Colonial and modern art
 - | * Folk and tribal art
 - | * Contemporary and experimental art
 - |
 - Music and Dance

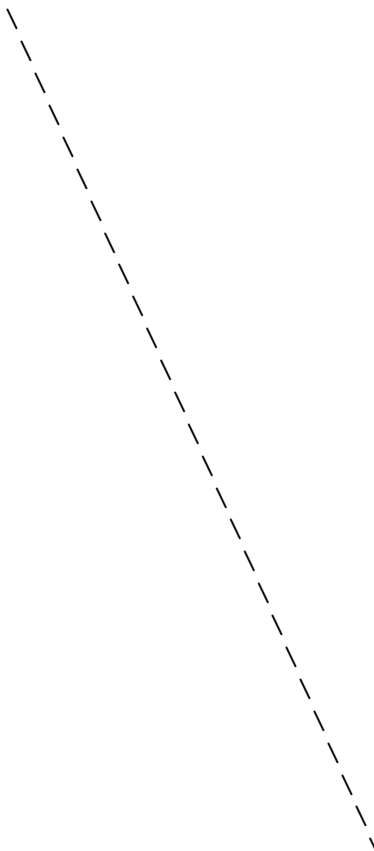
- | * Vedic and classical music
- | * Carnatic and Hindustani music
- | * Folk and regional music
- | * Ghazal and Qawwali music
- | * Bhajan and Kirtan music
- | * Film and pop music
- | * Fusion and world music
- | * Classical and folk dances
- | * Bharatanatyam and Kathak dances
- | * Odissi and Manipuri dances
- | * Kuchipudi and Mohiniyattam dances
- | * Kathakali and Yakshagana dances
- | * Bhangra and Garba dances
- | * Contemporary and western dances
- |
- Language and Literature
 - | * See the diagram for Indian Literature above
 - |
- Cuisine and Clothing
 - | * Regional and ethnic diversity
 - | * Vegetarian and non-vegetarian dishes
 - | * Spices and herbs
 - | * Rice and wheat
 - | * Lentils and beans
 - | * Dairy and sweets
 - | * Tea and coffee
 - | * Fruits and vegetables
 - | * Sari and kurta
 - | * Salwar kameez and lehenga
 - | * Dhoti and lungi
 - | * Turban and cap
 - | * Shawl and scarf
 - | * Jewelry and accessories
 - |
- Festivals and Celebrations
 - * Diwali and Holi
 - * Dussehra and Navratri
 - * Ganesh Chaturthi and Janmashtami
 - * Eid and Ramadan
 - * Christmas and Easter
 - * Guru Nanak Jayanti and Baisakhi
 - * Buddha Purnima and Mahavir Jayanti
 - * Parsi New Year and Rosh Hashanah
 - * Pongal and Onam
 - * Bihu and Lohri
 - * Makar Sankranti and Basant Panchami

- + Indian Tradition
- |
- Family and Society
- | * Joint and nuclear families
- | * Patriarchy and matriarchy
- | * Caste and class
- |

The following diagram illustrates the evolution of script in India using ASCII characters. The diagram is not exhaustive, but shows some of the major scripts and their relationships. The diagram also indicates the approximate dates of the scripts and the languages they were used for.

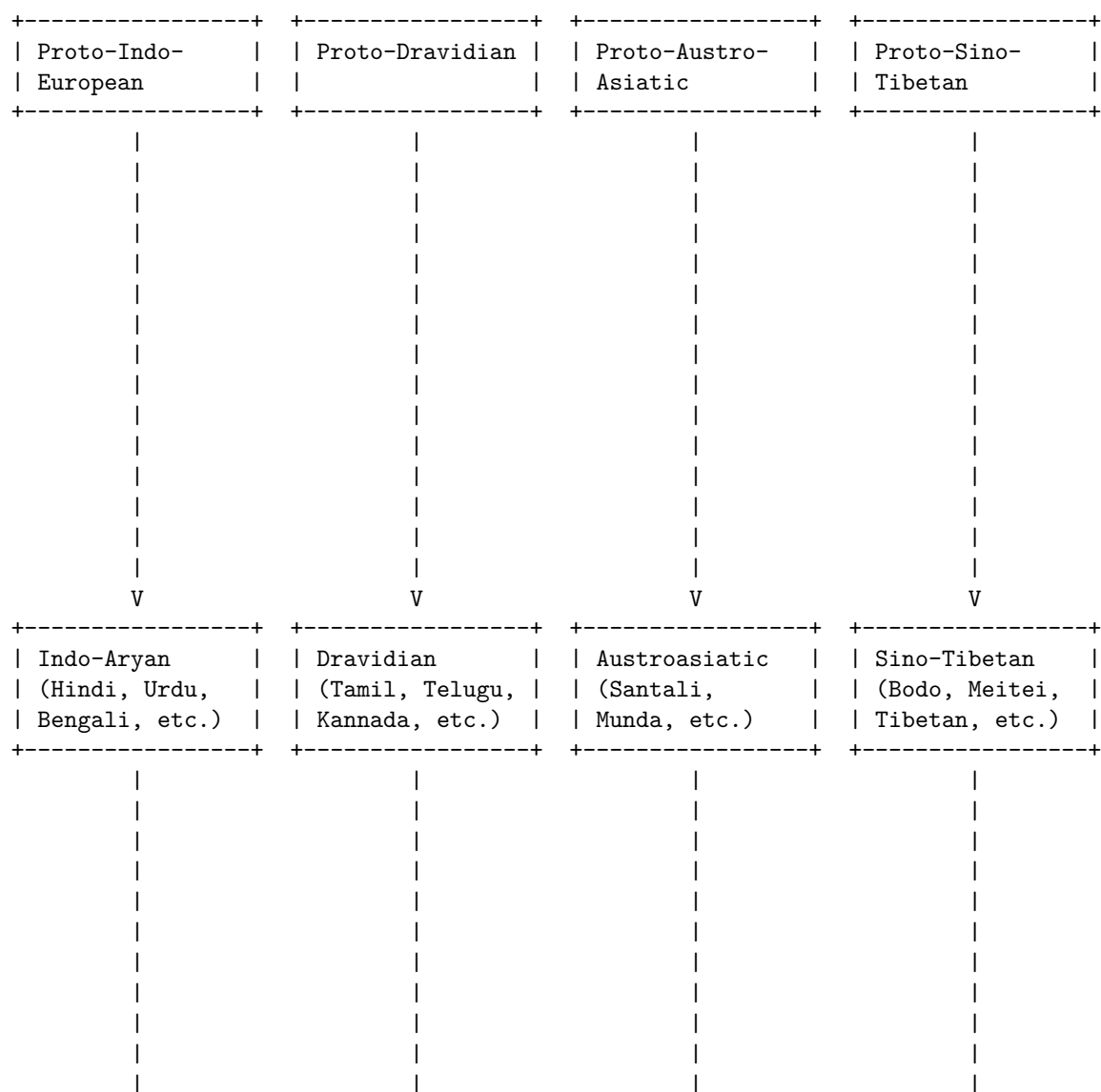
Brahmi (7th c. BC - 4th c. AD) Prakrit, Sanskrit, Pali, etc.
 Kharosthi (3rd c. BC - 4th c. AD) Prakrit, Gandhari, etc.

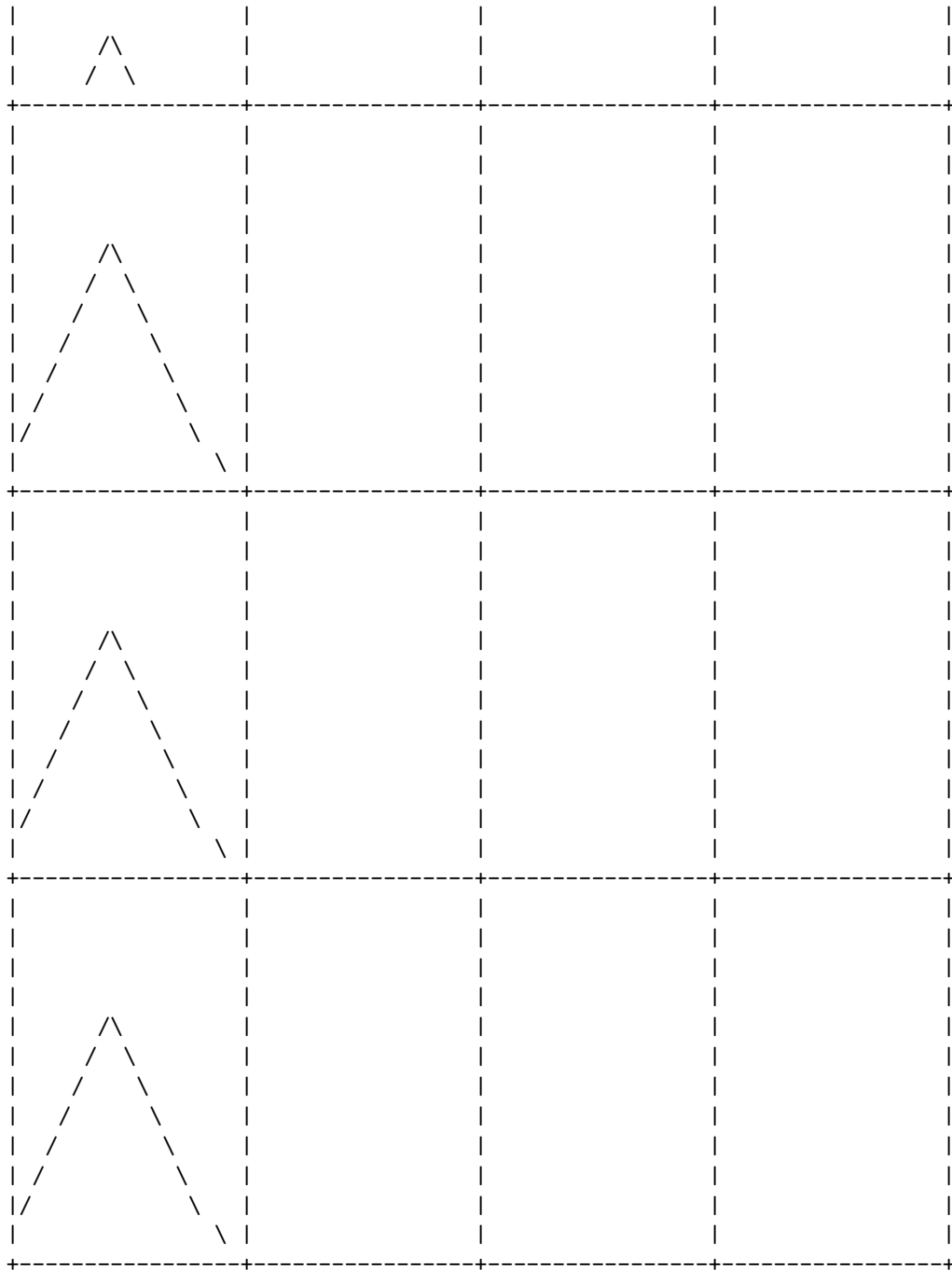




The evolution of languages in India is a complex and dynamic process that involves multiple factors such as migration, contact, religion, culture, politics and geography. India has a rich and diverse linguistic heritage, with over 780 languages spoken by its people. The major language families of India are Indo-Aryan, Dravidian, Austroasiatic and Sino-Tibetan, with some minor families such as Andamanese, Burushaski and Nihali. The following diagram illustrates the evolution of languages in India using ASCII art:

Evolution of languages in India





The above diagram is an example of a Harappan script inscription, drawn using ASCII characters. Each cell represents a sign or symbol, and the order of reading

is from right to left, top to bottom. The meaning of the signs is unknown, but some of them resemble animals, plants, or geometric shapes. The inscription may have been carved on a seal, a pottery, or a metal object. The script was used from around 2500 BCE to 1900 BCE, and was found in various sites across the Indus Valley and beyond.

The Brahmi script is the earliest writing system developed in India after the Indus script. It is one of the most influential writing systems; all modern Indian scripts and several hundred scripts found in Southeast and East Asia are derived from Brahmi. The Brahmi script is mentioned in the ancient Indian texts of Hinduism, Jainism and Buddhism, as well as their Chinese translations. The Brahmi script is an abugida, which means that each consonant has an inherent vowel, and other vowels are indicated by diacritical marks. The Brahmi script is written from left to right, and has 33 consonants and 9 vowels.

Brahmi Script

The following diagram illustrates the basic structure of the Brahmi script using ASCII characters. The consonants are shown in the first row, followed by the vowels in the second row. The diacritical marks for the vowels are shown in the third row, along with the corresponding vowel signs that are used when the vowel is not preceded by a consonant. The fourth row shows some examples of consonant clusters and ligatures that are formed by combining two or more consonants. The fifth row shows some numerals and punctuation marks that are used in the Brahmi script.

Consonants	k	kh	g	gh	ṇ	c	ch	j	jh	ñ	ṭ	ṭh	ḍ	ḍh	ṇ	t
Vowels	a	ā	i	ī	u	ū	ṛ	ṛ̣	e	ai	o	au	ṁ	ḥ		
Diacritics																
Vowel signs																
Examples																

The Vedas are the oldest and most sacred scriptures of Hinduism. They are composed of four collections of hymns, rituals, mantras, and philosophical texts in Sanskrit. The four Vedas are:

- Rigveda: The oldest and most important Veda, containing over 1000 hymns to various gods and goddesses, such as Indra, Agni, Soma, Varuna, and Surya. It also contains the famous Gayatri Mantra and the Nasadiya Sukta, which deals with the origin of the universe.
- Yajurveda: The Veda of sacrificial formulas, containing instructions for priests on how to perform various rituals and ceremonies, such as the Soma sacrifice, the Agnihotra, and the Ashvamedha. It also contains some hymns and prayers.
- Samaveda: The Veda of melodies, containing verses from the Rigveda that are meant to be sung with musical accompaniment. It is mainly used for the Soma sacrifice, a ritual that involves the consumption of a sacred plant juice.

- Atharvaveda: The Veda of magic and medicine, containing spells, charms, curses, and remedies for various ailments and problems, such as diseases, enemies, snakes, and demons. It also contains some philosophical and ethical texts, such as the Mundaka Upanishad and the Prashna Upanishad.

The Vedas

Rigveda	Yajurveda	Samaveda	Atharvaveda
Hymns to various gods and goddesses	Sacrificial formulas and instructions	Melodies for Soma ritual	Magic and medicine
Gayatri Mantra Nasadiya Sukta	Soma sacrifice Agnihotra Ashvamedha	Verses from Rigveda	Spells, charms, curses, remedies
Mundaka Upanishad Prashna Upanishad	Taittiriya Upanishad Shvetashvatara Upanishad	Chandogya Upanishad Kena Upanishad	Mundaka Upanishad Prashna Upanishad

The Upanishads are ancient Hindu scriptures that contain the philosophical and spiritual teachings of the Vedas. They explore the nature of reality, the self, and the supreme being. The Upanishads are also known as Vedanta, meaning “the end of the Vedas”.

The following diagram illustrates the basic structure of the Upanishads:

The Upanishads

-----+-----+-----+

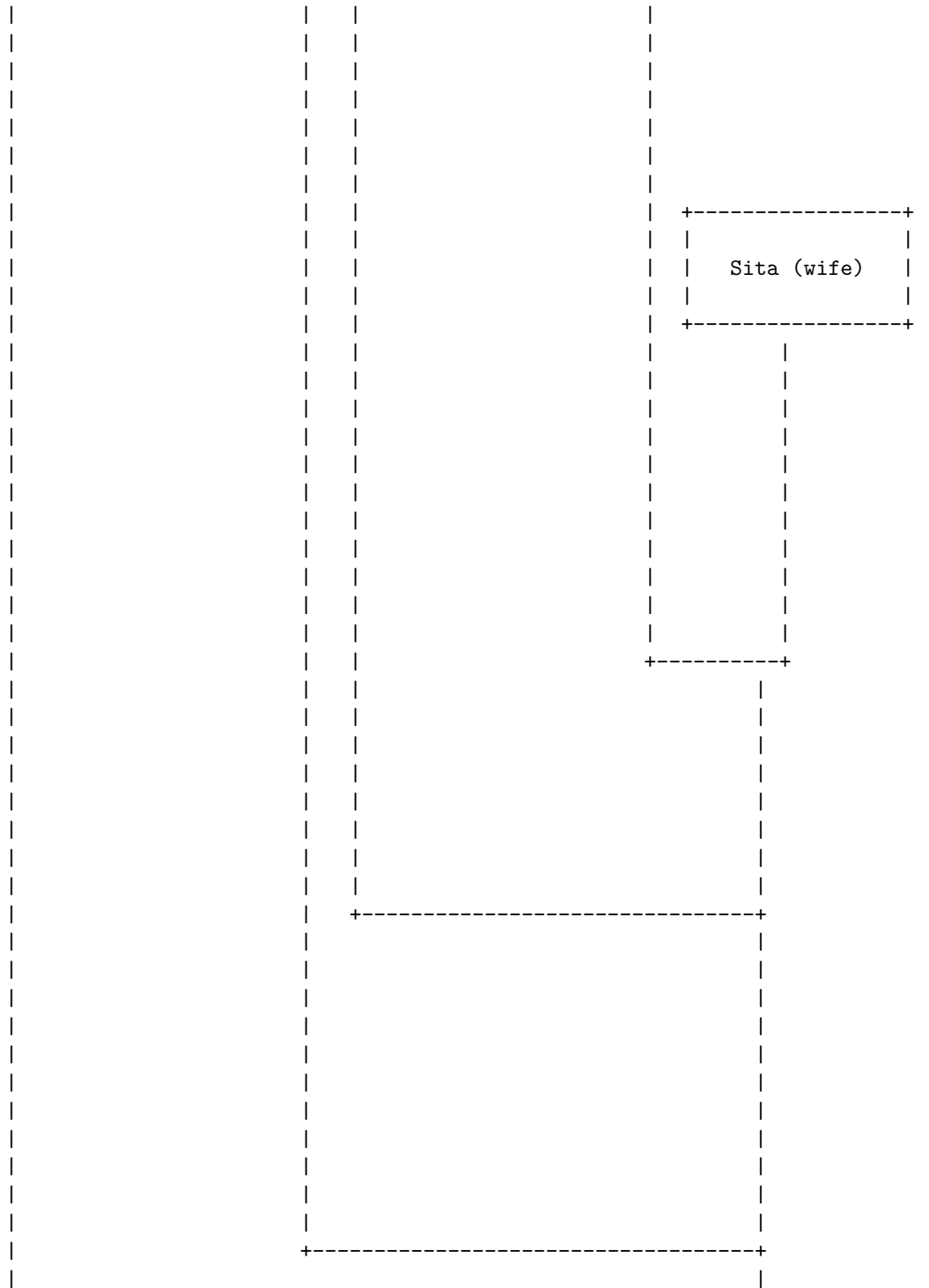
Rigveda	Samaveda	Yajurveda
Aitareya Kaushitaki	Chandogya Kena	Brihadaranyaka Taittiriya Katha
Atharvaveda	Other Upanishads	Muktika Upanishad
Mundaka Mandukya Prashna	Shvetashvatara Kaivalya Maitri	List of 108 Upanishads

The diagram shows the four Vedas and the Upanishads associated with each of them. The Rigveda, Samaveda, and Yajurveda have the oldest and most important Upanishads, while the Atharvaveda has some later ones. There are also other Upanishads that are not part of any Veda, but are considered authoritative by some traditions. The Muktika Upanishad is a meta-Upanishad that lists 108 Upanishads as the canonical ones. Each Upanishad contains various topics, such as the nature of brahman, the self, the soul, the mind, the senses, the ethics, the meditation, the liberation, and the rebirth.

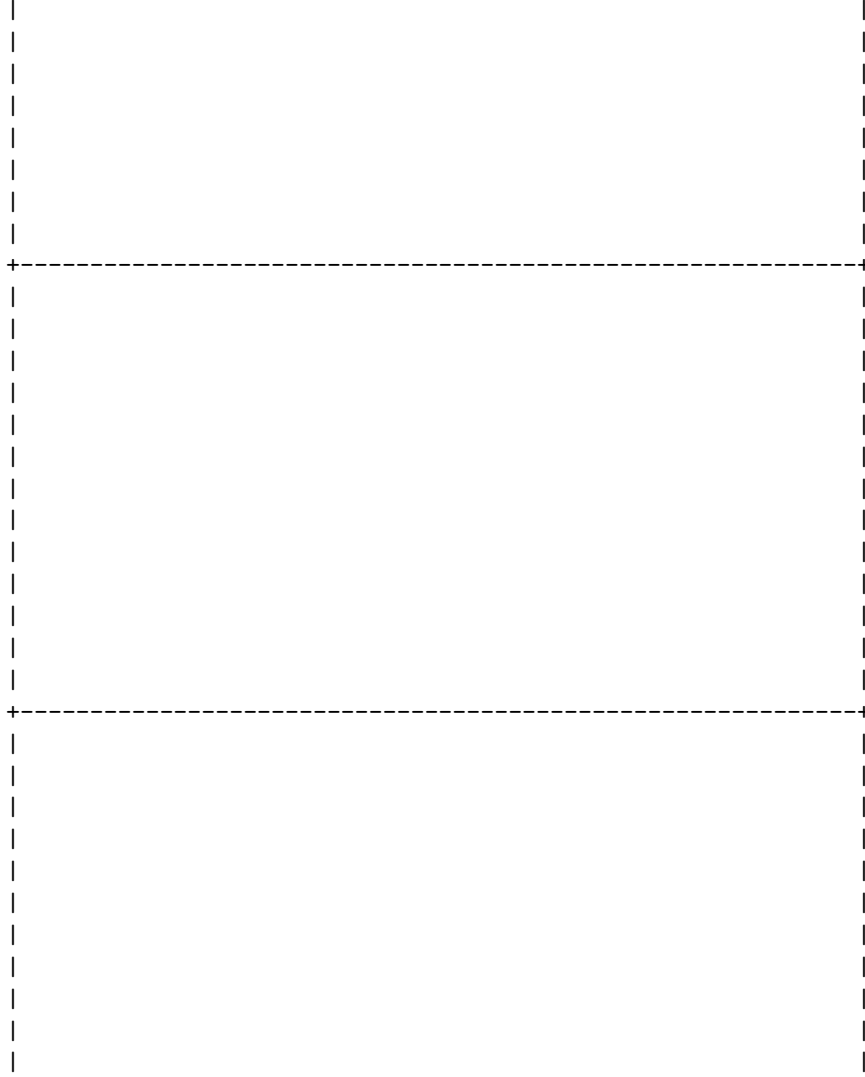
The Ramayana is a Hindu epic that narrates the life and adventures of Rama, the prince of Kosala, and his wife Sita. The main plot of the story is the abduction of Sita by the demon king Ravana and the rescue of her by Rama with the help of his brother Lakshmana and the monkey army led by Hanuman. The story also depicts the exile of Rama from his kingdom, his moral dilemmas, his battles with various enemies, and his eventual coronation as king.

The Ramayana

King Dasaratha	Prince Rama	Demon Ravana



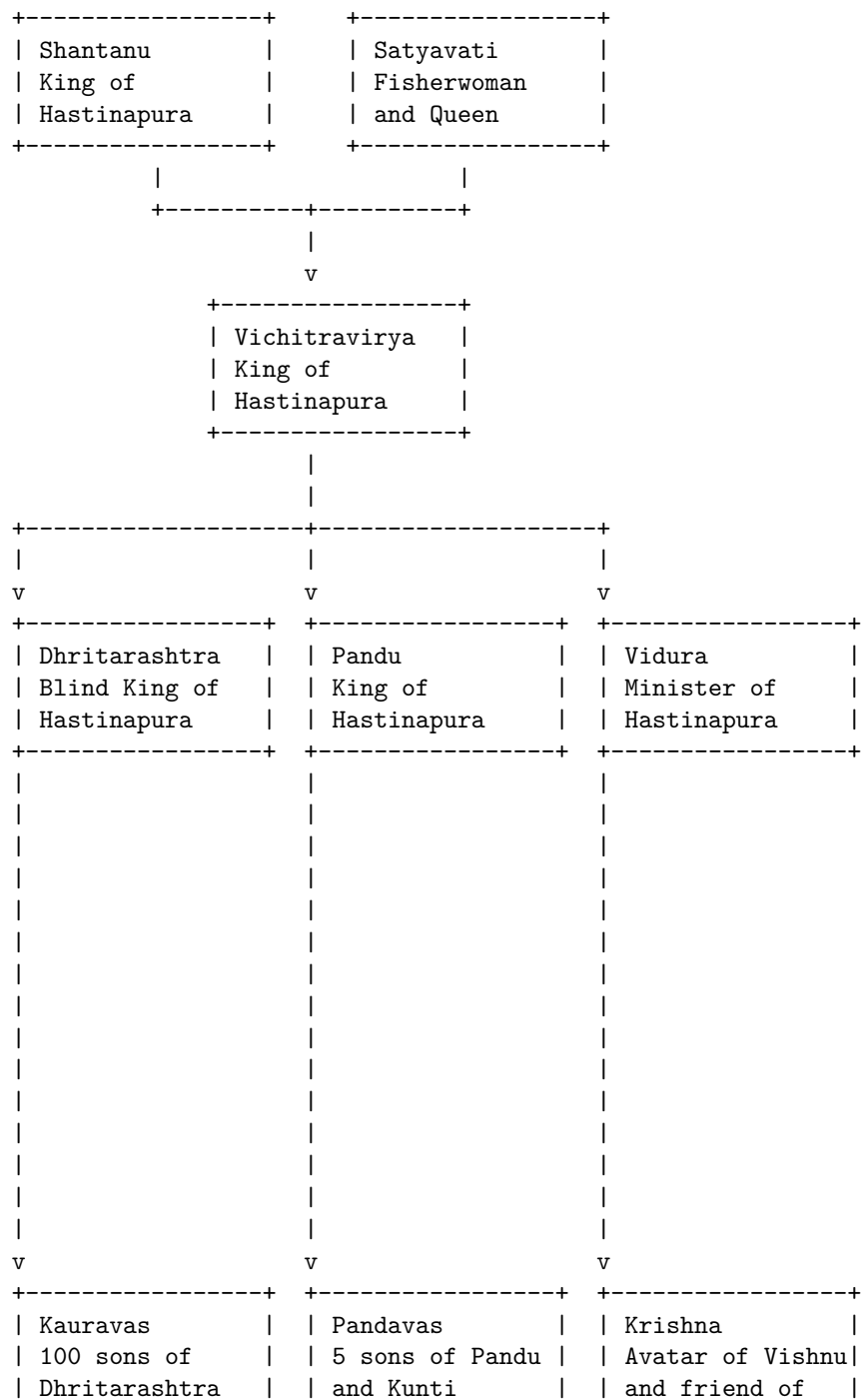




The Mahabharata is one of the two great Sanskrit epics of ancient India, the other being the Ramayana. It is a story of the Kurukshetra War, a conflict between two branches of the Bharata dynasty, the Kauravas and the Pandavas, over the throne of Hastinapura. The Mahabharata also contains various philosophical and ethical discourses, such as the Bhagavad Gita, and is considered a sacred text by Hindus.

The following diagram is an attempt to illustrate the basic structure of the Mahabharata in ASCII art. It is not comprehensive or accurate, but only a simplified representation of the main characters and events.

The Mahabharata



and Gandhari	and Madri	the Pandavas
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
v	v	
+-----+	+-----+	
Kurukshetra War	Bhagavad Gita	
18-day battle	Dialogue between	
between the	Krishna and	
Kauravas and	Arjuna	
the Pandavas	on the eve of	
for the throne	the war	
of Hastinapura		
+-----+	+-----+	

The Puranas are a vast genre of Indian literature that contain stories and legends about various aspects of Hinduism, such as creation, gods, sages, dynasties, and sacred places. They are considered as the fifth Veda and are divided into six categories based on the main deity they glorify: Vishnu, Shiva, Brahma, Shakti, Agni, and Surya. Each category has one major Purana and several minor Puranas. There are 18 major Puranas and 18 minor Puranas, making a total of 36 Puranas.

Puranas

The following diagram illustrates the basic structure of the Puranas using ASCII art:

+-----+-----+-----+		
Vishnu Puranas	Shiva Puranas	Brahma Puranas
+-----+-----+-----+		
Vishnu Purana	Shiva Purana	Brahma Purana
Narada Purana	Linga Purana	Brahmanda Purana
Padma Purana	Skanda Purana	Brahma Vaivarta
Garuda Purana	Vayu Purana	Markandeya
Varaha Purana	Kurma Purana	Bhavishya
Bhagavata Purana	Matsya Purana	Vamana
+-----+-----+-----+		
Shakti Puranas	Agni Puranas	Surya Puranas
+-----+-----+-----+		
Devi Bhagavata	Agni Purana	Surya Purana
Devi Mahatmya	Narasimha Purana	Bhagavata Purana
Kalika Purana	Shiva Purana	Brahma Purana
Lalita Sahasra	Linga Purana	Markandeya
Mahabhagavata	Skanda Purana	Matsya Purana
Shiva Purana	Vayu Purana	Vamana
+-----+-----+-----+		

Buddhist literature is the collection of writings that preserve the teachings of the Buddha and his followers. Buddhist literature can be divided into three main categories: the canonical scriptures, the commentaries, and the sectarian works. The canonical scriptures are the most authoritative and oldest sources of Buddhist doctrine and practice. They are written in various languages, such as Pali, Prakrit, and Sanskrit.

Pali is an ancient language that is closely related to Sanskrit, but simpler and more colloquial. It was the language spoken by the Buddha and his disciples in the region of Magadha and South Bihar. Pali is the main language of the Theravada school of Buddhism, which is dominant in Sri Lanka and Southeast Asia. The Pali canon, also known as the Tipitaka or the Three Baskets, is the collection of Pali scriptures that contains the core teachings of the Buddha and his followers. The Pali canon consists of three main sections: the Vinaya Pitaka (the Basket of Discipline), which contains the rules and regulations for the monastic community; the Sutta Pitaka (the Basket of Discourses), which contains the sermons and dialogues of the Buddha and his disciples; and the Abhidhamma Pitaka (the Basket of Higher Teaching), which contains the systematic and philosophical analysis of the Buddhist doctrine.

Prakrit is a generic term for any language that is derived from or different from Sanskrit. Prakrit languages were spoken by various people and regions in ancient India, and they reflect the diversity and richness of the Indian culture

and literature. Prakrit languages were used by both the Brahmanical/Hindu and the Buddhist traditions, and they produced many genres of literature, such as poetry, drama, epics, and stories. Some of the most prominent Prakrit languages are Sauraseni, Maharastri, Magadhi, and Gandhari. Prakrit literature is mostly preserved in the Jain canon, which is the collection of scriptures that contains the teachings of the Jain religion. The Jain canon consists of two main sections: the Agamas (the Canonical Texts), which contain the sermons and dialogues of the Jain teachers; and the Angabahya (the Non-Canonical Texts), which contain the commentaries and elaborations of the Jain doctrine.

Sanskrit is the classical and sacred language of India, and the primary language of the Hindu and the Mahayana schools of Buddhism. Sanskrit is a highly refined and sophisticated language, and it has a rich and diverse literature that spans many centuries and genres. Sanskrit literature is mostly preserved in the Hindu canon, which is the collection of scriptures that contains the teachings of the Hindu religion. The Hindu canon consists of two main sections: the Shruti (the Heard), which contains the Vedas, the Upanishads, and the Bhagavad Gita; and the Smriti (the Remembered), which contains the Epics, the Puranas, and the Dharma Shastras.

The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of a Buddhist literature in Pali, Prakrit, and Sanskrit:

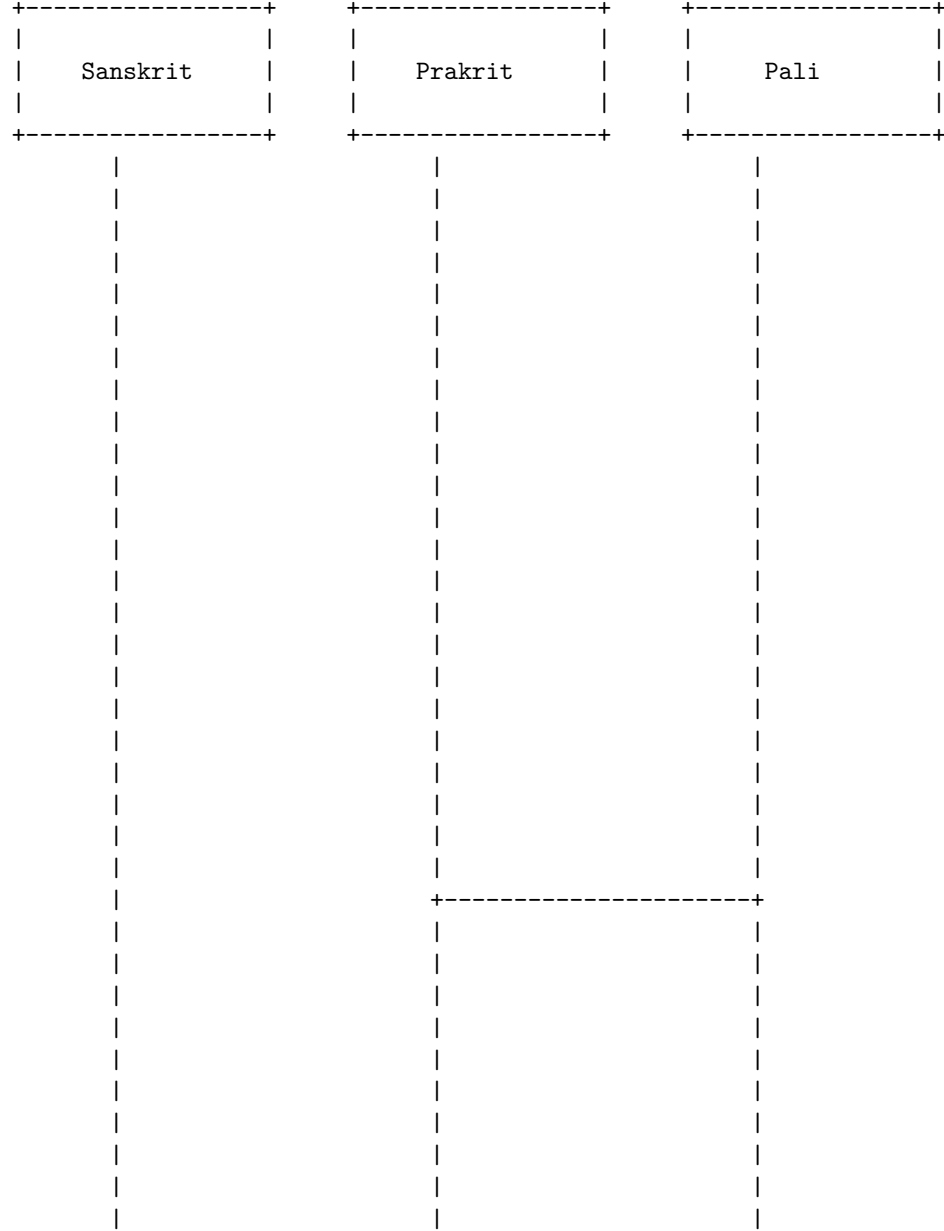
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
Pali Canon	Jain Canon	Hindu Canon
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
Pali Texts	Prakrit Texts	Sanskrit Texts
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
Theravada	Jainism	Hinduism
Buddhism		Mahayana
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
Pali	Prakrit	Sanskrit
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+

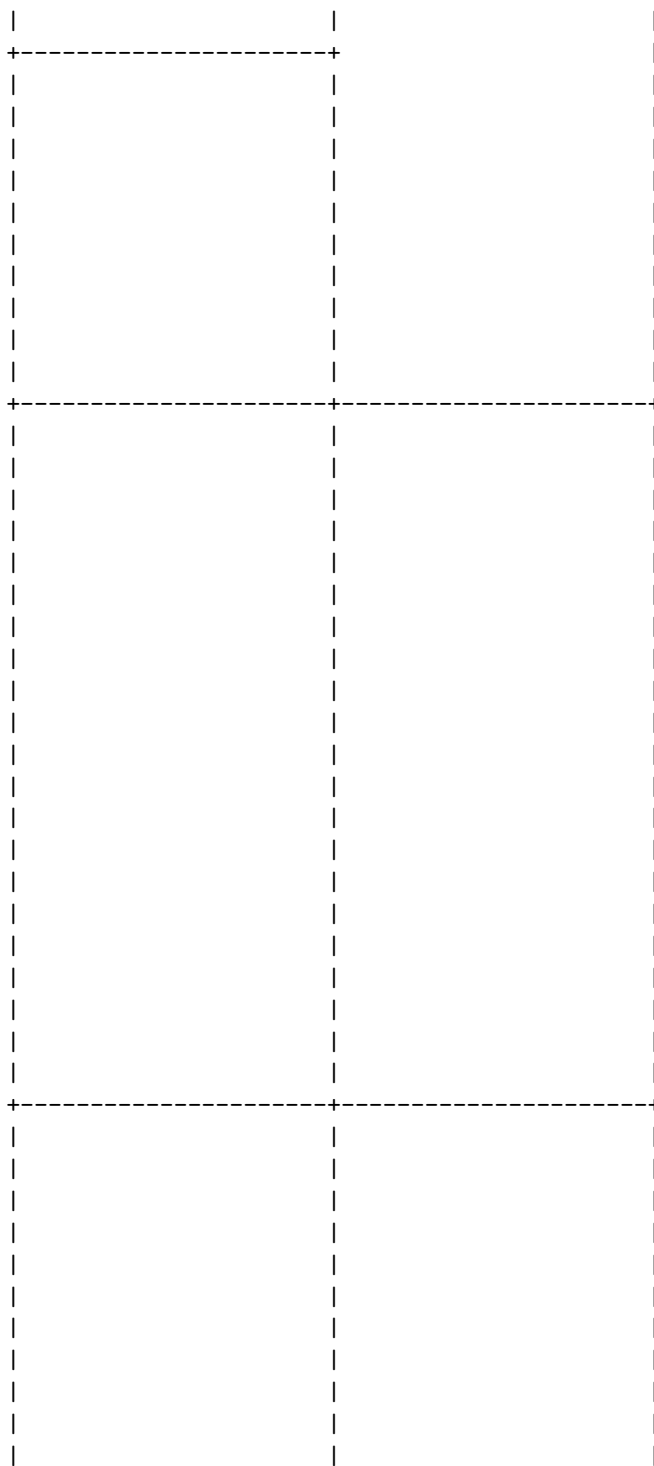
Jain Literature in Pali, Prakrit And Sanskrit

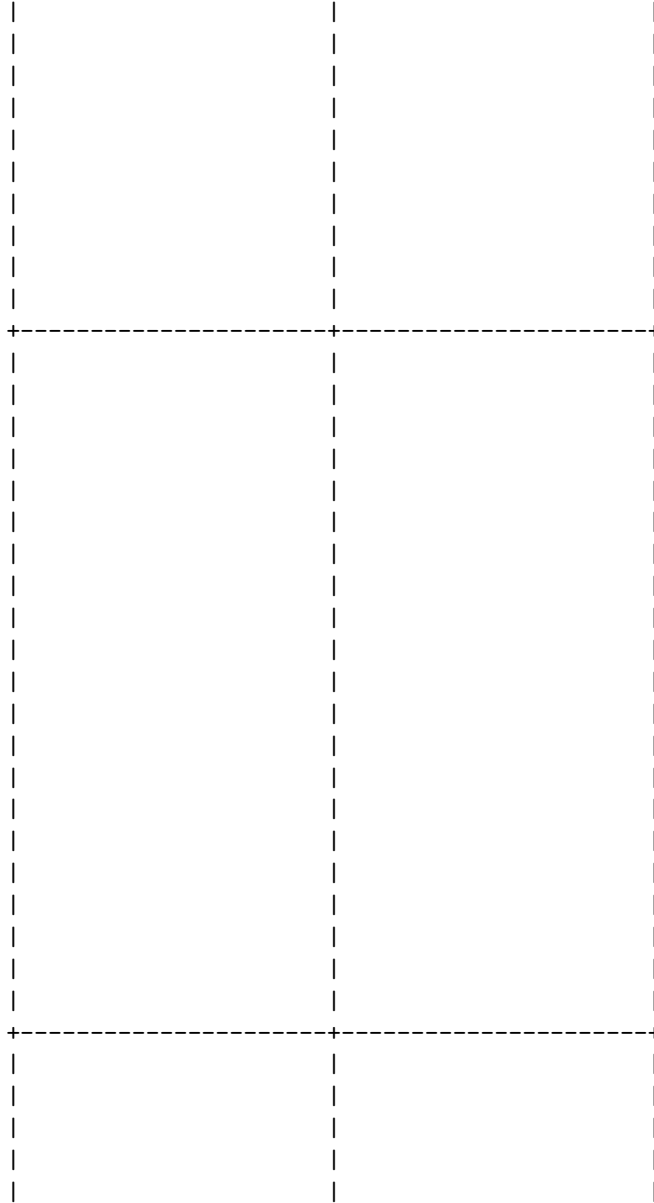
Jain literature refers to the literature of the Jain religion, which is a vast and ancient literary tradition that was initially transmitted orally. The oldest surviving material is contained in the canonical Jain Agamas, which are written

in Ardhamagadhi, a Prakrit (Middle-Indo Aryan) language. Prakrit is a form of Sanskrit, which is the oldest and most influential language of ancient India. Pali is another form of Prakrit, which was used in Magadha and became the language of Buddhism .

The following diagram illustrates the relationship between Sanskrit, Prakrit and Pali languages, and the Jain literature written in them.





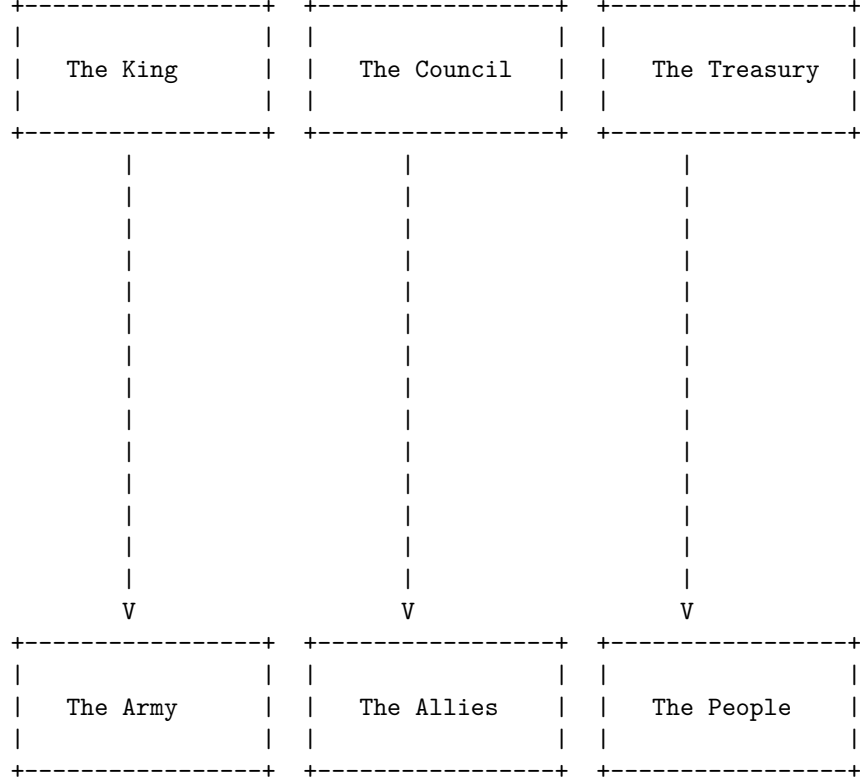


Kautilya's Arthashastra is a treatise on politics, economics, military strategy, and social organization attributed to Kautilya, who was a professor at Taxila University and later the Prime Minister of the Mauryan Empire . The Arthashastra covers various topics such as the duties of the king, the structure of the administration, the management of the treasury, the conduct of foreign affairs, the welfare of the people, and the methods of warfare .

The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of Kautilya's Arthashas-

tra using ASCII characters:

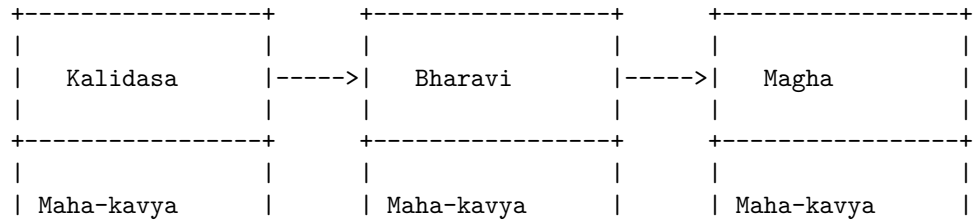
Kautilya's Arthashastra



Famous Sanskrit Authors in India

The following is a possible ascii diagram for Famous Sanskrit Authors in India, based on the information from the web search results. It is not exhaustive or definitive, but only illustrative.

The diagram shows some of the major Sanskrit authors and their works, grouped by genre and time period. The arrows indicate the influence or inspiration of one author on another. The asterisk (*) denotes the Jnanpith Award winner.



(Epic poetry)	(Epic poetry)	(Epic poetry)
Shakuntala	Kiratarjuniya	Shishupala-vadha
Raghuvamsa		
Kumarasambhava		
Meghaduta		
4th-5th century CE	6th century CE	7th century CE
Bhasa	Shudraka	Vishakhadatta
Nataka (Drama)	Nataka (Drama)	Nataka (Drama)
Svapna-vasavadatta	Mrichchhakatika	Mudrarakshasa
Pratima-nataka		Devi-chandragupta
Balacharita		
3rd century CE	5th century CE	8th century CE
Bhartrihari	Jayadeva	Vidyadhar Shastri
Kavya (Lyric poetry)	Kavya (Lyric poetry)	Kavya (Lyric poetry)

-----+	-----+	-----+	-----+
Shringara-shataka	Gita-govinda	Surya-sataka	
Vairagya-shataka		Varuna-sataka	

Telugu literature is the body of works written in the Telugu language, a Dravidian language spoken in India. It consists of various genres, such as poetry, epics, short stories, novels, plays, and song lyrics. Telugu literature dates back to at least the 11th century, when the Mahabharata was first translated into Telugu by Nannaya. Telugu literature has been influenced by various literary traditions, such as Sanskrit, Tamil, Persian, Urdu, and English. Telugu literature can be broadly divided into four periods: ancient, medieval, modern, and contemporary.

Telugu Literature

-----+	-----+	-----+	-----+	-----+
Ancient	Medieval	Modern	Contemporary	
-----+	-----+	-----+	-----+	-----+
11th-14th c.	15th-18th c.	19th-20th c.	20th-21st c.	
Nannaya	Srinatha	Gurajada	Viswanatha	
Tikkana	Pothana	Veeresalingam	Satyanarayana	
Errana	Allasani	Sri Sri	Ranganayakamma	
Nannichoda	Peddana	Jashuva	C. Narayana	
Somanatha	Pingali	Devulapalli	Reddy	
Ketana	Suranna	Narayana Reddy	Volga	
etc.	etc.	etc.	etc.	
-----+	-----+	-----+	-----+	-----+

Kannada Literature

Kannada literature is the body of written works in the Kannada language, a member of the Dravidian family spoken mainly in the Indian state of Karnataka. Kannada literature has a rich and long history, dating back to the 6th century AD. Kannada literature can be broadly divided into four main periods: ancient, medieval, modern and contemporary.

The following diagram shows a simplified overview of the major genres, forms and authors of Kannada literature in each period.

-----+	-----+	-----+	-----+	-----+
Ancient Period	Medieval Period	Modern Period	Contemporary	
(6th-12th c.)	(12th-18th c.)	(19th-20th c.)	Period	
			(21st c.)	
-----+	-----+	-----+	-----+	-----+
- Earliest	- Emergence of	- Influence of	- Diversification	
records are	Veerashaiva	Western	of themes,	

inscriptions	and Haridasa	education and	styles and
in Kannada	movements	literature	genres
script	- Development	- Rise of	- Experimentation
- Development	of vachana,	novel, short	with language,
of champu,	kavya,	story, drama,	form and
tripadi and	ragale and	essay,	media
shatpadi	shatpadi	biography and	- Recognition of
meters	poetry	criticism	Dalit,
- Pampa,	- Basavanna,	- B.M. Srikantaiah,	feminist,
Ponna and	Akka	Kuvempu,	subaltern and
Ranna are	Mahadevi,	Bendre,	regional
known as	Harihara,	Shivarama	voices
"three gems"	Raghavanka,	Karanth,	- U.R. Ananthamurthy,
of Kannada	Kumaravyasa,	Masti,	Girish Karnad,
literature	Sarvajna and	Lankesh,	P. Lankesh,
- Adikavi	Purandara	Tejaswi,	Chandrashekhara
Pampa is	Dasa are some	Kambar,	Kambara,
considered	of the	Ananthamurthy,	Vaidehi,
the father	prominent	Karnad,	Devanur Mahadeva,
of Kannada	writers	Udupi Rajagopalacharya,	Vivek Shanbhag,
poetry		Shantinath Desai,	S.L. Bhyrappa,
		Gopalakrishna Adiga,	Jayant Kaikini,
		Poornachandra Tejaswi,	Aravind Malagatti,
		Chandrashekhara Kambara,	Bolwar Mahamad Kunhi,
		Vaidehi,	Mamta Sagar,
		Devanur Mahadeva,	K.P. Poornachandra Tejaswi,
		Vivek Shanbhag,	and others
		S.L. Bhyrappa,	
		Jayant Kaikini,	
		Aravind Malagatti,	

Malayalam literature is the literature written in Malayalam, a South-Dravidian language spoken in the Indian state of Kerala. It has a rich and diverse history that spans from the 12th century to the present day. Malayalam literature can be broadly divided into four periods: classical, medieval, modern and contemporary.

The following is a detailed ASCII diagram for Malayalam literature:

Malayalam Literature

-----+	-----+	-----+	-----+
Classical	Medieval	Modern	Contemporary
-----+	-----+	-----+	-----+

- Ramacharitam	- Manipravalam	- Romanticism	- Postmodern
- Thunchaththu	- Pattu	- Realism	- Dalit lit
Ezhuthachan	- Kilippattu	- Modernism	- Feminist
- Poonthanam	- Tullal	- Progressive	- Ecocritic
- Melpathur	- Kunchan Nambiar	literature	- Diaspora
Narayana Bhattathiri	- Ezhuthachan	- Vallathol	- Malayalam
	- Cherusseri	- Kumaran Asan	- Malayalam
	- Poonthanam	- Ulloor	- Malayalam
	- Melpathur	- G. Sankara Kurup	- Malayalam
	- Unnayi Warriar	- Basheer	story
	- Thunchaththu	- Thakazhi	- Malayalam
	Ezhuthachan	- MT	- Malayalam
	- Kottarathil	- Kamala Surayya	- Malayalam
	Sankunni	- O.V. Vijayan	- Malayalam
	- A.R. Raja Raja	- Madhavikutty	- Malayalam
	Varma	- N.S. Madhavan	literature
		- Anand	- Malayalam
		- Sugathakumari	fiction
		- Kadammanitta	- Malayalam
		- Akkitham	- Malayalam
		- ONV Kurup	- Malayalam
		- Sachidanandan	- Malayalam
		- M. Mukundan	- Malayalam
		- Benyamin	- Malayalam
		- K.R. Meera	- Malayalam
		- S. Joseph	- Malayalam
		- Anitha Thampi	- Malayalam

Sangama Literature in India

Sangama literature is the earliest known literature in the Tamil language, composed by various poets in three literary academies (sangams) in Madurai, India, from the 1st to the 4th century CE. Sangama literature is divided into two main categories: akam (love) and puram (heroism). Akam poems deal with various aspects of love, such as courtship, separation, union, and infidelity. Puram poems praise the deeds of kings, warriors, and patrons, as well as describe the landscapes, seasons, wars, and festivals of the ancient Tamil society.

The following diagram illustrates the basic structure of Sangama literature using ASCII characters:

First Sangam	Second Sangam	Third Sangam
--------------	---------------	--------------

Lost works	Lost works	Extant works
		Akam works
		Ettuthokai
		Patthupattu
		Puram works
		Pathinenkilkanakku
		Tirukkural
		Silappatikaram
		Manimekalai
		Jivaka Chintamani
		Valayapathi

		Kundalakesi
		Civaka Cintamani
		Nalatiyar
		Tirumurukarruppadai

Northern Indian languages are mainly Indo-Aryan languages that are spoken by millions of people in India, Pakistan, Bangladesh, Nepal and other countries. They are derived from the ancient language of Sanskrit and have various dialects and scripts. Some of the major Northern Indian languages are:

- Hindi: The most widely spoken language in India and the official language of the central government. It is written in Devanagari script and has many regional varieties such as Braj, Awadhi, Bhojpuri, Rajasthani and Haryanvi.
- Urdu: The national language of Pakistan and one of the official languages of India. It is written in Perso-Arabic script and has a rich literary tradition. It is mutually intelligible with Hindi, but has more Persian and Arabic influences.
- Punjabi: The language of the Punjab region, which spans parts of India and Pakistan. It is written in Gurmukhi script in India and Shahmukhi script in Pakistan. It is known for its musical and poetic expressions, such as bhangra and gurbani.
- Kashmiri: The language of the Kashmir valley, which is disputed between India and Pakistan. It is written in Perso-Arabic script, but also has its own native script called Sharda. It has many loanwords from Persian, Arabic, Sanskrit and Tibetan.
- Dogri: The language of the Jammu region, which is part of the Indian state of Jammu and Kashmir. It is written in Devanagari script and has a rich folk literature. It is closely related to Punjabi and Pahari languages.
- Pahari: A group of languages spoken in the Himalayan foothills of India, Pakistan and Nepal. They are written in Devanagari, Perso-Arabic or Takri scripts and have many regional variations. Some of the prominent Pahari languages are Garhwali, Kumaoni, Nepali and Himachali.

Northern Indian languages

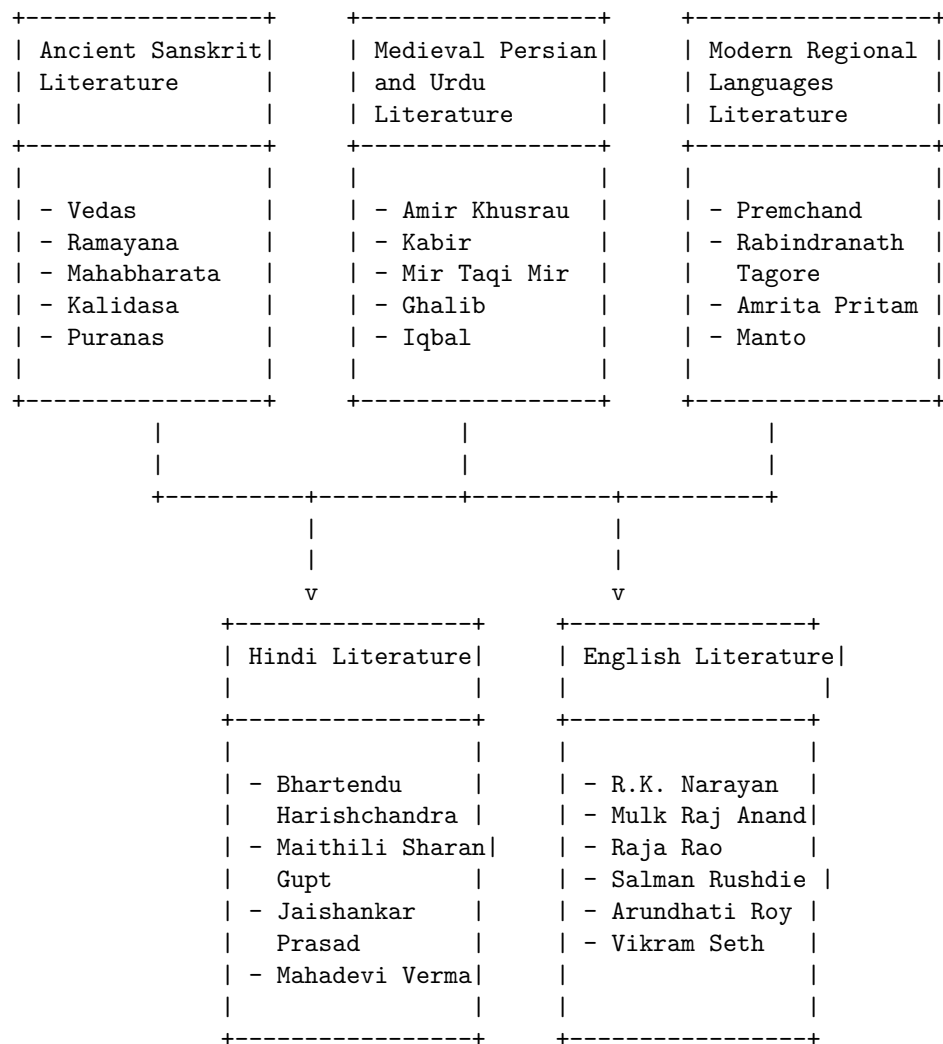
The following diagram illustrates the basic classification of the Northern Indian languages using ASCII characters:

```
Indo-Aryan languages
|
+--Hindustani
| |
| | +--Hindi
| | |
| | | +--Standard Hindi
| | | +--Braj
| | | +--Awadhi
| | | +--Bhojpuri
| | | +--Rajasthani
| | | +--Haryanvi
| | | +--...
| |
| | +--Urdu
|
+--Punjabi
|
+--Kashmiri
|
+--Dogri
|
+--Pahari
|
|   +--Garhwali
|   +--Kumaoni
|   +--Nepali
|   +--Himachali
|   +--...
```

North Indian literature is a broad term that encompasses the literary works produced in various languages and genres by the people of North India. It includes ancient Sanskrit epics, Puranas, dramas, and poetry, as well as modern novels, short stories, essays, and poetry in Hindi, Urdu, Punjabi, Bengali, and other languages. North Indian literature reflects the diverse cultural, religious, and historical influences that have shaped the region, such as Hinduism, Islam, Buddhism, Sikhism, Jainism, colonialism, nationalism, and globalization.

The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of a North Indian literature using ASCII characters:

North Indian Literature

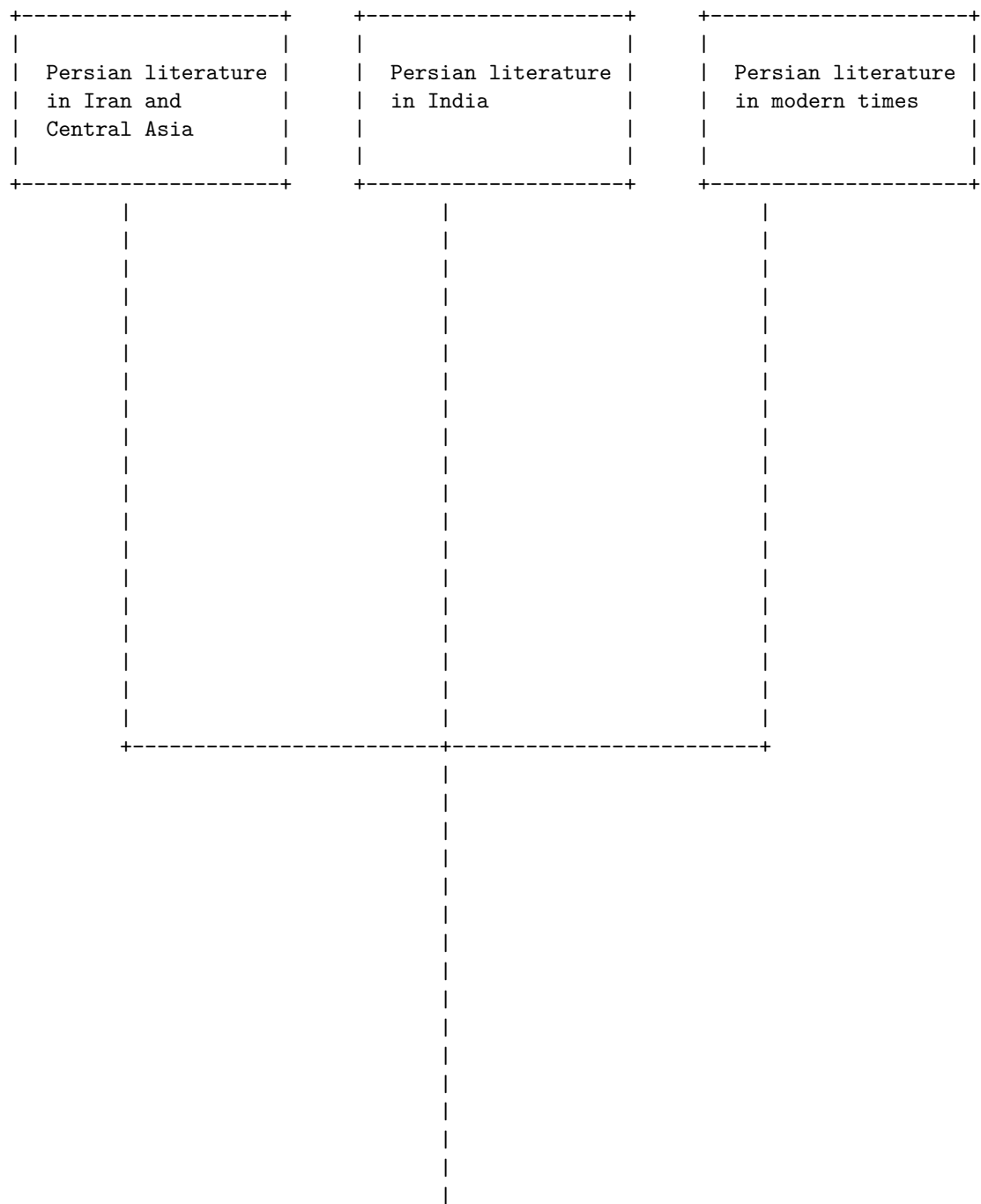


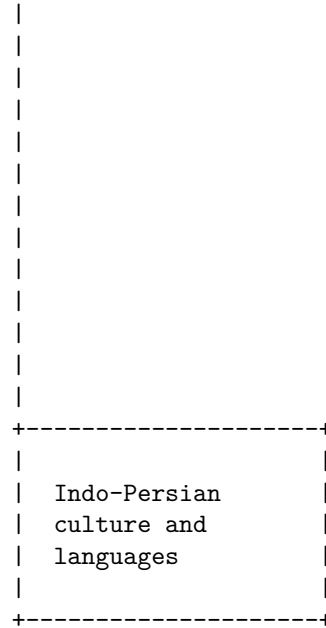
Persian Literature in India

Persian literature in India is the product of the interaction between the Persian language and culture and the Indian subcontinent. It flourished under the patronage of various Muslim dynasties, such as the Delhi Sultanate, the Bengal Sultanate, the Bahmani Sultanate, the Mughal Empire and the Sikh Empire. Persian was the official language of administration, diplomacy, literature and poetry in these states, and it influenced the local languages and cultures, such as Hindi, Urdu, Bengali, Punjabi and Sindhi.

The following diagram shows a simplified overview of the development and in-

fluence of Persian literature in India, based on the information from the search results :





Urdu literature is the literature written in the Urdu language, which is spoken mainly by Muslims in Pakistan and northern India. It is influenced by Persian, Arabic, Turkish, Hindi, and other languages. Urdu literature has various genres, such as poetry, prose, drama, and fiction. The following diagram shows some of the major forms and figures of Urdu literature in India.

Urdu Literature in India

Poetry	Prose	Drama
- Ghazal - Nazm - Marsiya - Qasida - Masnavi - Rubai - Tazkira	- Dastan - Novel - Short story - Essay - Biography - Travelogue - Criticism	- Parsi theatre - Urdu theatre
- Mir Taqi Mir	- Mir Amman	- Agha Hashar

- Mirza Ghalib	- Deputy Nazir	Kashmiri
- Allama Iqbal	Ahmad	- Syed Imtiaz
- Faiz Ahmed	- Munshi Premchand	Ali Taj
Faiz	- Saadat Hasan	- Habib Tanvir
- Kaifi Azmi	Manto	- Asif Farrukhi
- Gulzar	- Ismat Chughtai	
- Javed Akhtar	- Qurratulain	
	Hyder	
	- Khushwant Singh	
	- Ahmed Ali	
	- Rajinder Singh	
	Bedi	
	- Intizar Husain	
	- Naiyer Masud	
	- Shamsur Rahman	
	Faruqi	

Hindi literature is the literature written in the Hindi language, which includes various dialects and scripts. Hindi literature can be divided into four broad periods: Adikal (the Early Period), Bhaktikal (the Devotional Period), Ritikal (the Scholastic Period) and Adhunik (the Modern Period). Each period has its own characteristics, themes, genres and writers. The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of Hindi literature using ASCII art:

Hindi Literature

Adikal	Bhaktikal	Ritikal	Adhunik
11th-14th century	14th-17th century	17th-19th century	19th-21st century
Apabhramsa poetry	Bhakti poetry	Riti poetry	Khari Boli prose
Prithviraj Raso	Kabir Surdas Tulsidas	Keshavdas Bihari Ghananand	Premchand Nirala Mahadevi Varma

Module 3- Indian Religion, Philosophy, and Practices

The following is a detailed ascii diagram for Module 3- Indian Religion, Philosophy, and Practices.

Module 3- Indian Religion, Philosophy, and Practices											
Hinduism				Buddhism				Jainism			
Vedas				Tripitaka				Agamas			
Upanishads				Dhammapada				Tattvartha			
Bhagavad Gita				Mahayana				Anekantavada			
Yoga				Theravada				Ahimsa			
Karma				Nirvana				Moksha			
Dharma				Four Noble Truths				Jiva			
Moksha				Eightfold Path				Ajiva			
Atman								Pancha Mahavrata			
Brahman				Sangha				Namokar Mantra			
Trimurti				Bodhisattva				Ashtamangala			
Devi				Dalai Lama				Swastika			
Ganesha				Zen				Shvetambara			
Shiva				Vajrayana				Digambara			
Vishnu				Mandala				Sthanakvasi			
Rama				Stupa				Terapanthi			

			Krishna				Pagoda				Tirthankara			
			+-----+				+-----+				+-----+			
			Hanuman				Buddha				Mahavira			
			+-----+				+-----+				+-----+			
			Lakshmi				Dharma Wheel				Parshvanatha			
			+-----+				+-----+				+-----+			
			Saraswati				Lotus				Rishabhanatha			
			+-----+				+-----+				+-----+			

Pre-Vedic religion in India refers to the religious beliefs and practices of the people who lived in the Indus Valley civilization before the arrival of the Indo-Aryan speakers who brought the Vedic religion. The Indus Valley civilization, also known as the Harappan civilization, flourished from about 2500 BCE to 1500 BCE, and had a highly developed urban culture, trade, and writing system. The religion of the Indus Valley people is not well understood, as their script has not been deciphered, and most of the evidence comes from archaeological remains and seals. However, some general features can be inferred from the available sources.

The following diagram illustrates the main aspects of the pre-Vedic religion in India using ASCII characters:

Pre-Vedic Religion in India

+-----+	+-----+
Indus Valley people	Nature and animals
- Urban culture	- Worship of trees,
- Trade	rivers, animals
- Writing system	- Sacred animals
- Social hierarchy	include bull,
- Ritual baths	unicorn, snake
- Seals	- Animal motifs on
- Figurines	seals and pottery
+-----+	+-----+

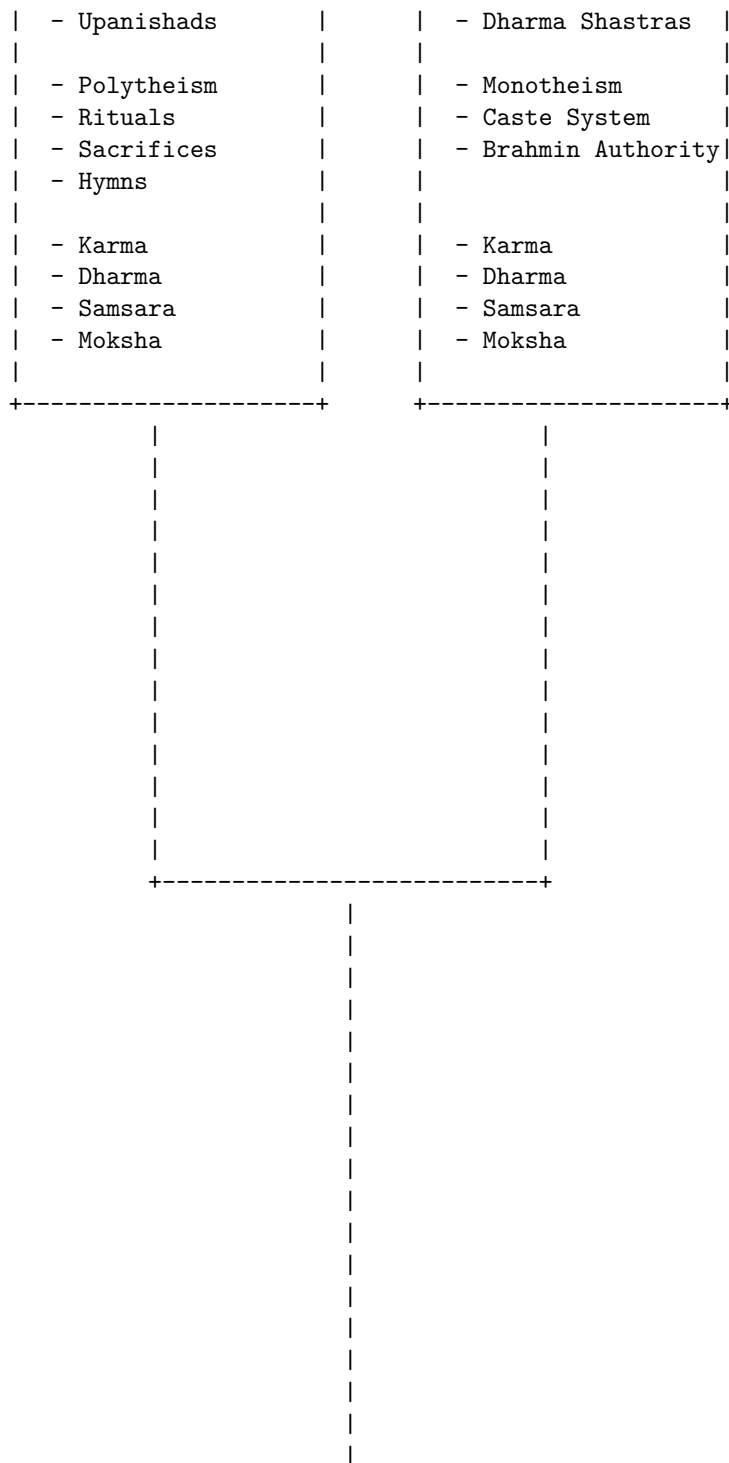
	V		V
+-----+		+-----+	
Deities and symbols		Rituals and beliefs	
- Male god		- Fire altars	
resembling Shiva		- Burial practices	
- Female goddess		- Amulets and	
of fertility		talismans	
- Swastika symbol		- Yoga and	
Pashupati seal		meditation	
- Lingam and yoni		- Possible	
symbols		ancestor worship	
+-----+		+-----+	

The Vedic religion was the religion of the ancient Indo-European-speaking peoples who entered India about 1500 BCE from the region of present-day Iran. It is the oldest stratum of religious activity in India for which there exist written materials. It is also known as Vedicism, Vedism or ancient Hinduism. It is based on the collections of sacred texts known as the Vedas, which consist of four main parts: the Samhitas, the Brahmanas, the Aranyakas and the Upanishads. The Vedic religion involved the worship of various gods and goddesses, such as Indra, Agni, Varuna, Soma, Mitra, Ushas, etc. through rituals, sacrifices and hymns. The Vedic religion also developed concepts such as karma, dharma, samsara, moksha, etc. that influenced later Hindu traditions. The Vedic religion gradually evolved into Brahmanism or Brahminism, which emphasized the authority of the Brahmins, the priestly class, and the importance of the caste system. Brahmanism later gave rise to various schools of Hindu philosophy and sects, such as the Vedanta, the Yoga, the Vaishnavism, the Shaivism, the Shaktism, etc.

The following diagram illustrates the basic structure of the Vedic religion in India:

Vedic Religion in India

+-----+	+-----+
Vedic Religion	Brahmanism
+-----+	+-----+
- Vedas	- Brahmanas
- Samhitas	- Aranyakas
- Brahmanas	- Upanishads
- Aranyakas	- Sutras





Buddhism is an ancient Indian religion that is based on the teachings of the Buddha, who was born in the 6th century BCE in the kingdom of Magadha (now in Bihar, India). Buddhism spread throughout India and beyond in the following centuries, and developed into various schools and traditions. Buddhism declined in India from the 8th century CE onwards, due to various factors such

as invasions, persecution, and assimilation. However, Buddhism still survives in some regions of India, especially in the Himalayan areas and the south.

Buddhism in India

The following diagram is an attempt to illustrate the history and diversity of Buddhism in India using ASCII characters. It is not to scale and may not include all the details and nuances of the complex history of Buddhism.

Early Buddhism	Mahayana	Vajrayana
Theravada	Madhyamaka	Tibetan Buddhism
Sarvastivada	Yogacara	Shingon
Sthaviravada	Pure Land	Newar Buddhism
Mahasamghika	Zen	
Other schools	Other schools	Other schools

The diagram shows the three main branches of Buddhism: Early Buddhism, Mahayana, and Vajrayana. Early Buddhism is the oldest form of Buddhism, which is based on the original teachings of the Buddha and the Pali Canon. Mahayana is a later development of Buddhism, which emphasizes the bodhisattva ideal and the use of skillful means to help all sentient beings attain enlightenment. Vajrayana is a form of tantric Buddhism, which uses esoteric practices and rituals to achieve Buddhahood in this very life.

The diagram also shows some of the major schools and traditions within each branch of Buddhism. Theravada is the dominant form of Early Buddhism in Sri Lanka and Southeast Asia, which follows the Pali Canon and the commentaries of the Theravada elders. Sarvastivada is another school of Early Buddhism,

which was influential in northern India and Central Asia, and which follows the Abhidharma literature. Sthaviravada and Mahasamghika are two of the earliest schools of Buddhism, which split from each other in the first Buddhist council. Other schools of Early Buddhism include Dharmaguptaka, Mulasarvastivada, and Sammitiya.

Madhyamaka and Yogacara are two of the main philosophical schools of Mahayana Buddhism, which developed in India between the 2nd and 7th centuries CE. Madhyamaka is based on the teachings of Nagarjuna, who emphasized the emptiness of all phenomena and the middle way between extremes. Yogacara is based on the teachings of Asanga and Vasubandhu, who emphasized the mind-only nature of reality and the cultivation of the eight consciousnesses. Pure Land and Zen are two of the main devotional and meditative schools of Mahayana Buddhism, which originated in China and Japan. Pure Land is based on the faith in the Amitabha Buddha and his western paradise. Zen is based on the practice of zazen and the transmission of the mind seal from master to disciple. Other schools of Mahayana Buddhism include Tiantai, Huayan, and Nichiren.

Tibetan Buddhism and Shingon are two of the main forms of Vajrayana Buddhism, which developed in Tibet and Japan respectively. Tibetan Buddhism is based on the teachings of Padmasambhava, who introduced Buddhism to Tibet in the 8th century CE, and the lineage of the Dalai Lamas, who are considered to be the reincarnations of the bodhisattva Avalok

Jainism is an ancient Indian religion that teaches the path to spiritual purity and enlightenment through nonviolence and reducing harm to all living beings. Jainism has a history of at least 2,500 years and has influenced Indian culture and ethics. Jainism is one of the minority religions in India, with about 4.5 million adherents, mostly concentrated in the states of Maharashtra, Gujarat, Rajasthan, Madhya Pradesh and Karnataka.

Jainism in India

	Maharashtra	Gujarat	Rajasthan	Madhya Pradesh
Population	1,400,349	579,654	622,023	567,028
Percentage	1.25%	0.96%	0.91%	0.78%
Main subgroups	Sthanakvasi	Svetambara	Svetambara	Digambara
	Digambara	Digambara	Digambara	Svetambara
	Terapanthi	Terapanthi	Terapanthi	Terapanthi
	Karnataka	Delhi	Uttar Pradesh	Tamil Nadu
Population	412,659	166,231	213,267	89,265
Percentage	0.72%	0.99%	0.11%	0.13%

Main subgroups	Digambara	Svetambara	Svetambara	Digambara	
	Svetambara	Digambara	Digambara	Svetambara	
	Terapanthi	Terapanthi	Terapanthi	Terapanthi	
+-----+-----+-----+-----+-----+					

The Six Systems of Indian Philosophy are Nyaya, Vaisheshika, Samkhya, Yoga, Purva Mimamsa and Uttara Mimamsa or Vedanta. Each of these systems differs in one way or the other in terms of its concepts, phenomena, laws and dogmas. They are also known as the orthodox or astika schools of Hindu philosophy, as they accept the authority of the Vedas, the ancient scriptures of India.

The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of a Six System Indian Philosophy:

Six System Indian Philosophy

+-----+		+-----+		+-----+	
Nyaya		Vaisheshika		Samkhya	
+-----+		+-----+		+-----+	
Logic and		Atomism and		Dualism and	
Epistemology		Pluralism		Cosmology	
+-----+		+-----+		+-----+	
Founded by		Founded by		Founded by	
Akshapada		Kanada		Kapila	
Gautama					
+-----+		+-----+		+-----+	
Accepts four		Accepts two		Accepts three	
sources of		sources of		sources of	
knowledge:		knowledge:		knowledge:	
perception,		perception and		perception,	
inference,		inference		inference and	
comparison and				testimony	
testimony					
+-----+		+-----+		+-----+	
Analyzes the		Classifies the		Explains the	
nature and		categories of		origin and	
validity of		reality into		evolution of	
human cognition		six padarthas:		the universe	

and inference	substance,	in terms of
	quality,	two principles:
	action,	purusha (self)
	generality,	and prakriti
	particularity	(matter)
	and inherence	
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
Influenced the	Influenced the	Influenced the
development of	development of	development of
logic and	natural science	psychology and
debate in India	and metaphysics	metaphysics
and Tibet	in India	in India
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
Related to	Related to	Related to
Buddhism and	Buddhism and	Yoga and
Jainism	Jainism	Vedanta
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
References:	References:	References:
[~5		

Shankaracharya was an Indian philosopher and theologian who expounded the doctrine of Advaita Vedanta, which is a school of Hindu philosophy that asserts the non-dualism of reality. Advaita Vedanta holds that Brahman, the supreme reality, is the only reality and that the individual self (atman) is identical with Brahman. The apparent multiplicity and diversity of the world is an illusion (maya) caused by ignorance (avidya) of the true nature of reality.

Shankaracharya is credited with unifying and establishing the main currents of thought in Hinduism and reviving the Vedanta tradition. He also founded four monastic centers (mathas) in the four corners of India, which are still active today. He wrote commentaries on the Upanishads, the Brahma Sutras and the Bhagavad Gita, as well as many other works on philosophy, ethics, devotion and ritual.

The following diagram illustrates the basic structure of Shankaracharya and Advaita Vedanta using ASCII characters:

+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
Shankaracharya	Advaita Vedanta	Four Mathas
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+

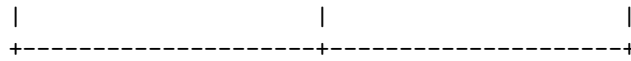
- Born in 700 CE	- Non-dualism	- Sringeri
- Renounced at 8	- Brahman is the	- Dwarka
- Traveled India	only reality	- Puri
- Wrote commentaries on Upanishads, Brahmasutras, Bhagavad Gita	- Atman is identical with Brahman	- Jyotirmath
- Founded four monastic centers	- World is an illusion	
	- Ignorance is the cause of bondage	
	- Knowledge is the means of liberation	

Various Philosophical Doctrines in India

According to Britannica, Indian philosophy consists of both orthodox (astika) and unorthodox (nastika) systems of thought. The orthodox systems accept the authority of the Vedas, the ancient scriptures of Hinduism, while the unorthodox systems reject or question it. The six orthodox schools of philosophy are Nyaya, Vaisheshika, Samkhya, Yoga, Purva-Mimamsa, and Vedanta. The unorthodox schools include Buddhism, Jainism, and other movements such as Ajivika, Charvaka, and Lokayata.

The following diagram illustrates the basic classification of the various philosophical doctrines in India using ASCII characters:

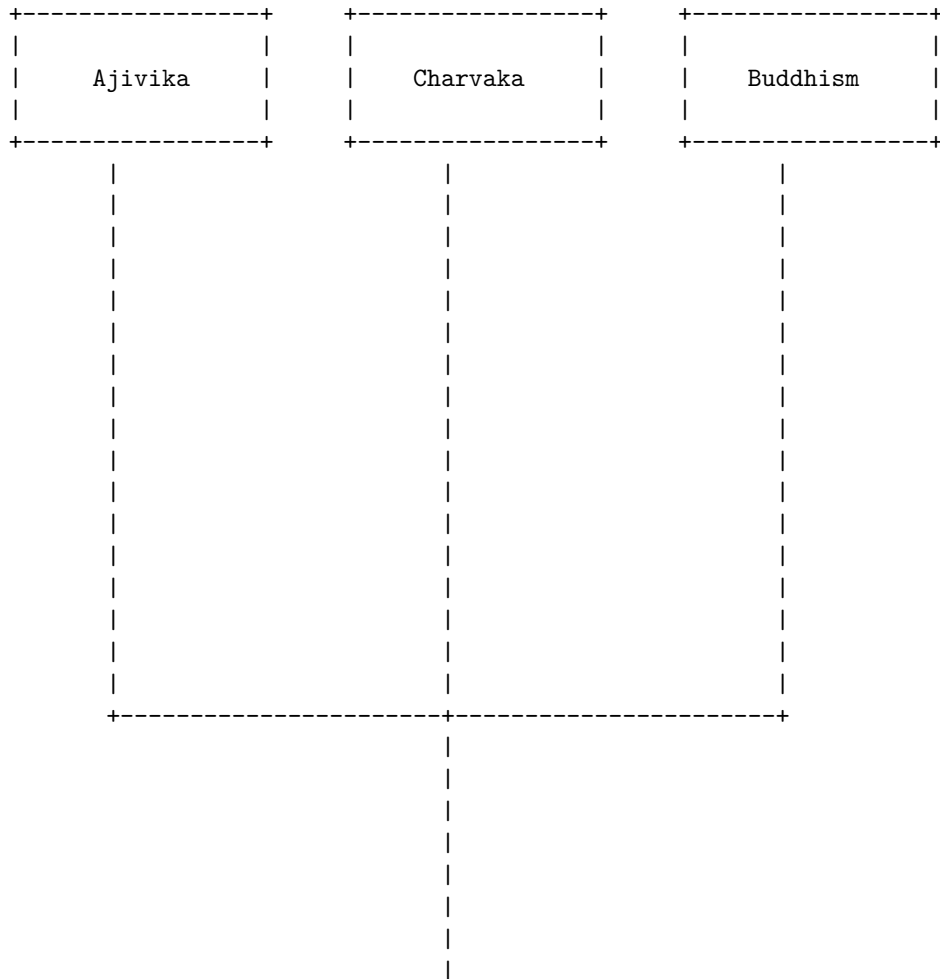
Orthodox (Astika)		Unorthodox (Nastika)	
+-----+ +-----+		+-----+ +-----+	
Nyaya	Yoga	Buddhism	Jainism
+-----+ +-----+		+-----+ +-----+	
+-----+ +-----+		+-----+ +-----+	
Vaisheshika	Samkhya	Ajivika	Charvaka
+-----+ +-----+		+-----+ +-----+	
+-----+ +-----+		+-----+ +-----+	
Purva-Mimamsa	Vedanta	Lokayata	
+-----+ +-----+		+-----+ +-----+	



Each school of philosophy has its own distinctive features, methods, and doctrines, but they also share some common themes, such as the concepts of dharma, karma, samsara, reincarnation, dukkha, renunciation, meditation, and liberation (moksha, nirvana). Some schools also interacted and influenced each other, such as Vedanta and Buddhism, or Yoga and Samkhya. Indian philosophy has a rich and diverse history, spanning from the ancient times to the present day, and covering various aspects of human life and experience.

Heterodox Sects in India

The following is a detailed ascii diagram for Heterodox Sects in India, based on the information from the web search results.



The Bhakti movement was a religious and social reform movement that emerged in medieval India and spread across the subcontinent. It emphasized the love and devotion of a devotee towards a personal god and the god's grace and compassion for the devotee. The Bhakti movement challenged the caste system, the ritualism and the authority of the Brahmins, and promoted the use of vernacular languages for religious expression. The Bhakti movement also influenced the development of various literary, musical and artistic traditions in India.

The following is a possible ASCII diagram for the Bhakti movement in India:

Bhakti Movement in India

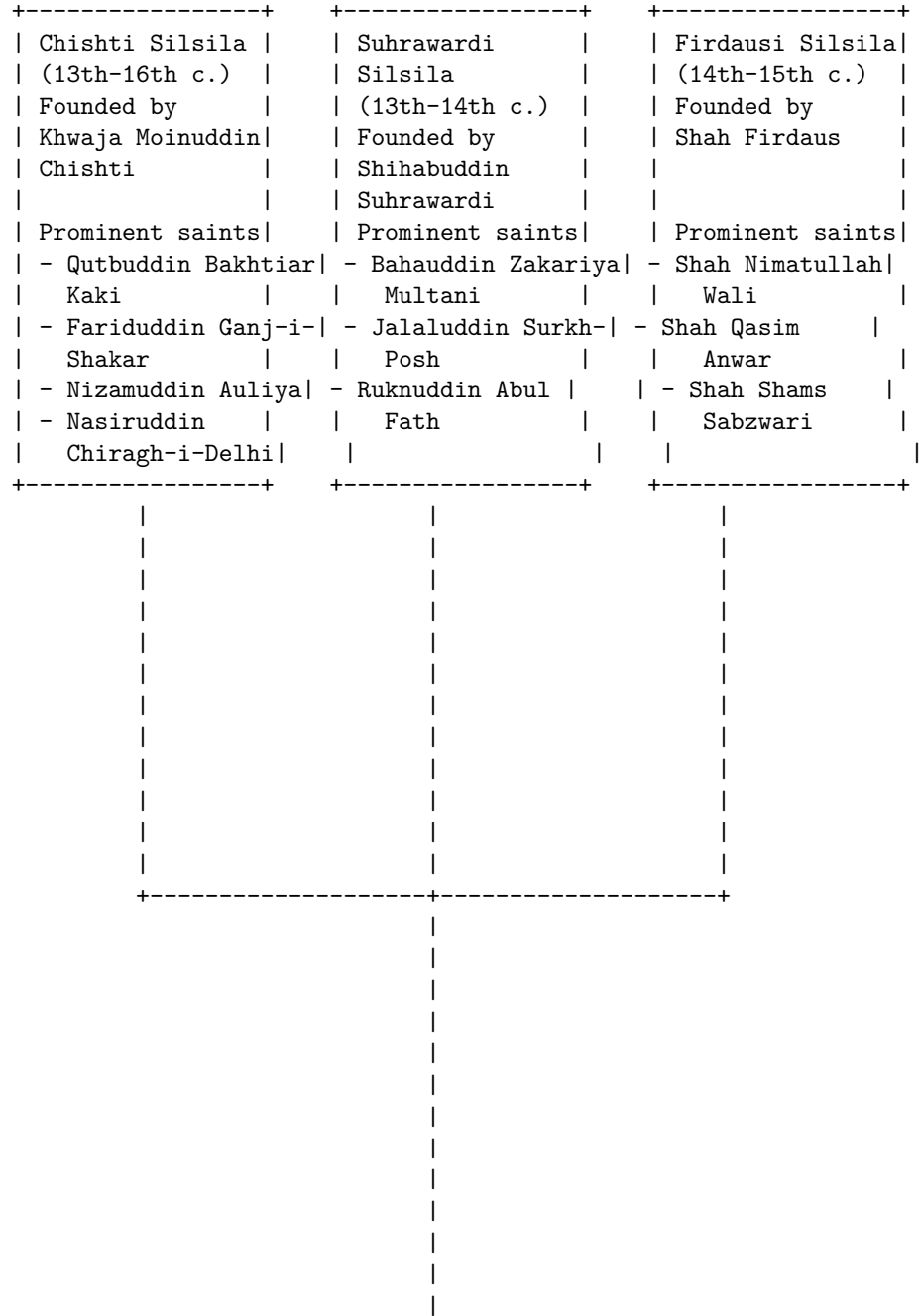
South India	North India	East India
Alvars and Nayanars (7th-9th c.)	Ramananda and his disciples (14th-16th c.)	Chaitanya and his followers (15th-16th c.)
Vaishnavism and Shaivism	Vaishnavism, Shaivism and Sikhism	Gaudiya Vaishnavism
Tamil and Kannada	Hindi, Awadhi, Punjabi, etc.	Bengali and Sanskrit

Sufi movement in India

The Sufi movement in India was a socio-religious movement that emerged in the 13th century and spread across the Indian subcontinent. The Sufis were Muslim mystics who sought to attain union with God through love, devotion and self-discipline. They followed different orders or silsilas, each with its own spiritual leader, teachings and practices. The Sufis also interacted with the local cultures and religions, especially Hinduism and Sikhism, and influenced the development

of the Bhakti movement and the syncretic traditions of India.

The following diagram illustrates the basic structure of the Sufi movement in India using ASCII characters:



|

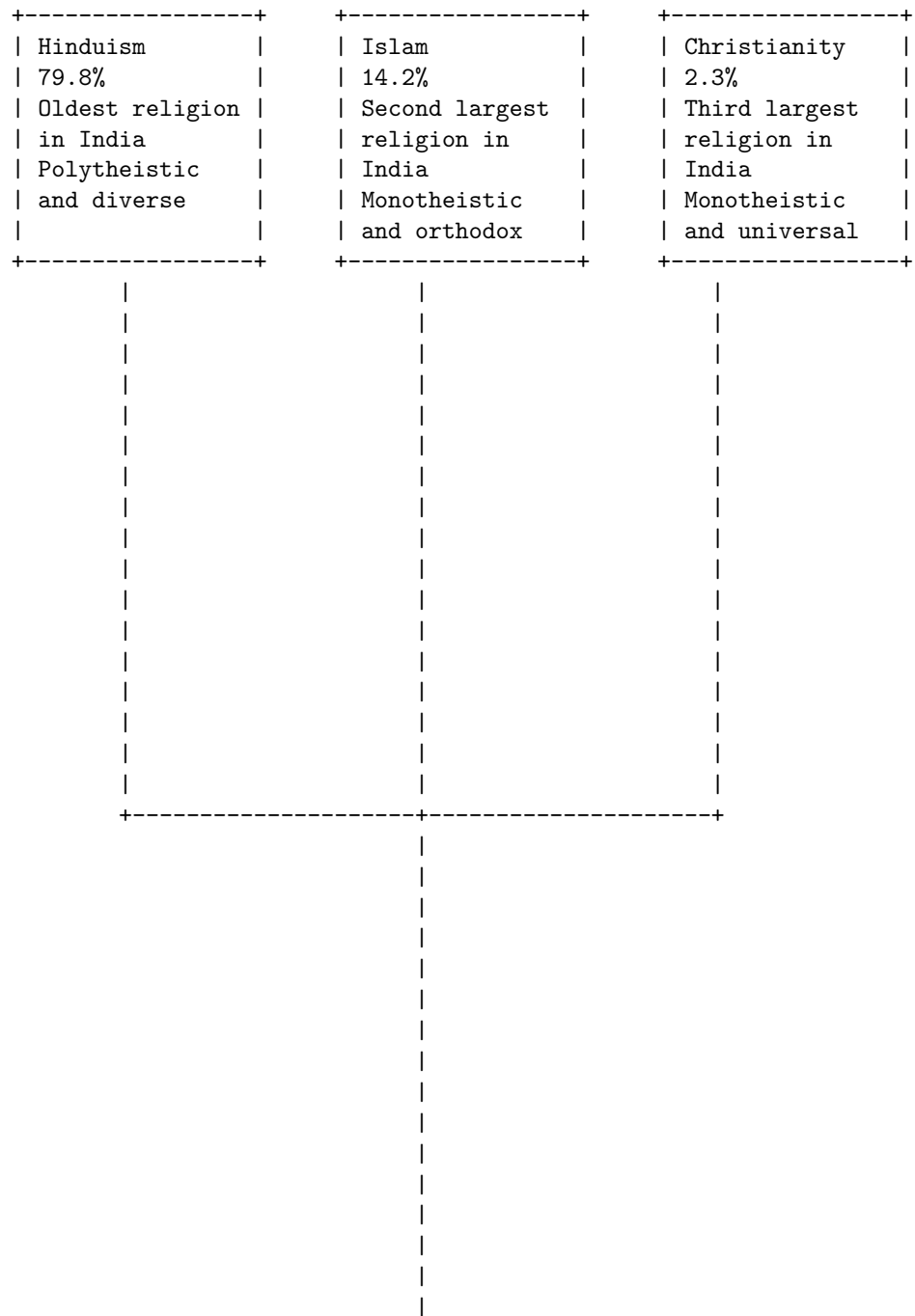
The following is a detailed ASCII diagram for Socio-religious reform movement of 19th century in India.

Socio-religious reform movement of 19th century in India

Brahmo Samaj	Arya Samaj	Prarthana Samaj
Founded by Raja Ram Mohan Roy in 1828	Founded by Swami Dayanand Saraswati in 1875	Founded by Atmaram Pandurang in 1867
Aimed to reform Hindu religion and society	Aimed to revive Vedic religion and society	Aimed to reform Hindu religion and society
Opposed idolatry, caste system, child marriage, sati etc.	Opposed idolatry, caste system, child marriage, sati etc.	Opposed idolatry, caste system, child marriage, sati etc.
Promoted monotheism, rationalism, women's education, social service etc.	Promoted monotheism, rationalism, women's education, social service etc.	Promoted monotheism, rationalism, women's education, social service etc.
Aligarh Movement	Singh Sabha	Parsi Reform Movement
Founded by Sir Syed Ahmad Khan in 1866	Founded by Khem Singh Bedi and others in 1873	Founded by Dadabhai Naoroji and others in 1851
Aimed to reform Muslim religion and society	Aimed to reform Sikh religion and society	Aimed to reform Parsi religion and society
Opposed orthodoxy, superstition, purdah etc.	Opposed orthodoxy, superstition, caste system etc.	Opposed orthodoxy, superstition, priestly domination etc.
Promoted modern education, scientific temper, social reform etc.	Promoted modern education, scientific temper, social reform etc.	Promoted modern education, scientific temper, social reform etc.

Modern religious practices in India are diverse and influenced by various factors, such as history, culture, geography, and politics. India is a secular country, but religion still plays a significant role in the lives of most Indians. The following

diagram illustrates the basic architecture of a modern religious practices in India using ASCII art:

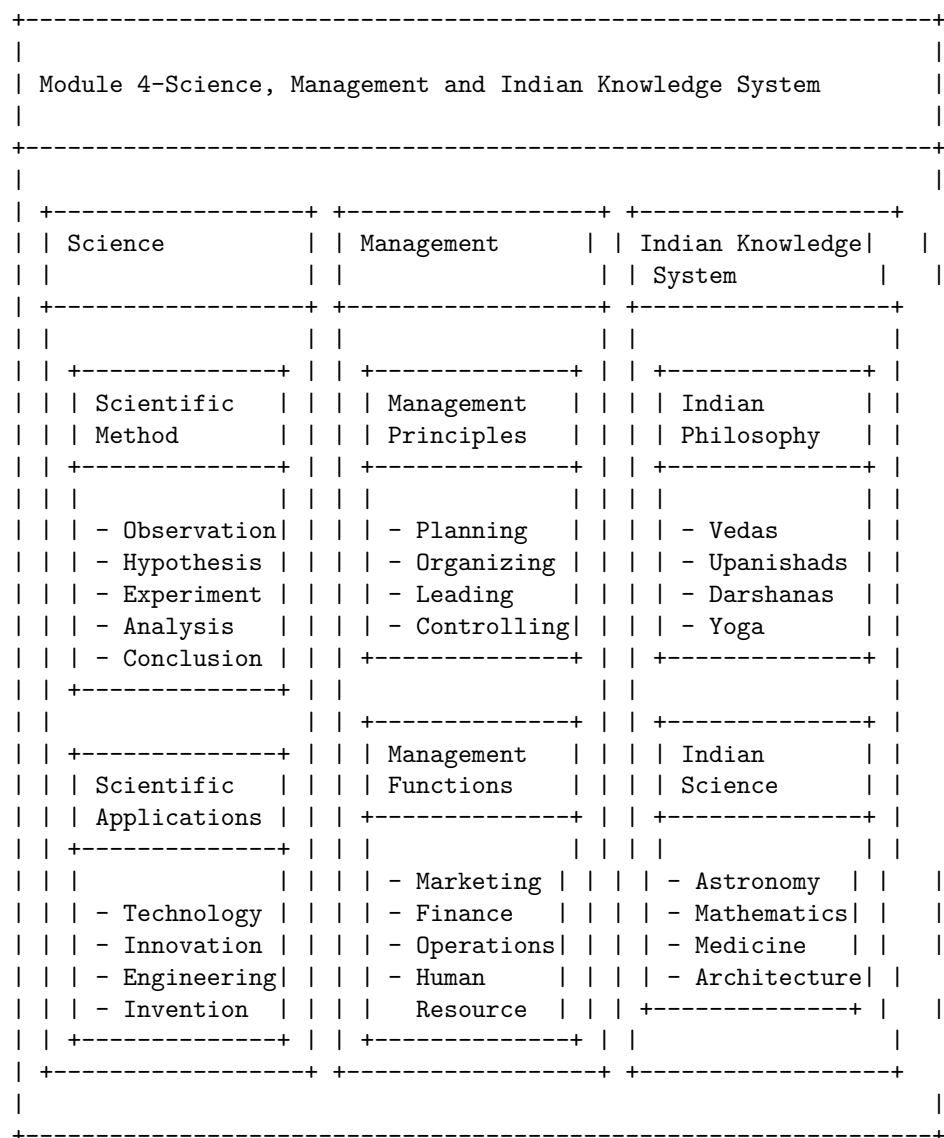


|

+-----+
| Secularism |
| Constitutionally|
| guaranteed |
| freedom of |
| religion |
| No state |
| religion |
| No religious |
| discrimination |
+-----+

Module 4-Science, Management and Indian Knowledge System

The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of a Module 4-Science, Management and Indian Knowledge System:



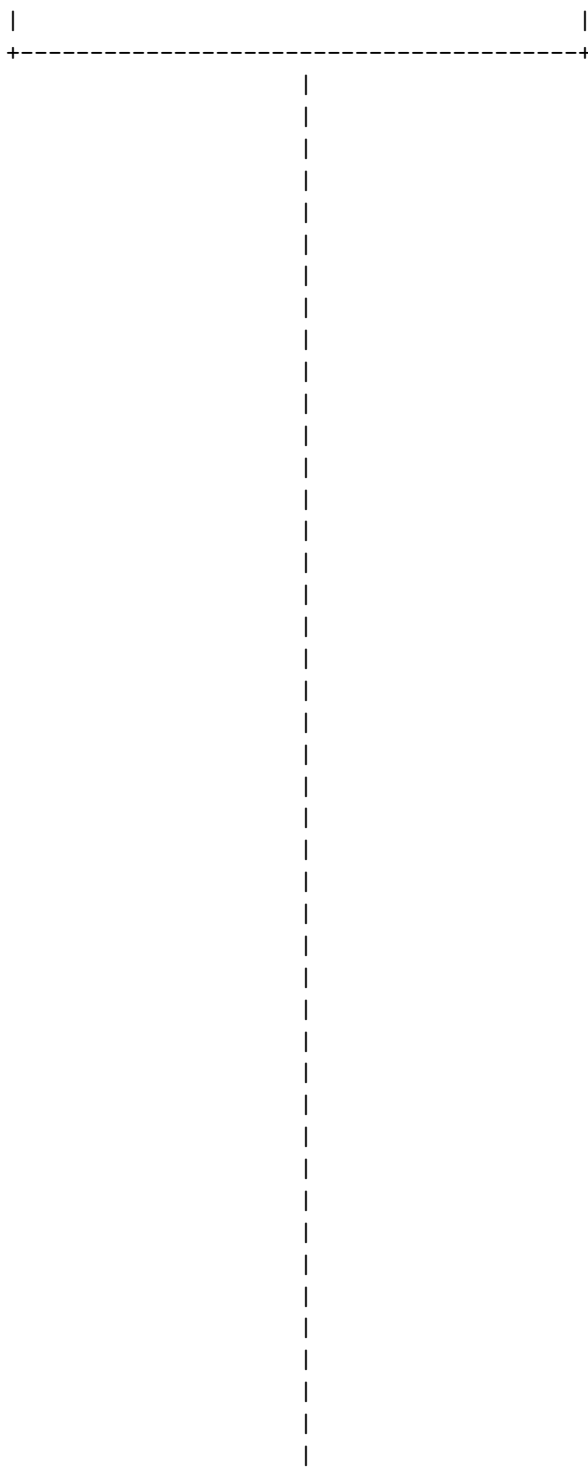
Astronomy in India and Ancient India

Astronomy is the study of the celestial objects and phenomena in the sky. Astronomy in India and Ancient India developed to a sophisticated level as the

sages of ancient India were keen observers of the sky generation after generation. They made many contributions in the field of astronomy, such as the concept of zero, the decimal system, the heliocentric model, the calculation of eclipses, the lunar and solar calendars, and the measurement of the Earth's circumference.

The following diagram illustrates some of the main features of astronomy in India and Ancient India using ASCII art:

Rig Veda (2000 BC)	Vedanga Jyotisa (1400-1200 BC)	Siddhanta (500 BC-1200 AD)
Earliest references to astronomy in India	First known astronomical text in India	Systematic treatises on astronomy in India



- The formulation of various herbal and mineral medicines, such as the soma, the rasasindura, and the bhasmas.
- The practice of alchemy and the search for the philosopher's stone and the elixir of life.

Mathematics in India and Ancient India

The following ascii diagram shows some of the main branches and contributors of mathematics in India and ancient India.

Vedic Period (1500-500 BCE)	Classical Period (400-1200 CE)	Medieval Period (1200-1800 CE)
Geometry, Algebra, Astronomy, Ritual Mathematics	Decimal system, Zero, Pi, Algebra, Trigonometry, Arithmetic, Geometry, Astronomy	Infinite series, Trigonometry, Calculus, Algebra, Combinatorics
Baudhayana, Apastamba, Katyayana, Sulba Sutras	Aryabhata, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara I, Mahavira, Bhaskara II, Varahamihira	Madhava, Nilakantha, Jyesthadeva, Narayana Pandita, Sankara Variyar, Kerala School

Physics in India and Ancient India

The following diagram is an attempt to illustrate the main aspects of physics in India and ancient India, based on the information from the web search results. It is not a comprehensive or accurate representation of the history and development of physics in India, but rather a simplified overview of some of the key concepts and contributions.

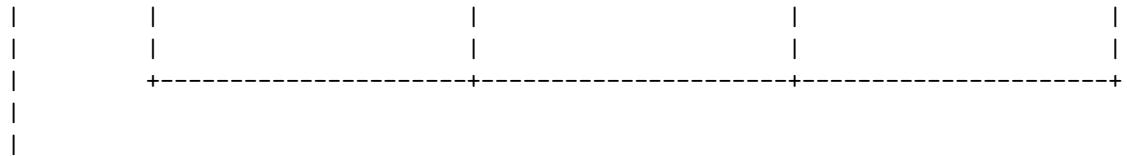
The diagram uses ASCII characters to draw shapes and lines. The circles represent different schools of thought or branches of physics, and the arrows represent the influences or connections between them. The text inside the circles summarizes the main ideas or achievements of each school or branch. The text outside

the circles provides some additional information or context.

The diagram is divided into two parts: ancient India (before 1000 CE) and modern India (after 1000 CE). The ancient India part shows the four main philosophical systems that contributed to the development of physics in India: Nyaya, Vaisheshika, Samkhya, and Vedanta. The modern India part shows some of the notable physicists and their fields of research in the 20th and 21st centuries.

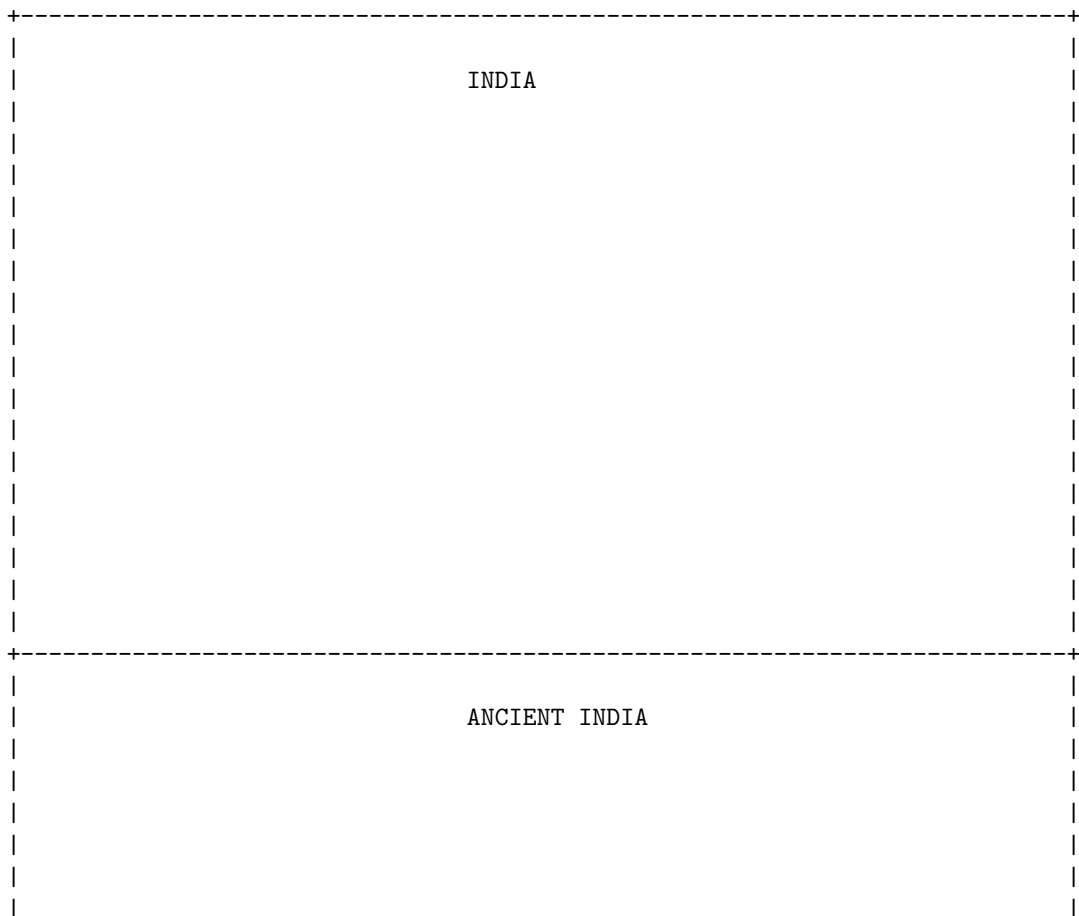
The diagram is not drawn to scale and does not reflect the chronological order or the relative importance of the schools or branches. It is meant to be a visual aid for understanding some of the aspects of physics in India and ancient India, and not a definitive or authoritative source.

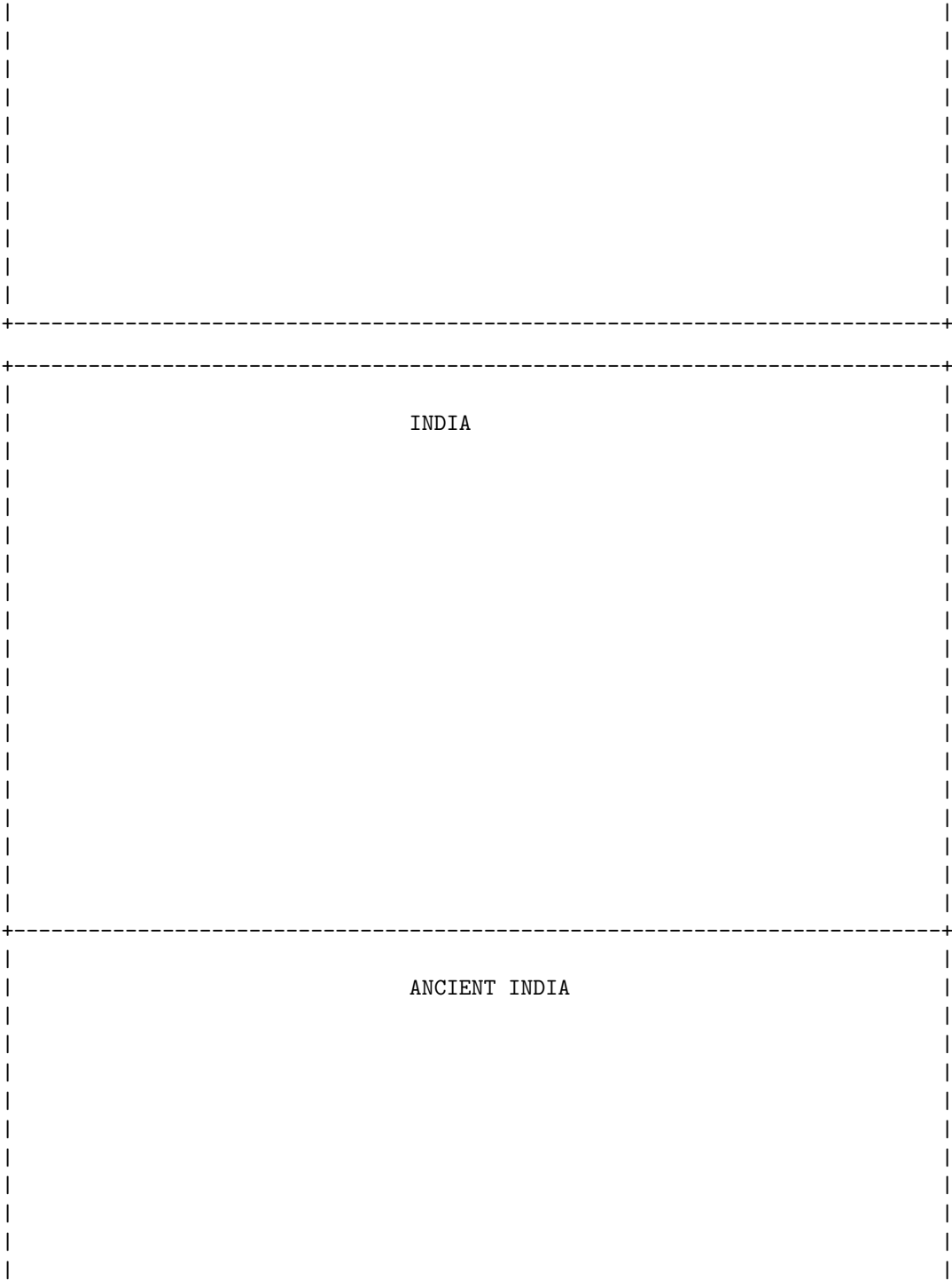
Physics in India and Ancient India			
Ancient India (before 1000 CE)			
Nyaya	Vaisheshika	Samkhya	Vedanta
Logic and epistemology	Atomic theory and cosmology	Dualism of matter and consciousness	Monism and metaphysics
- Valid sources of knowledge	- Five elements (earth, water, fire, air, ether)	- Three gunas (sattva, rajas, tamas)	- Brahman as the ultimate reality
- Logical inference and debate	- Indivisible atoms and molecules	- Prakriti and purusha	- Maya as the illusion of multiplicity
- Concept of causation and inference	- Motion and force	- Evolution of matter from prakriti	- Advaita and dvaita
- Concept of self and God	- Concept of vacuum	- Concept of liberation	- Concept of consciousness

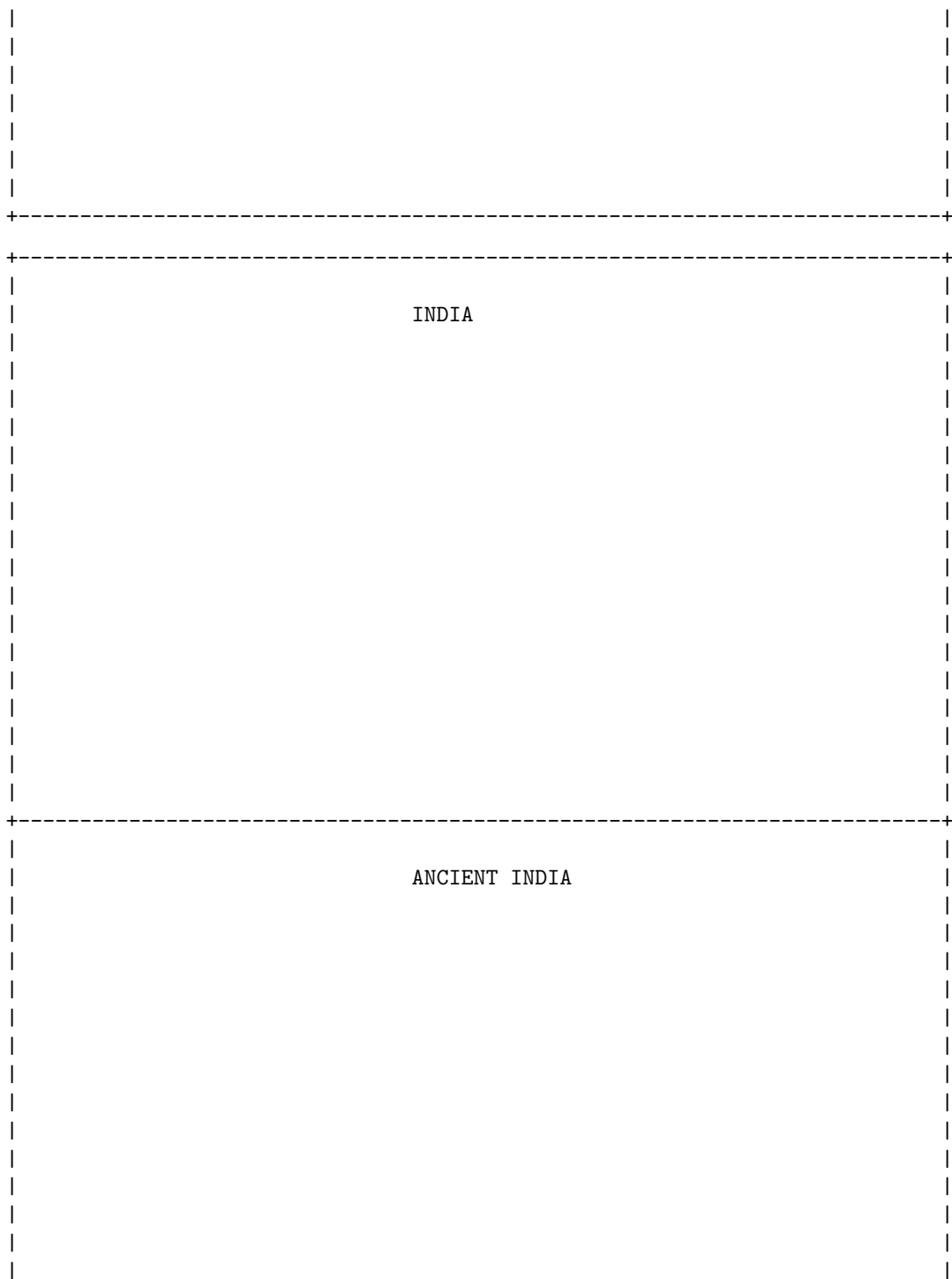


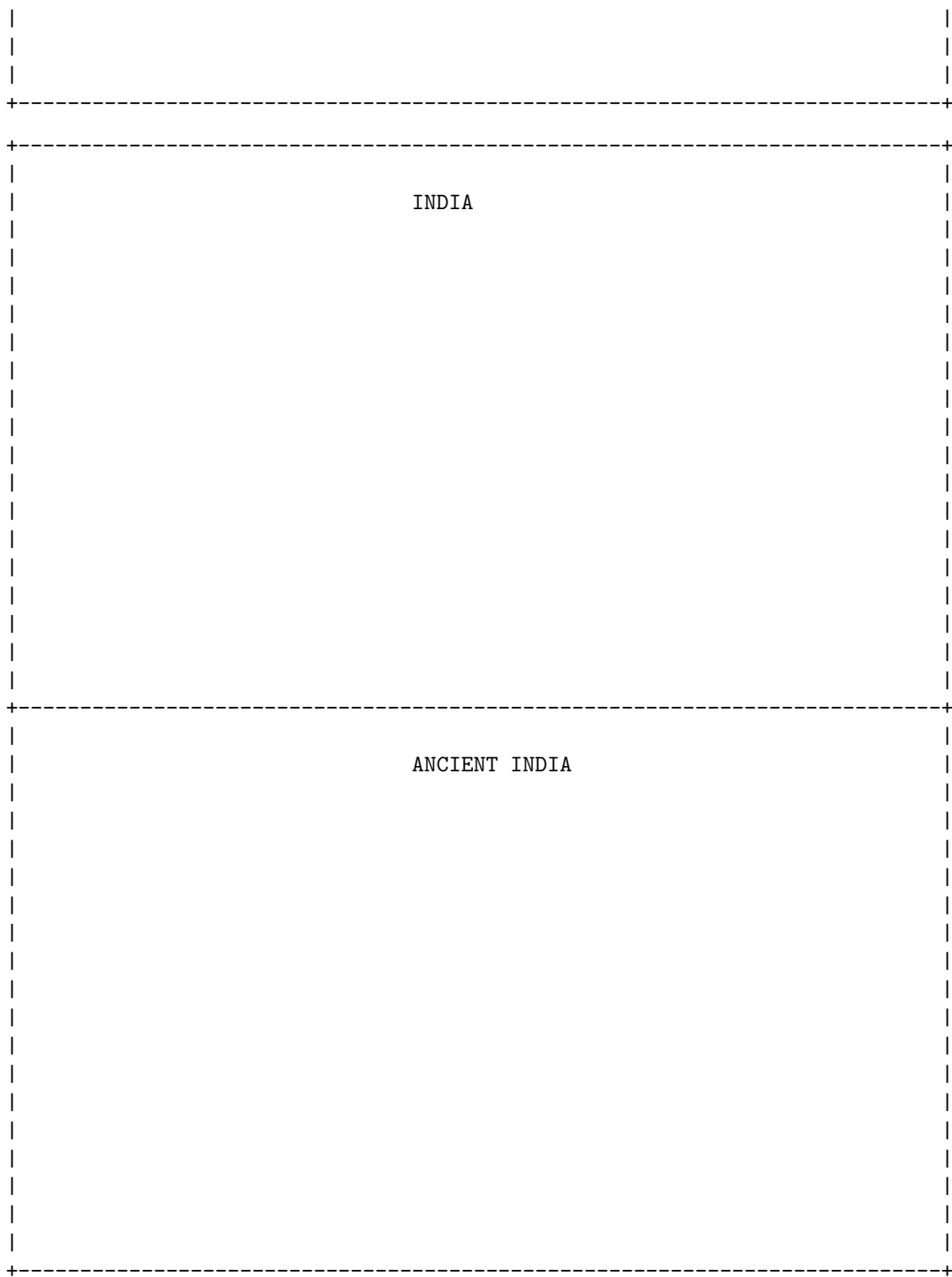
Agriculture in India and Ancient India is a vast and complex topic that cannot be fully captured in a single diagram. However, based on the available information, I have attempted to draw a simplified and generalized ascii diagram that shows some of the main features and aspects of agriculture in both periods. Please note that this diagram is not to scale and does not represent the actual geographical or historical accuracy of the regions, crops, techniques, or practices involved. It is only meant to give a broad overview and comparison of the agricultural systems in India and Ancient India.

Agriculture in India and Ancient India





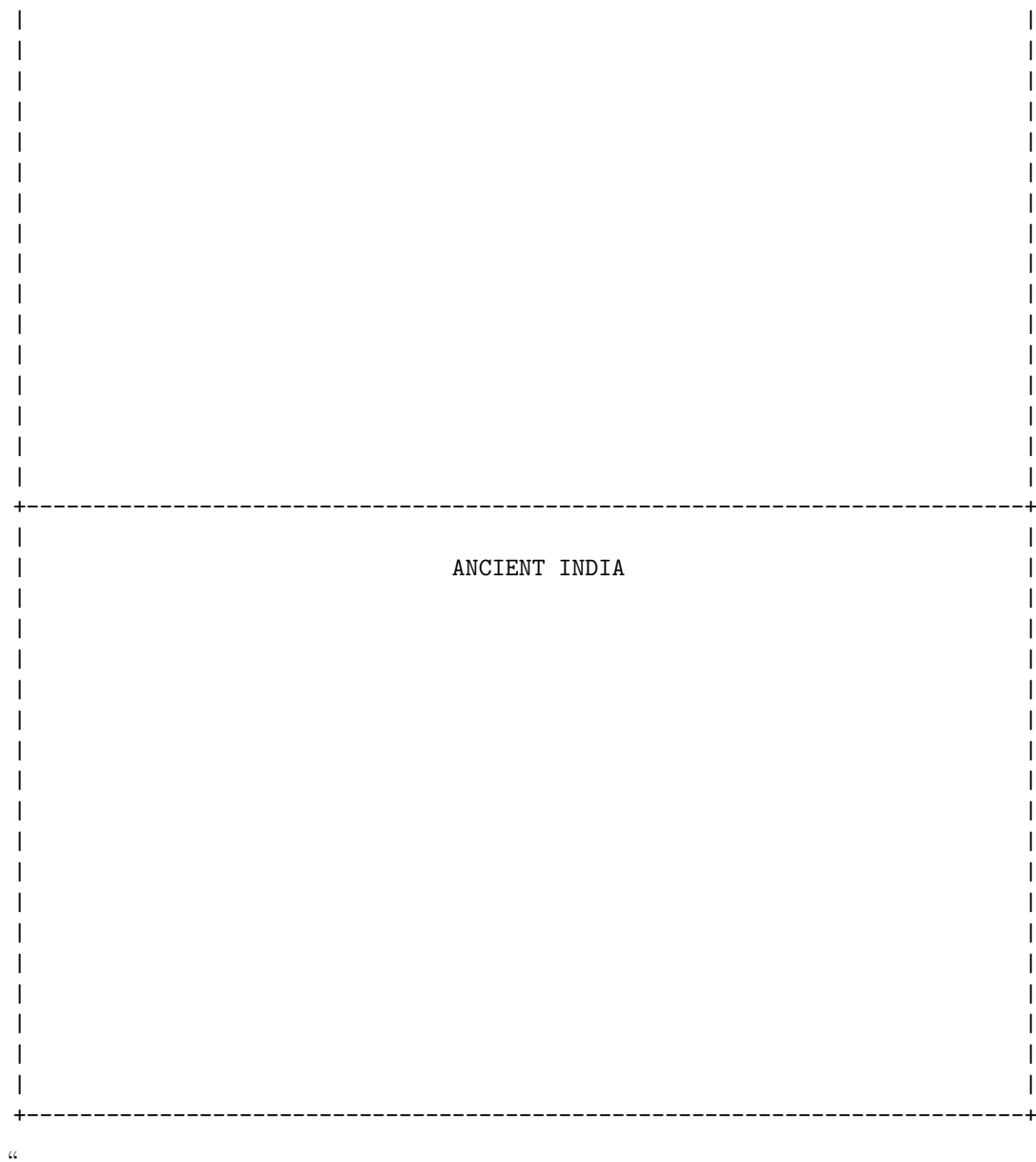




INDIA

ANCIENT INDIA

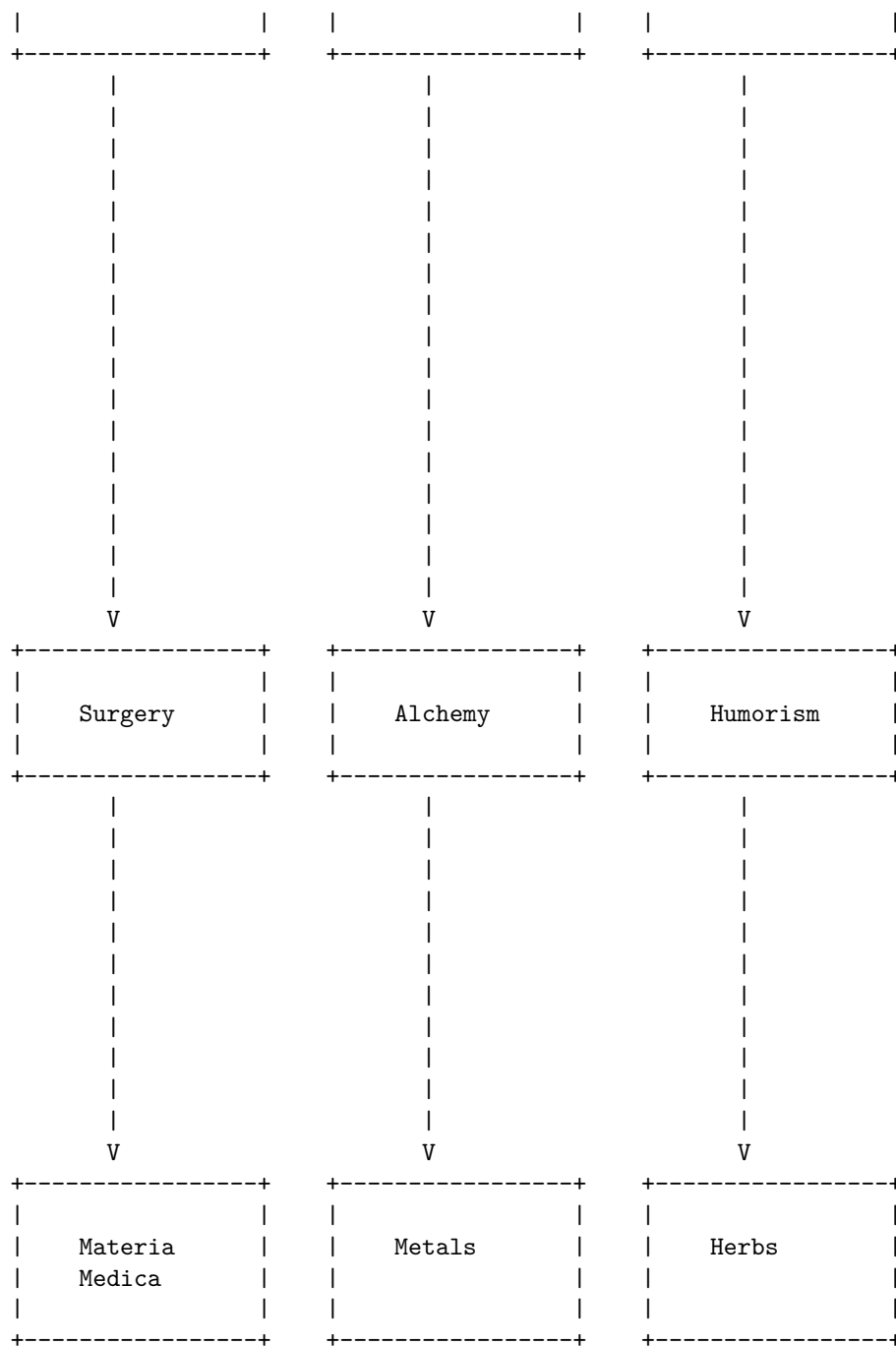
INDIA



Medicine in India and Ancient India

The following diagram illustrates the main features of medicine in India and ancient India using ASCII characters.

+-----+		+-----+		+-----+	
	Ayurveda		Siddha		Unani



Some explanations of the diagram are:

- Ayurveda, Siddha and Unani are the three major systems of traditional

medicine in India. They have different origins, theories and practices, but they share some common features such as the use of natural substances, the belief in the balance of bodily elements, and the holistic approach to health and disease .

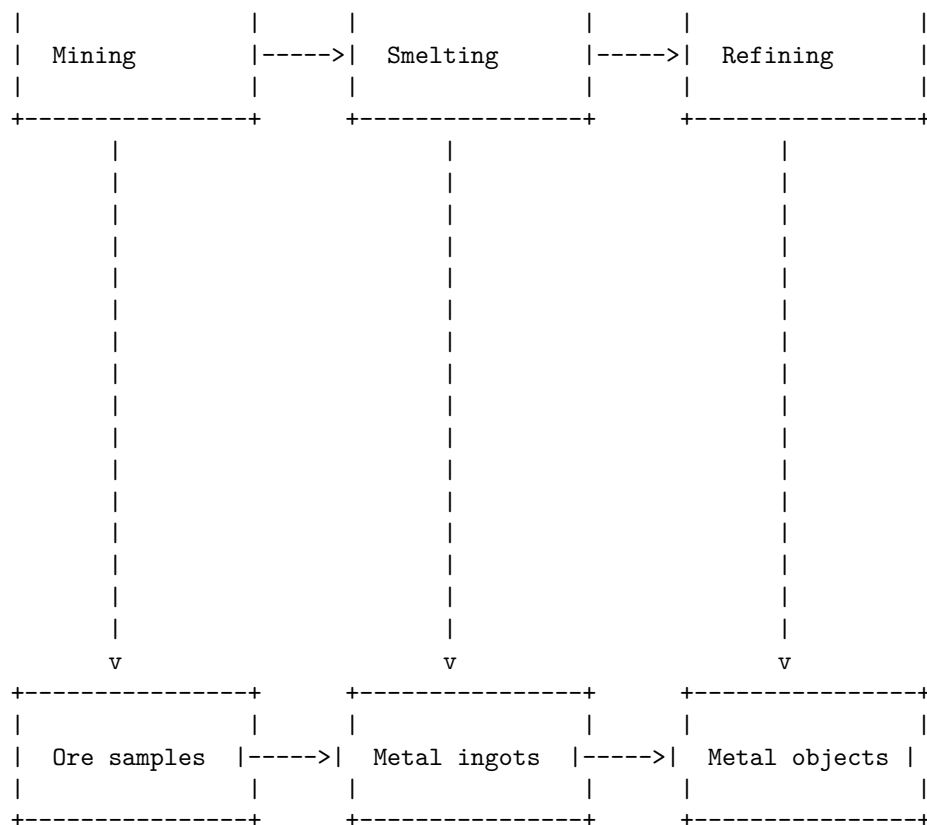
- Ayurveda is the oldest and most widely practiced system of medicine in India. It originated from the Vedic texts and developed into a sophisticated science of life. It uses various methods such as diet, lifestyle, herbal medicines, massage, yoga, meditation and surgery to prevent and treat diseases .
- Siddha is an ancient system of medicine that developed in the Tamil-speaking region of south India. It integrated elements of Ayurveda, Rasashastra, Yoga and Tantra and uses alchemically prepared metals along with medicinal plants. It also emphasizes the spiritual aspects of healing and the attainment of perfection.
- Unani is a system of medicine that originated from the teachings of the Greek physician Hippocrates and was later influenced by the Persian and Arab scholars. It is based on the theory of four humors (blood, phlegm, yellow bile and black bile) and their balance in the body. It uses herbs, minerals, animal products and other substances to treat diseases.
- Surgery, alchemy and humorism are some of the branches or methods of the three systems of medicine. Surgery is the art and science of treating diseases or injuries by manual or instrumental operations. Alchemy is the process of transforming metals or other substances into more valuable or useful forms. Humorism is the theory that the health and temperament of a person depend on the balance of four fluids or humors in the body .
- Materia medica, metals and herbs are some of the sources or materials used by the three systems of medicine. Materia medica is the term for the medical material or substance used for diagnosis, treatment or prevention of diseases. Metals are the chemical elements that have metallic properties such as luster, conductivity and malleability. Herbs are the plants or plant parts that have medicinal, culinary or aromatic value .

Metallurgy is the science and art of extracting and processing metals from their ores and alloys. Metallurgy in India and Ancient India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Chalcolithic period (around 3000 BCE) and continuing until the medieval times (around 1200 CE). India was one of the earliest civilizations to develop advanced metallurgical skills and produce various metals such as copper, bronze, iron, zinc, gold, silver, lead, tin and mercury. India also exported its metallurgical products to other regions such as China, West Asia, Europe and Africa.

Metallurgy in India and Ancient India

The following diagram illustrates the basic steps of metallurgy in India and Ancient India, based on the information from the search results:

+-----+ +-----+ +-----+



- Mining: This is the process of extracting ore samples from the earth's crust. Ore samples are rocks that contain metal or metal compounds. Mining in India and Ancient India was done by using tools such as picks, axes, chisels, hammers and fire-setting. Some of the ancient mine pits in India are found at Khetri in Rajasthan (copper), Mitathal in Haryana (copper), Zawar in Rajasthan (zinc), Laurion in Bihar (silver) and Kolar in Karnataka (gold).
- Smelting: This is the process of separating the metal from the ore by heating it in a furnace or a kiln. Smelting in India and Ancient India was done by using various types of furnaces such as pit furnaces, shaft furnaces, crucible furnaces and reverberatory furnaces. The fuel used for smelting was mainly charcoal, but sometimes also coal, peat, dung and wood. The flux used for smelting was mainly lime, but sometimes also borax, soda, ash and clay. The slag produced from smelting was either discarded or reused for other purposes.
- Refining: This is the process of purifying the metal from the impurities and alloying it with other metals to improve its properties. Refining in India and Ancient India was done by using various methods such as distillation,

liquation, cupellation, cementation, amalgamation and electrolysis. The refined metal was then cast into ingots or bars for further processing or trade.

- **Metal objects:** These are the final products of metallurgy, which include various tools, weapons, ornaments, coins, statues, vessels and structures made of metal or metal alloys. Metal objects in India and Ancient India show a high degree of craftsmanship and artistic expression. Some of the famous metal objects in India and Ancient India are the Delhi Iron Pillar (iron), the Ashoka Pillar (iron), the Dhar iron pillar (iron), the Mehrauli iron pillar (iron), the Wootz steel (steel), the Nataraja statue (bronze), the Dancing Girl of Mohenjo-daro (bronze), the Kushan coins (gold and silver), the Gupta coins (gold and silver), the Chola bronzes (bronze), the Bidriware (zinc and copper) and the Taj Mahal (marble and gold).

The following is a detailed ASCII diagram for Geography in India and Ancient India.

Geography in India and Ancient India

	Himalayan Mountains		
	Hindu Kush Mountains		



The diagram shows the main geographical features of India and Ancient India,

Biology is the science of life that studies living organisms and their interactions with each other and their environment. India has a rich history of contributions to the field of biology, especially in the areas of botany, zoology, medicine, and genetics.

The following diagram shows some of the major aspects of biology in India and ancient India, using ASCII characters to represent different elements.

122

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Some of the sources for this diagram are .

Harappan Technologies in India and Ancient India

The following diagram illustrates some of the technologies and innovations of the Harappan civilization, also known as the Indus River Valley civilization, which flourished from 3300 to 1300 BCE in present-day Pakistan and northwest India.

Metallurgy	Seal carving	Weights and measures	Water systems
- Used copper, bronze, lead, and tin - Made tools, weapons, ornaments, and statues - Practiced lost-wax casting	- Carved seals from steatite and other materials - Used seals for trade, identity, and ritual - Depicted animals, humans, and symbols	- Used standard units of weight and length - Used decimal system and fractions - Made weights from chert, limestone, and copper	- Built wells, reservoirs, canals, and drains - Developed wastewater disposal and treatment - Used bricks and mortar for construction

Water Management in India and Ancient India

Water management is the process of planning, developing, distributing and managing the optimum use of water resources. It is essential for the survival and prosperity of human societies, especially in a country like India, which has a diverse and complex hydrological system.

Water management in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the ancient civilizations of the Indus Valley, such as Mohenjodaro and Harappa, which were well-organized and built of brick and stone. They had elaborate drainage systems, wells, reservoirs, canals and public baths. They also had a sophisticated knowledge of hydrological processes, such as the hydrologic cycle, rainfall patterns, groundwater recharge and river flow regimes.

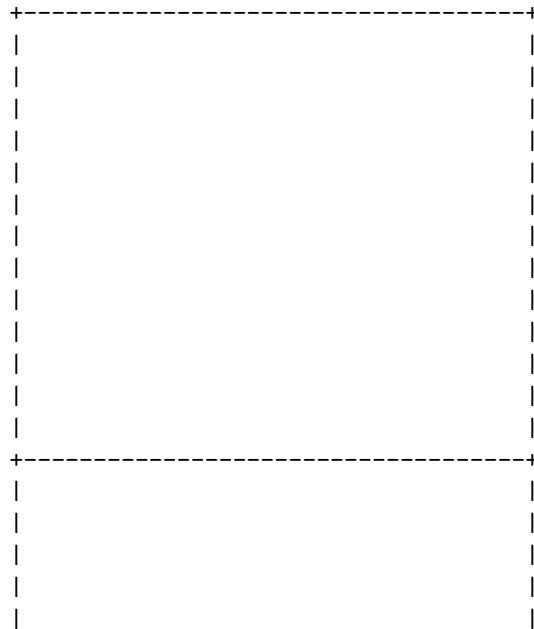
In ancient India, water was considered as a sacred and vital element of life, and was revered and worshipped by various religions and cultures. Water was also

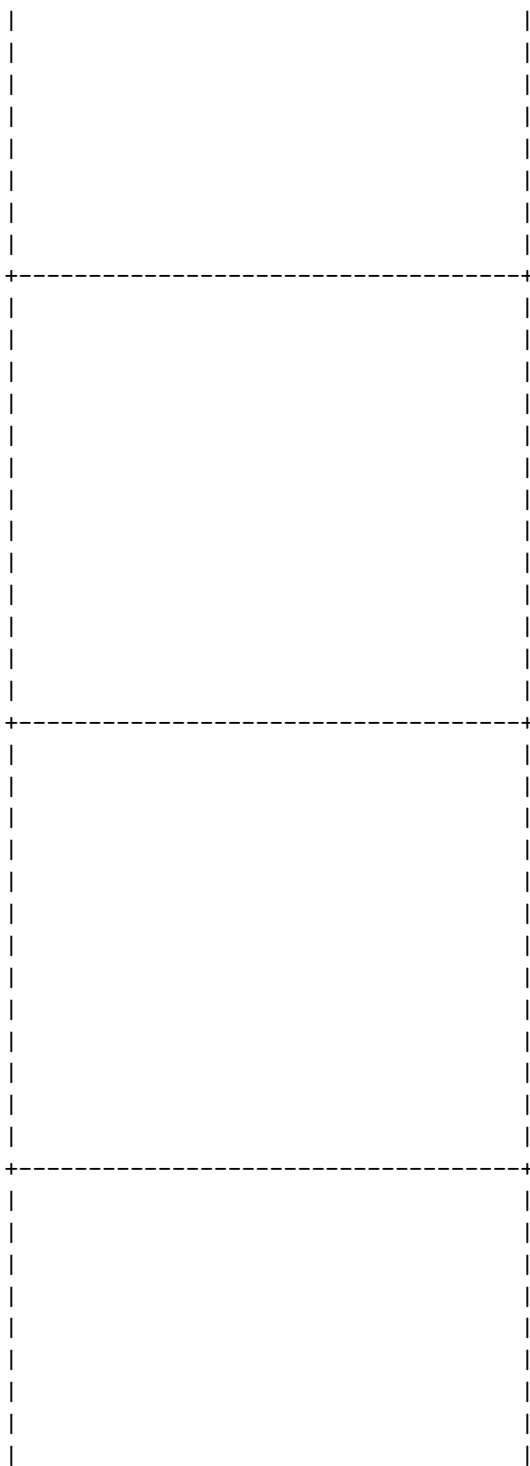
associated with various deities, such as Varuna, the god of water and oceans, Indra, the god of rain and thunder, and Ganga, the goddess of the holy river Ganges. Water was also used for various rituals, such as bathing, cleansing, purification, offering and sacrifice.

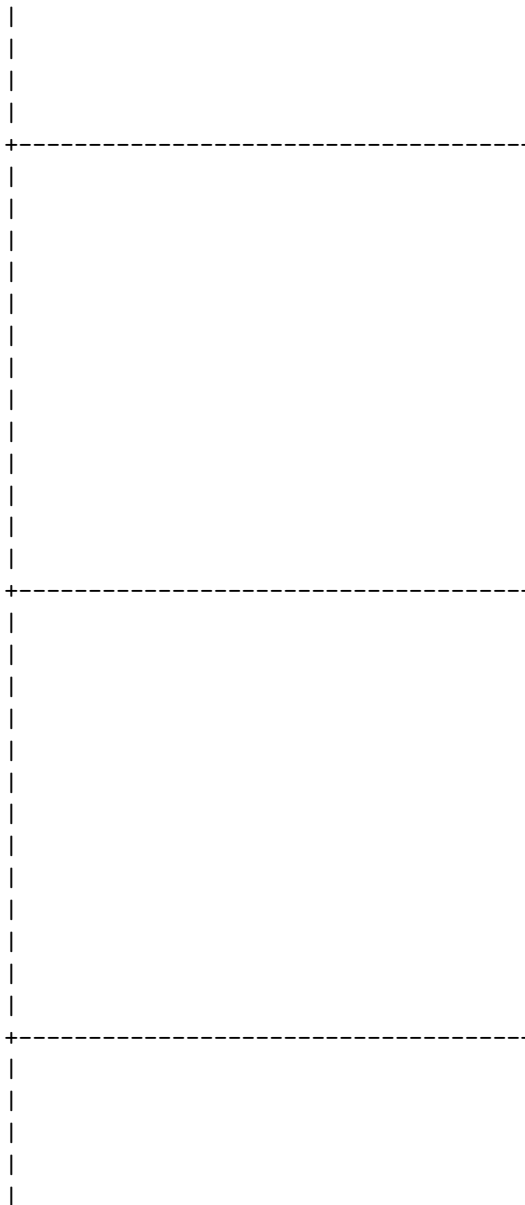
Water management in ancient India was also influenced by the principles of Vastu Shastra, the traditional science of architecture and design, which aimed to harmonize the natural and human-made environments. Vastu Shastra prescribed various rules and guidelines for the construction and maintenance of water structures, such as wells, tanks, ponds, lakes, dams, canals and stepwells. These structures were designed to capture, store, distribute and utilize water efficiently and sustainably, while also enhancing the aesthetic and spiritual value of the surroundings.

One of the most remarkable and unique examples of water management in ancient India is the stepwell, also known as baori, bawdi, vav or kund. A stepwell is a deep, multi-storied well with a series of steps leading down to the water level. Stepwells were mainly used for drinking, washing, irrigation and religious purposes, but they also served as social and cultural hubs, where people gathered, exchanged, learned and celebrated. Stepwells were built in various shapes, sizes and styles, reflecting the regional and historical diversity of India. Some of the most famous and magnificent stepwells are Rani ki Vav in Gujarat, Chand Baori in Rajasthan, Agrasen ki Baoli in Delhi and Adalaj Vav in Gujarat.

The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of a stepwell using ASCII characters:







Textile technology in India and ancient India is a vast and complex topic that involves various aspects such as cultivation, spinning, weaving, dyeing, printing, and embroidery. India has a long and rich history of producing and exporting high-quality textiles made from cotton, silk, wool, and jute. India was also one of the first countries to develop cotton cultivation and processing, and its textiles were highly valued in the ancient world.

The following is a detailed ASCII diagram that attempts to illustrate some of

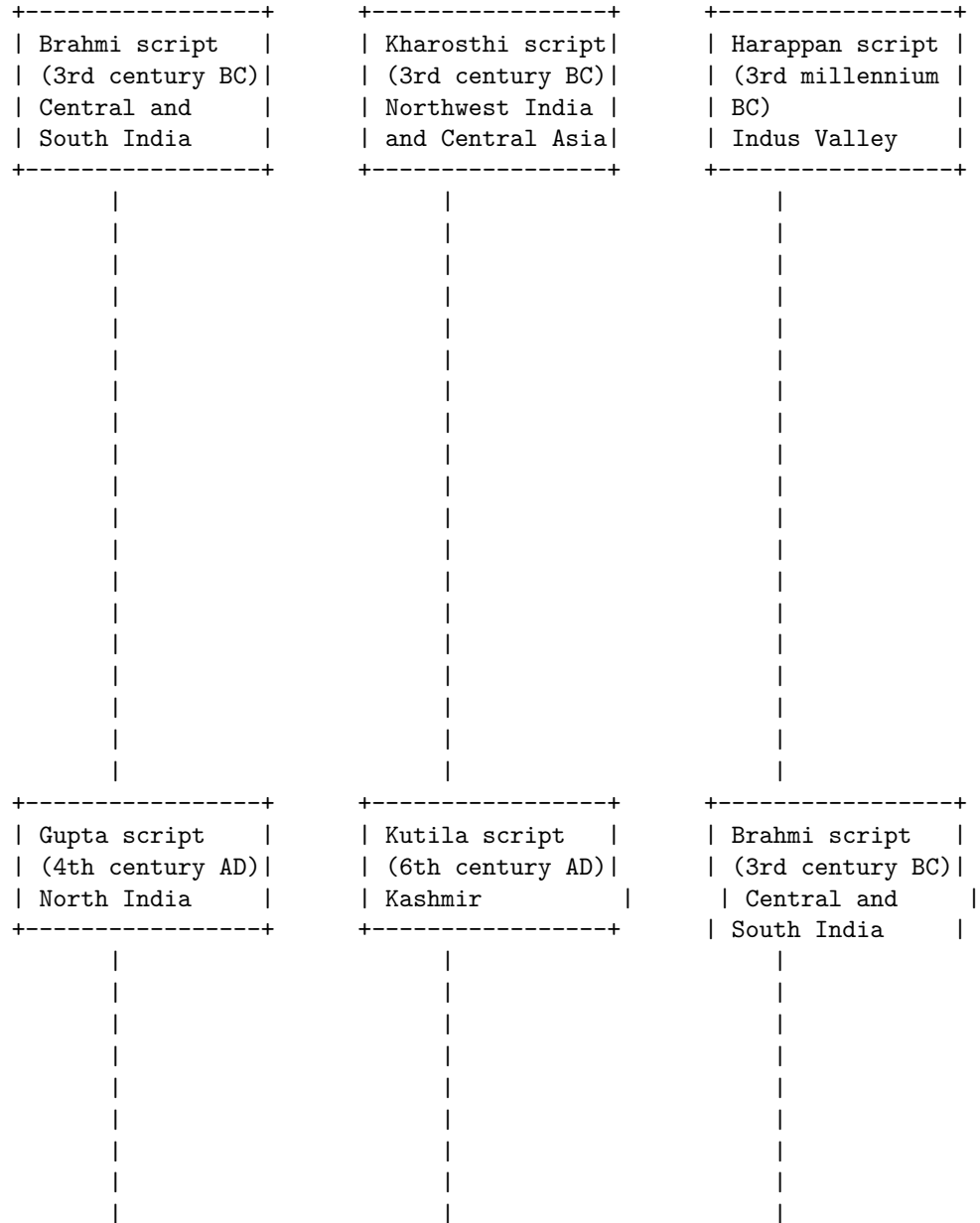
the main features of textile technology in India and ancient India. It is not exhaustive or comprehensive, but rather a simplified overview. The diagram is divided into four sections: cotton cultivation, spinning, weaving, and dyeing/printing/embroidery. Each section has a brief description and some examples of tools, techniques, and products.

Textile Technology in India and Ancient India

COTTON CULTIVATION	SPINNING	WEAVING	DYEING/PRINTING/EMBROIDERY
Cotton is a natural fibre that grows in pods on plants. India was one of the first countries to develop cotton cultivation and processing.	Spinning is the process of twisting fibres into yarns or threads. India was one of the first countries to develop spinning technology and produce fine and strong cotton yarns.	Weaving is the process of interlacing two sets of yarns to form a fabric. India has a rich and diverse tradition of weaving technology and produce exquisite and intricate fabrics.	Dyeing is the process of adding colour to yarns or fabrics. Printing is the process of applying patterns or designs to fabrics. Embroidery is the process of decorating fabrics with needle and thread.
Examples of tools: - Sickle - Gin - Carder	Examples of tools: - Charkha - Takli - Spindle - Distaff	Examples of tools: - Loom - Shuttle - Heddle - Reed - Beater	Examples of tools: - Vat - Mordant - Block - Brush - Needle
Examples of techniques: - Hand-picking - Roller-ginning	Examples of techniques: - Hand-spinning -	Examples of techniques: - Hand-weaving	Examples of techniques: - Tie-and-dye

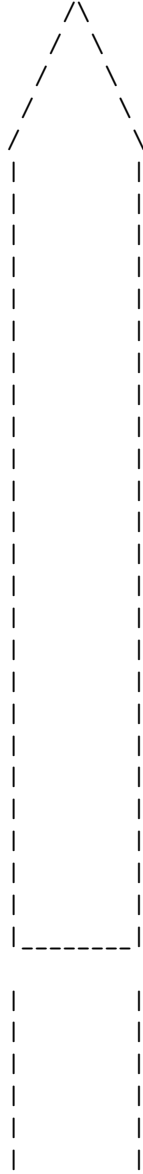
Writing Technology in India and Ancient India

The following diagram shows some of the writing systems that have been used in India and ancient India, along with their approximate dates and regions of origin and use. The diagram is not exhaustive, but it illustrates some of the diversity and complexity of the Indic scripts.



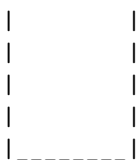
Fireworks and pyrotechnic shows existed as a form of royal entertainment in many medieval Indian kingdoms during festivals, events and special occasions like weddings . Manufacturing formulas for fireworks describing pyrotechnic mixtures are found within Kautukachintamani, a Sanskrit volume by Gajapati Prataparudradeva (1497-1539), a reputed king of Orissa. He also mentions how he used fireworks to celebrate his victories over his enemies.

The following diagram illustrates the basic components of a typical firework used in India and Ancient India:









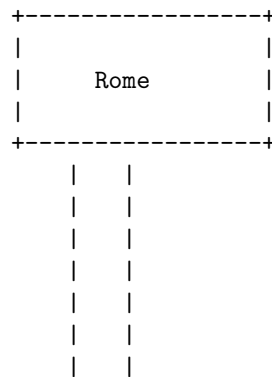
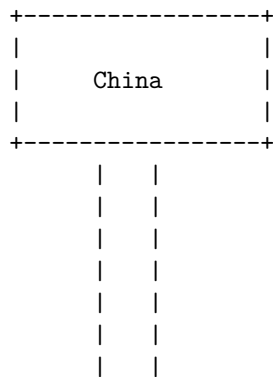


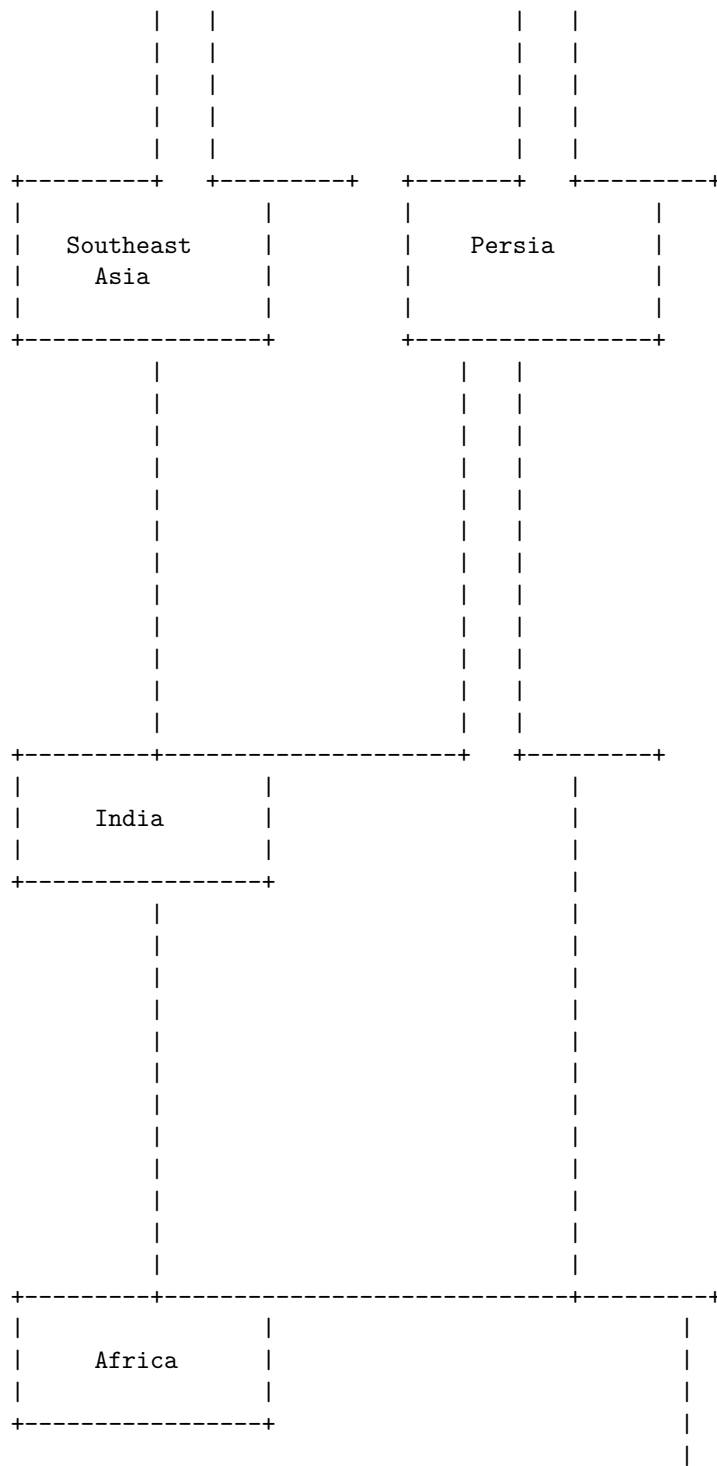


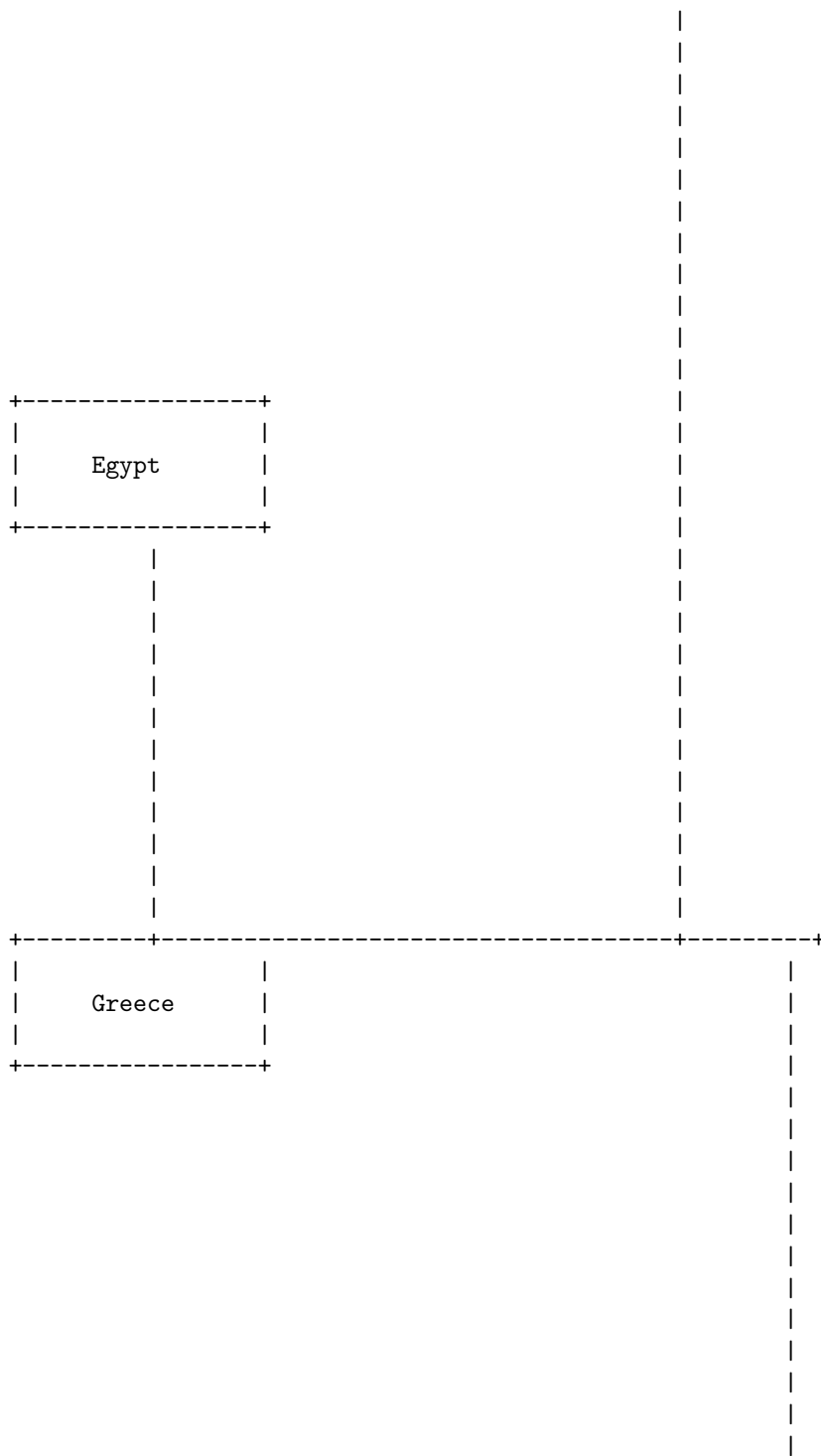
Trade in Ancient India was a flourishing activity that involved both domestic and foreign markets. India was known for its production and export of various commodities such as spices, textiles, metals, gems, ivory, and pearls. India also imported goods such as gold, silver, wine, silk, and horses from other regions. India had trade contacts with many countries and regions such as Mesopotamia, Egypt, Persia, Greece, Rome, China, Southeast Asia, and Africa.

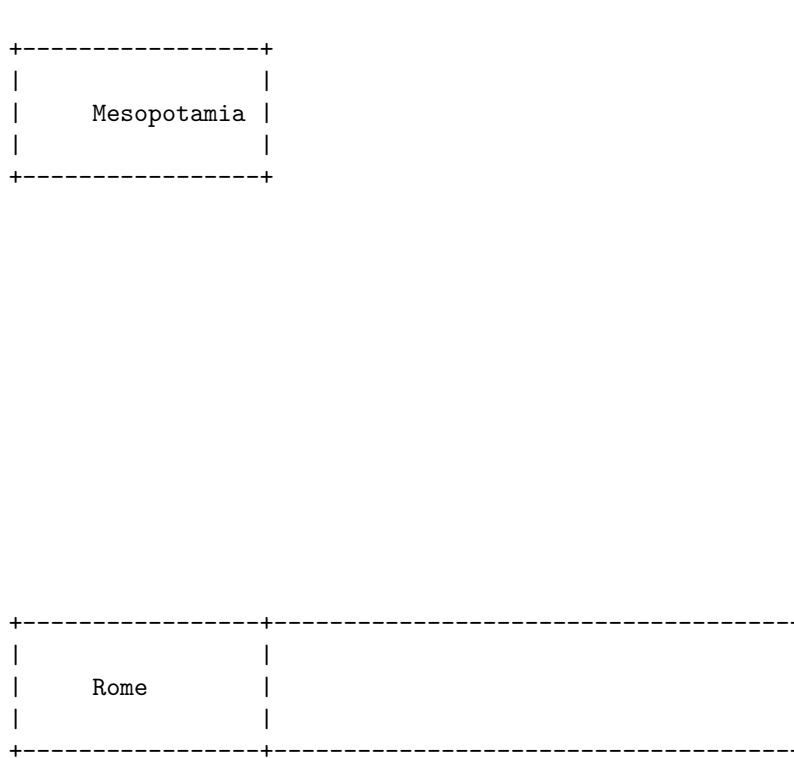
The following diagram illustrates the trade routes and commodities of ancient India using ASCII characters. The diagram is not drawn to scale and is only a simplified representation of the complex trade network that existed in ancient times.

Trade in Ancient India









Legend:

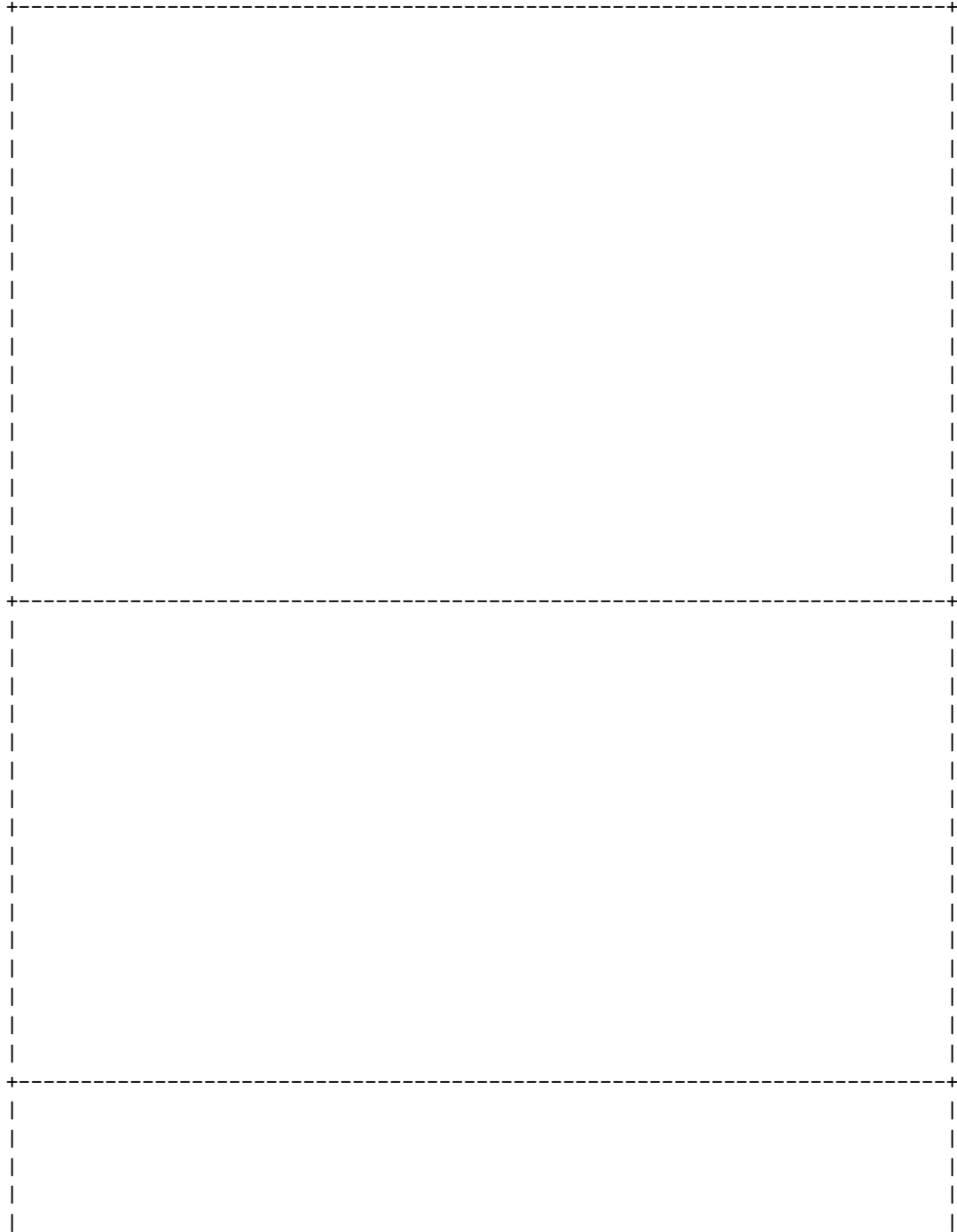
| = Land route
 - = Sea route
 + = Junction point

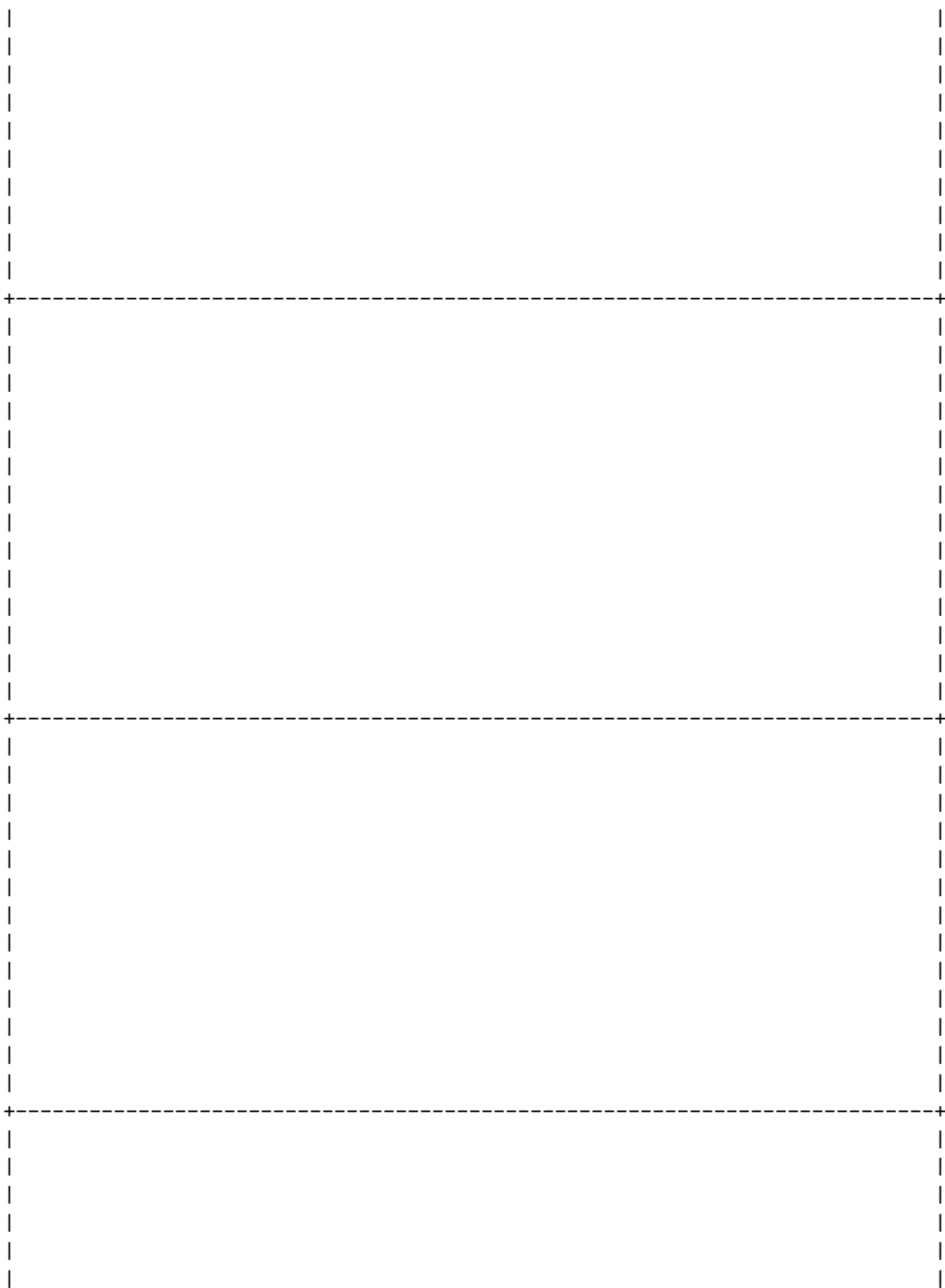
Commodities:

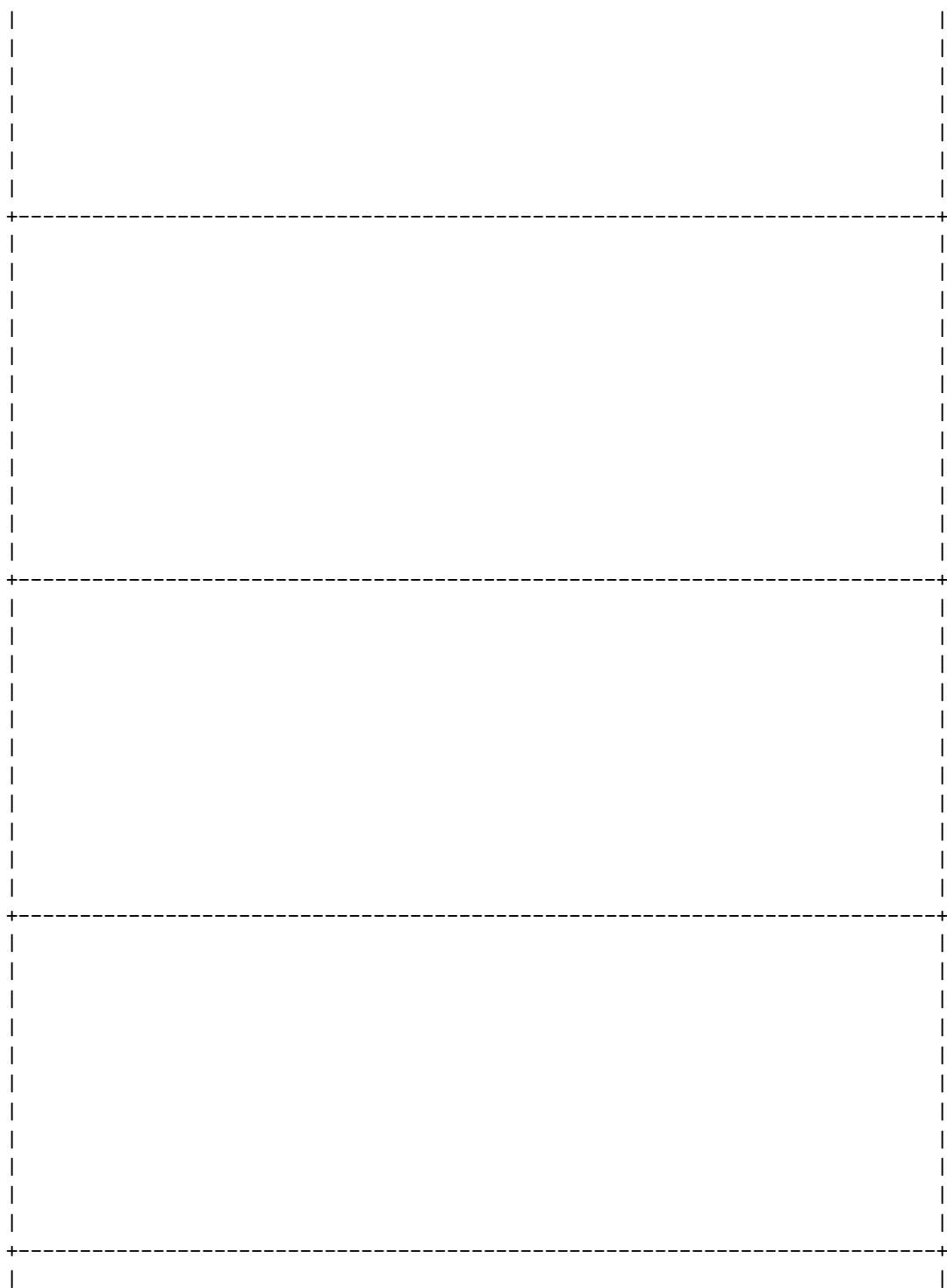
China: Silk, porcelain, tea, paper
 Southeast Asia: Spices, sandalwood, tin, gold
 India: Spices, textiles, metals, gems, ivory, pearls
 Africa: Gold, ivory, ebony, slaves
 Egypt: Papyrus, linen, glass, wine
 Greece: Olive oil, wine, pottery, philosophy
 Persia: Carpets, silver, horses, wine
 Mesopotamia: Dates, grains, wool, copper
 Rome: Gold, silver, wine, silk, horses

The following is a detailed ASCII diagram for India's Dominance up to Pre-colonial Times and Ancient India.

India's Dominance up to Pre-colonial Times and Ancient India









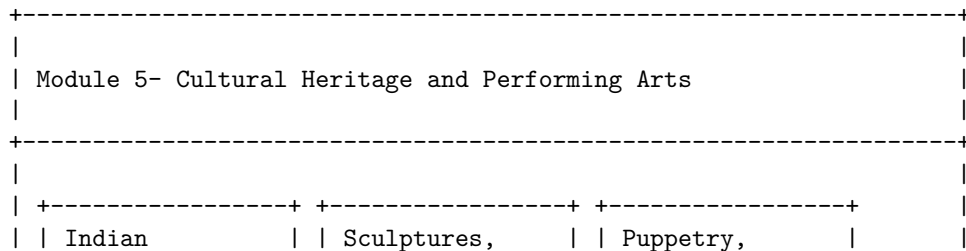


The diagram is divided into nine horizontal sections, each representing a different period of Indian history. The sections are:

- Prehistoric era: This section covers the time from the emergence of human ancestors in India to the development of the Indus Valley civilization. It is marked by the presence of stone tools, cave paintings, and megalithic structures.
- Indus Valley civilization: This section covers the time from the rise to the decline of the Harappan civilization, which flourished along the Indus River and its tributaries. It is marked by the presence of urban settlements, sophisticated drainage systems, standardized weights and measures, and a script that remains undeciphered.
- Vedic period: This section covers the time from the arrival of the Indo-Aryan speakers to the formation of the Mahajanapadas, or the sixteen great kingdoms. It is marked by the composition of the Vedas, the oldest scriptures of Hinduism, and the development of the caste system, the varna system, and the concept of karma and dharma.
- Mauryan empire: This section covers the time from the rise to the fall of the Mauryan empire, which was the first pan-Indian empire. It is marked by the presence of a centralized administration, a large army, a network of roads, and the spread of Buddhism under the patronage of Emperor Ashoka.
- Classical period: This section covers the time from the emergence of the Gupta empire to the invasion of the Huns. It is marked by the presence of a golden age of culture, science, art, and literature, as well as the revival of Hinduism.

Module 5- Cultural Heritage and Performing Arts

The following diagram illustrates the main components of Module 5- Cultural Heritage and Performing Arts, which covers various aspects of Indian culture, such as architecture, sculpture, pottery, puppetry, dance, music, theatre, painting, martial arts, fairs and festivals.



Architecture Seals, Coins, Dance, Music,	
and Engineering Pottery Theatre	
+-----+ +-----+ +-----+	
+-----+ +-----+ +-----+	
Painting Martial Arts Fairs and	
Traditions Festivals	
+-----+ +-----+ +-----+	
+-----+	
Current	
Developments	
in Arts and	
Culture	
+-----+	
+-----+	

Indian architecture is a diverse and rich tradition that reflects the history, culture, and religion of India. It has evolved over time from the ancient Indus Valley civilization to the present day, incorporating various influences and styles from different regions and periods. Here is a diagram that shows some of the main features and examples of Indian architecture in ancient India and present times.

Indian Architecture in Ancient India and present times

Indus Valley Mauryan Buddhist Hindu	
- Urban planning - Stupas - Chaityas - Temples	
- Drainage - Caves - Viharas - Shikharas	
- Corbel arches - Pillars - Stupas - Mandapas	
- Rock-cut sculptures - Toranas - Garbhagriha	
- Railings - Gopurams	
+-----+ +-----+ +-----+ +-----+	
Examples: Examples: Examples: Examples:	
- Mohenjo-daro - Sanchi Stupa - Ajanta Caves - Konark Sun Temple	
- Harappa - Ashoka - Ellora - Khajuraho	

- Dholavira	Pillars - Barabar Caves	Caves - Karle Chaitya	Temples - Brihadesh- wara Temple
Islamic	Colonial	Modern	Post- modern
- Mosques - Tombs - Minarets - Arches - Domes - Calligra- phy	- Churches - Forts - Palaces - Bungalows - Indo- Saracenic	- Skyscrap- ers - Domes - Arches - Geometric shapes	- Regional - Sustainable - Organic - Vernacular - Fusion
Examples:	Examples:	Examples:	Examples:
- Taj Mahal - Qutub Minar - Red Fort - Jama Masjid	- Victoria Memorial - Rashtra- pati Bhavan - Gateway of India	- Lotus Temple - India Gate - Chandigarh - Le Corbu-	- Gandhi Smarak - IIM Ahmedabad - Nalanda University

Engineering and Architecture as Cultural Heritage of India

India has a rich and diverse architectural heritage that reflects its history, culture, and religion. Indian architecture can be classified into several styles and traditions, such as Hindu temple architecture, Indo-Islamic architecture, South Indian architecture, and Indo-Saracenic architecture. Each of these styles has its own distinctive features, such as the use of stone, brick, wood, metal, and ornamentation. The following diagram illustrates some of the basic elements of these styles:

Hindu temple architecture	Indo-Islamic architecture	South Indian architecture	Indo-Saracenic architecture
- Shikhara: a pyramidal or	- Dome: a hemispherical	- Gopuram: a monumental	- Arch: a curved or

conical tower over the sanctum	roof structure that covers the main prayer hall	tower at the entrance of a temple	pointed structure that spans an opening
- Mandapa: a pillared hall for public worship	- Minaret: a slender tower used for the call to prayer	- Vimana: a pyramidal or octagonal tower over the sanctum	- Dome: a hemispherical roof structure that covers the main hall
- Garbhagriha: the innermost sanctum that houses the main deity	- Iwan: a rectangular hall with a vaulted roof and three walls, open on one side	- Mandapa: a pillared hall for public worship	- Chhatri: a elevated dome-shaped pavilion
- Pradakshina patha: a circumambulatory path around the sanctum	- Jali: a perforated stone or latticed screen	- Prakara: a rectangular enclosure wall around the temple	- Jali: a perforated stone or latticed screen
- Nagara: a style of temple architecture with a curvilinear shikhara	- Blend of Persian, Turkish, and Indian elements	- Dravida: a style of temple architecture with a square base and a pyramidal shikhara	- Blend of Hindu, Islamic, and European elements

Sculptures as Cultural Heritage of India

The following ascii diagram shows some of the famous sculptures in India that depict the Indian culture and heritage.

Dancing Girl	Ashoka Pillar	Buddha Statue	Nataraja Idol
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Mohen Jo Daro c. 2500 BC	Sarnath 3rd Century B.C.	Bodh Gaya 5th Century A.D.	Chidambaram 11th Century A.D.

The Dancing Girl is a bronze figurine of a young woman from the Harappan civilization. It is one of the earliest examples of realistic human representation in Indian art. It shows the skill and sophistication of the ancient metalworkers.

The Ashoka Pillar is a stone column with a carved capital of four lions facing the four directions. It was erected by the Mauryan emperor Ashoka to mark the site where Buddha gave his first sermon. It is a symbol of the spread of Buddhism and the imperial power of Ashoka.

The Buddha Statue is a sandstone sculpture of the seated Buddha in the meditation pose. It is located in the Mahabodhi Temple complex in Bodh Gaya, where Buddha attained enlightenment. It is a masterpiece of the Gupta period, which is considered the golden age of Indian art.

The Nataraja Idol is a bronze statue of the Hindu god Shiva as the lord of dance. It depicts him performing the cosmic dance of creation and destruction. It is a symbol of the dynamic and rhythmic aspects of the universe. It is a masterpiece of the Chola period, which is known for its excellence in bronze casting.

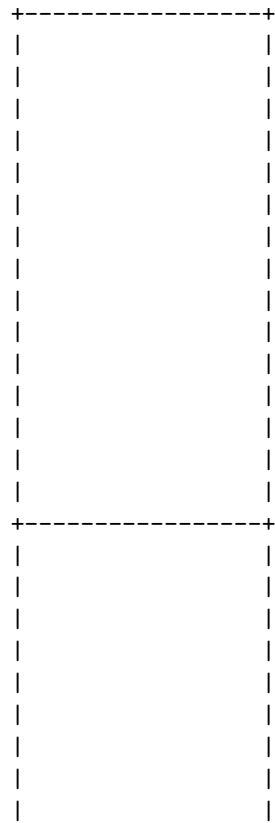
Seals are small objects that have been used for various purposes in different cultures and periods of history. In India, seals have been found in abundance in the sites of the Indus Valley Civilization, which flourished between 2500 and 1900 BCE. These seals are made of steatite, a soft stone that can be easily carved, and have various designs and inscriptions on them. The seals are usually square

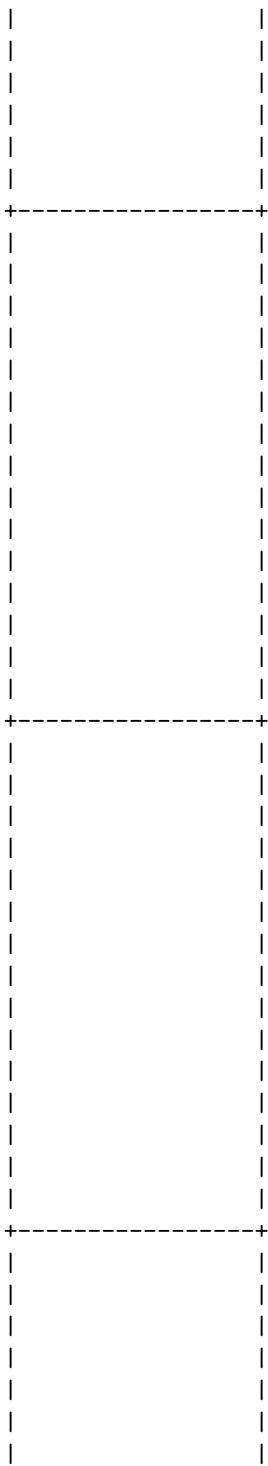
or rectangular in shape, and measure about 2-3 cm on each side. Some of the seals have a knob or a boss on the back, which may have been used to hold them or attach them to a cord.

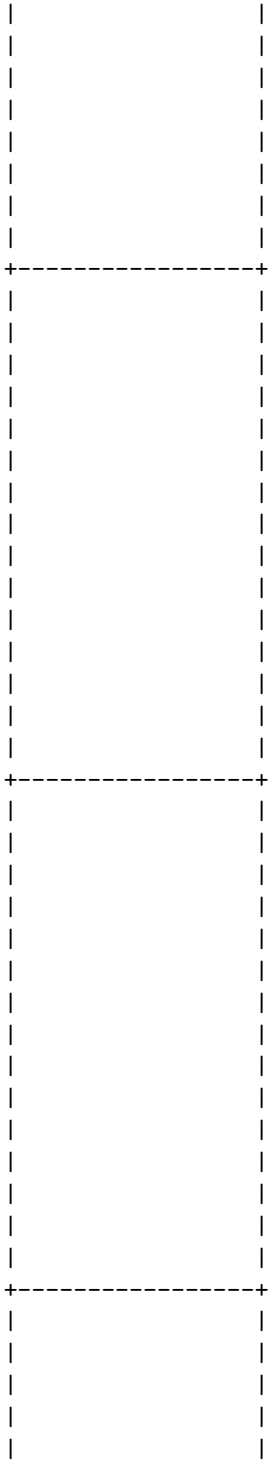
The seals of the Indus Valley Civilization are considered as cultural heritage of India because they provide valuable information about the society, economy, religion, and art of this ancient civilization. The seals depict various animals, such as bulls, elephants, rhinoceroses, tigers, buffaloes, and unicorns, as well as human figures, trees, and geometric patterns. Some of the seals also have a script, which has not been deciphered yet, but may represent the names of individuals, places, or gods. The seals were used for stamping clay tablets, cloth, or other materials, and may have served as identity cards, trade marks, or tokens of authority. The seals also show the contacts and exchanges that the Indus people had with other regions, such as Mesopotamia and the Persian Gulf, where similar seals have been found.

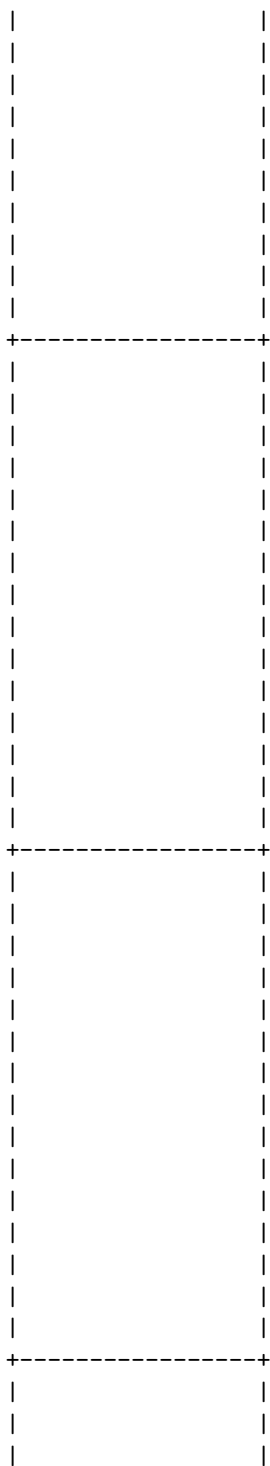
The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of a seal of the Indus Valley Civilization using ASCII characters:

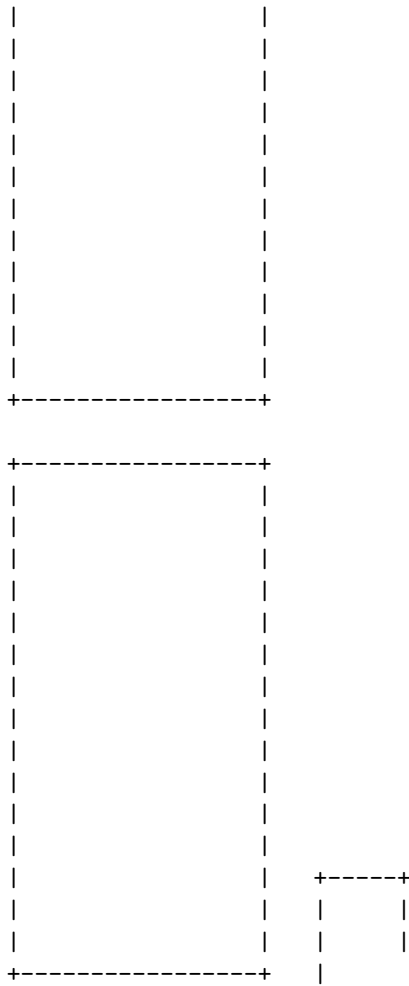
Seals as Cultural Heritage of India











Coins as Cultural Heritage of India

The following ascii diagram shows some examples of coins from different periods and dynasties of Indian history, along with their names, symbols and significance.

Cowry Shell (Indus Valley Civilization)	Punch Marked Coin (Mauryan Empire)	Indo-Greek Coin (Menander I)	Gupta Gold Coin (Samudra Gupta)
The first to be used as a symbol of money in India with a fixed value and weight	The first metallic coins in India with various symbols and inscriptions	The first bilingual coins in India with Greek and Brahmi inscriptions	The peak of gold coinage in ancient India, with artistic and cultural motifs
/ \ () \ /	/ \ () \ /	/ \ () \ /	/ \ () \ /
/ \ () \ /	/ \ () \ /	/ \ () \ /	/ \ () \ /
/ \ () \ /	/ \ () \ /	/ \ () \ /	/ \ () \ /
/ \ () \ /	/ \ () \ /	/ \ () \ /	/ \ () \ /
Mughal Silver Rupee (Akbar)	Maratha Gold Fanam (Shivaji Maharaj)	British India Rupee (George V)	Republic of India Rupee (Mahatma

			Gandhi)	
The standard	The smallest	The first	The first	
currency of	gold coin in	uniform	decimalized	
the Mughal	India with a	currency of	currency of	
Empire with	weight of 0.4	India under	India with	
Persian and	grams and a			

Pottery as Cultural Heritage of India

Pottery is one of the most ancient and enduring forms of Indian art, dating back to the prehistoric times. Pottery reflects the cultural diversity and richness of India, as different regions have their own styles, techniques, motifs and colours of pottery. Pottery is also a functional craft that serves various purposes, such as storing water, cooking food, holding flowers, making toys, etc. Pottery is closely linked to the rural and tribal life of India, as many potters belong to these communities and practice their craft as a family tradition.

The following diagram shows some of the main types of pottery found in India, along with their geographical origin and distinctive features.

Type	Origin	Features	Example
Terracotta	All over India	Un-glazed Earthenware Reddish-brown colour	Bankura horse
Blue Pottery	Jaipur, Rajasthan	Glazed Stoneware Cobalt blue colour	Vases, tiles, plates
Khurja Pottery	Khurja, Uttar Pradesh	Glazed Earthenware Bright colours Floral motifs	Bowls, cups, jugs
Khavda Pottery	Khavda, Gujarat	Glazed Earthenware White and red colour	Matkas, diyas, pots
Longpi Pottery	Manipur	Un-glazed Stoneware Black colour	Black pottery

		Cane work	
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Puppetry is a form of theatre or performance that involves the manipulation of puppets. Puppetry is one of India's most diverse cultural heritages, with a variety of regional genres. Puppetry has been used in India as a means of entertainment and a form of cultural and religious dissemination. Puppetry in India can be classified into four main types: string puppets, shadow puppets, glove puppets and rod puppets. Each type has its own distinctive features, styles and themes.

Puppetry as Cultural Heritage of India

String Puppets	Shadow Puppets	Glove Puppets	Rod Puppets
- Manipulated by strings attached to the limbs - Can have elaborate costumes - Can depict human and animal characters - Popular in Rajasthan, Karnataka, Tamil Nadu and Orissa - Examples: Kathputli, Gombeyatta, Bommalattam and Kundhei	- Flat cut-out figures of leather - Projected on a translucent screen - Can depict human and animal characters - Popular in Kerala, Andhra Pradesh, Karnataka, Tamil Nadu and Orissa - Examples: Tholpavakoothu, Togalu Gombeyatta, Ravanachhaya and Chamadyache	- Worn on the hand - Usually have a cloth body and a wooden head - Can depict human and animal characters - Popular in Uttar Pradesh, West Bengal and Kerala - Examples: Pavakoothu, Kundhei and Glove Puppets of Orissa	- Held and moved by rods - Can have elaborate costumes - Can depict human and animal characters - Popular in West Bengal and Odisha - Examples: Putul Nautch and Yampuri

	Bahulya	
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Dance is an ancient and celebrated cultural tradition in India. It reflects the rich and diverse heritage of the country, as well as the deep-seated beliefs and values of its people. There are two main types of dance in India: classical and folk. Classical dances are based on ancient texts and codified rules, and are performed with grace, precision and devotion. Folk dances are more spontaneous and expressive, and are performed during festivals, weddings and other occasions. Both types of dance have regional variations and styles, and showcase the beauty and diversity of India.

Dance as Cultural Heritage of India

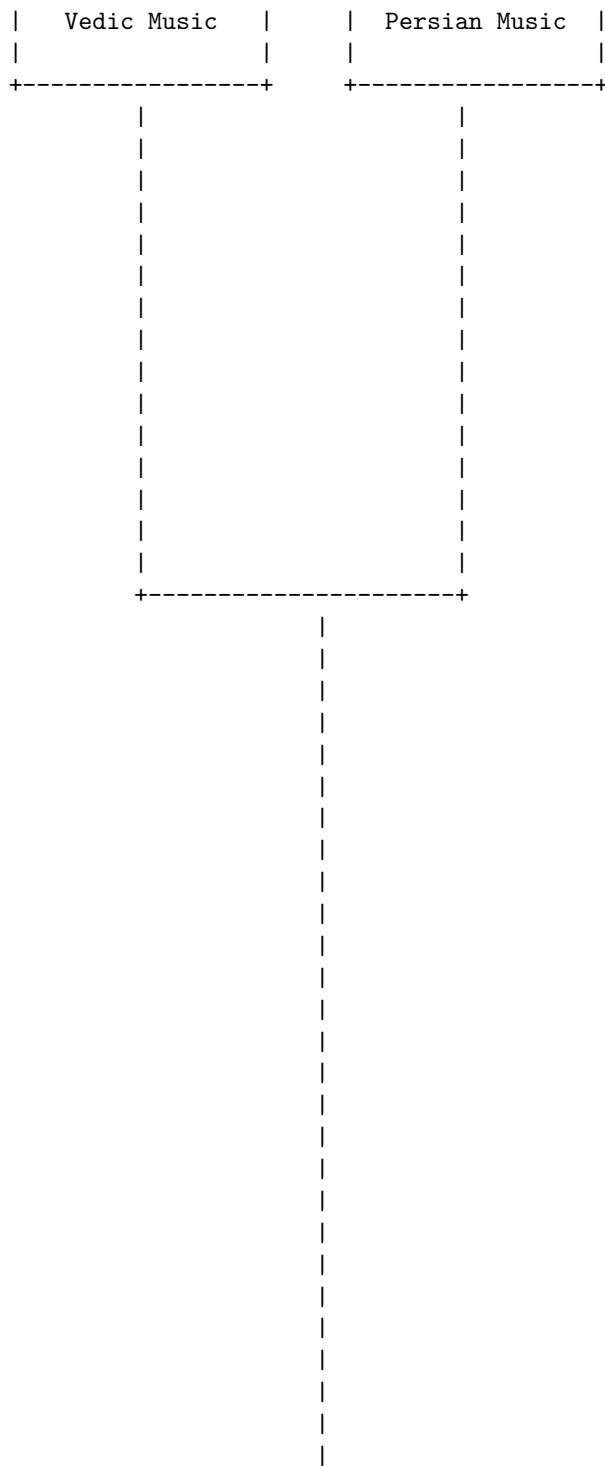
Classical Dances	Folk Dances	Bollywood Dances
- Bharatanatyam - Kathak - Kathakali - Kuchipudi - Manipuri - Mohiniyattam - Odissi - Sattriya	- Bhangra - Garba - Lavani - Ghoomar - Chhau - Dandiya - Dumhal - Rouff	- A fusion of various dance forms from India and the West

The above diagram illustrates the basic categories and examples of dance as cultural heritage of India. Each category has its own history, style, music and costumes. The diagram is not exhaustive, as there are many more dance forms and subgenres in India. However, it gives an overview of the main types of dance that make India's cultural heritage much more beautiful.

Music as Cultural Heritage of India

The following ascii diagram illustrates the diversity and evolution of Indian music as a cultural heritage. It shows the two major traditions of Indian classical music, Carnatic and Hindustani, and their origins, influences, and subgenres. It also shows some of the popular forms of folk, devotional, and modern music that have emerged from or been influenced by Indian classical music.

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Theatre is a composite art form that has a long and rich history in India. It has been influenced by various cultural, religious, and linguistic traditions, and has evolved into different forms and genres over time. Theatre in India can be

broadly classified into three periods: classical, traditional, and modern.

The classical period of theatre in India dates back to around 500 BC, when the Natya Shastra, a treatise on theatre art, was composed by Bharat Muni. The Natya Shastra lays down the principles and rules of drama, dance, music, and aesthetics, and is considered the authoritative text of Indian theatre. The classical theatre in India was mainly based on Sanskrit texts, and was performed in temples and royal courts. The most prominent forms of classical theatre in India are Kutiyattam, a form of Sanskrit theatre from Kerala that is recognized by UNESCO as a masterpiece of intangible cultural heritage, and Koodiyattam, a form of dance-drama from Tamil Nadu that is based on the epic Ramayana.

The traditional period of theatre in India emerged from the folk and regional traditions that developed in different parts of the country. The traditional theatre in India was more diverse and flexible than the classical theatre, and incorporated elements from local cultures, languages, and religions. The traditional theatre in India was mainly performed in open-air venues, such as village squares, fields, and streets, and was aimed at entertaining and educating the masses. The traditional theatre in India also reflected the social and political realities of the times, and often addressed issues such as caste, gender, and colonialism. Some of the most popular forms of traditional theatre in India are Nautanki, a form of musical theatre from Uttar Pradesh, Jatra, a form of folk theatre from Bengal, Tamasha, a form of comic theatre from Maharashtra, and Yakshagana, a form of dance-drama from Karnataka.

The modern period of theatre in India began in the 19th century, when the influence of Western theatre and education became more prominent. The modern theatre in India was influenced by the social reform movements, the nationalist struggle, and the global trends of realism, naturalism, and expressionism. The modern theatre in India also experimented with new forms, techniques, and themes, and explored the issues of identity, culture, and modernity. The modern theatre in India also witnessed the emergence of English theatre, which became popular among the urban and educated classes. Some of the most notable playwrights and directors of modern theatre in India are Rabindranath Tagore, Mohan Rakesh, Vijay Tendulkar, Girish Karnad, Badal Sircar, and Satyadev Dubey.

The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of theatre as cultural heritage of India:

Classical	Traditional	Modern
- Based on Sanskrit texts	- Based on folk and regional	- Based on Western influences and

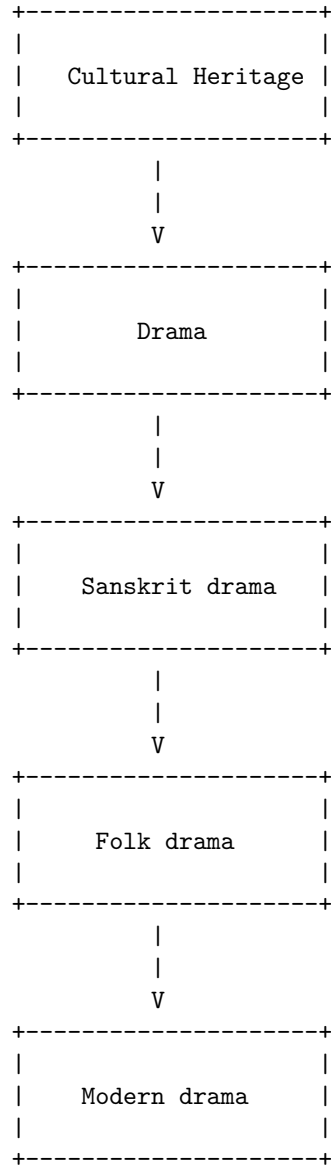
- Performed in	traditions	social movements	
temples and	- Performed in	- Performed in	
courts	open-air venues	theatres and	
- Follows the	- Incorporates	auditoriums	
Natya Shastra	local cultures,	- Experiments with	
- Examples:	languages, and	new forms,	
Kutiyattam,	religions	techniques, and	
Koodiyattam	- Reflects the	themes	
	social and	- Examples:	
	political	Tagore, Rakesh,	
	realities	Tendulkar, Karnad	
	- Examples:		
	Nautanki, Jatra,		
	Tamasha,		
	Yakshagana		

Drama is a form of performing arts that involves the enactment of stories using dialogue, music, gesture, and dance. Drama is an integral part of the cultural heritage of India, as it reflects the social and religious aspects of the Indian civilization. Drama in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Vedic era, and has developed various forms and styles over the centuries. Some of the famous traditional dramas or theatres of India are:

- Sanskrit drama: This is the classical form of drama that originated in the ancient period and reached its peak during the Gupta dynasty. Sanskrit drama is based on the principles of Natyashastra, a treatise on dramaturgy written by Bharata Muni. Sanskrit drama is characterized by its poetic language, elaborate costumes, masks, and makeup, and the use of stock characters such as the hero, heroine, villain, clown, etc. Some of the famous Sanskrit playwrights are Kalidasa, Bhasa, Sudraka, and Vishakhadatta.
- Folk drama: This is the popular form of drama that emerged in the medieval period and is performed by the rural or village communities. Folk drama is based on the local myths, legends, and folklore, and is influenced by the regional languages, dialects, and cultures. Folk drama is characterized by its simple stage, colorful costumes, lively music, and dance, and the use of satire, humor, and social commentary. Some of the famous folk dramas or theatres of India are Nautanki, Tamasha, Jatra, Bhavai, Yakshagana, etc.
- Modern drama: This is the contemporary form of drama that emerged in the colonial and post-colonial period and is influenced by the Western and European styles of theatre. Modern drama is based on the themes of realism, nationalism, social reform, and experimentation, and is performed in various Indian languages such as Hindi, Urdu, Bengali, Marathi, etc. Modern drama is characterized by its realistic dialogue, minimal stage, and props, and the use of symbolism, irony, and allegory. Some of the fa-

mous modern playwrights are Rabindranath Tagore, Mohan Rakesh, Vijay Tendulkar, Girish Karnad, Mahesh Dattani, etc.

The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of drama as a cultural heritage of India:



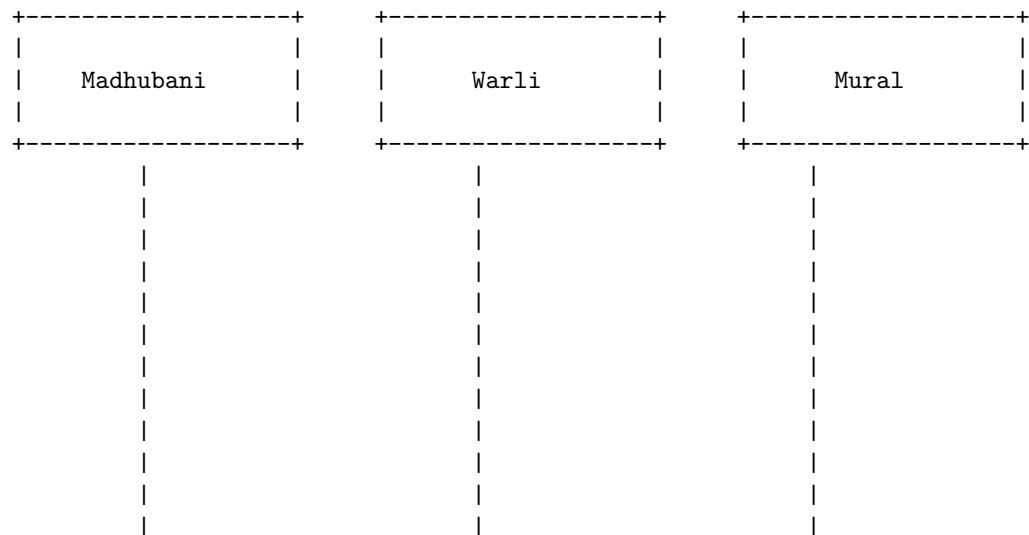
Painting is one of the oldest and most diverse forms of Indian art, reflecting the cultural, religious and political developments of the country. There are many types of Indian paintings, each with its own style, technique and history. Some

of the most famous and popular types of Indian paintings are:

- **Madhubani:** A folk art from the Mithila region of Bihar, characterized by bright colors, geometric patterns and symbolic motifs depicting nature, deities and social events. Madhubani paintings are usually done on walls, floors or paper using natural dyes and brushes made from bamboo or cotton.
- **Warli:** A tribal art from the Maharashtra state, featuring simple and monochromatic figures and scenes of everyday life, rituals and festivals. Warli paintings are done on mud walls or cloth using rice paste or white paint and a bamboo stick.
- **Mural:** A large-scale painting done on a wall or ceiling, often depicting religious or historical themes. Mural paintings are found in many ancient and medieval temples, palaces and caves across India, such as Ajanta, Ellora, Hampi and Thanjavur.
- **Miniature:** A small and detailed painting done on paper, cloth, ivory or palm leaf, usually illustrating manuscripts, epics, legends or court scenes. Miniature paintings flourished in various regions and schools of India, such as Mughal, Rajasthani, Pahari, Deccani and Bengal.
- **Modern:** A broad category of paintings that emerged in the 19th and 20th centuries, influenced by Western art movements, Indian nationalism, social realism and individual expression. Some of the prominent modern Indian painters are Raja Ravi Varma, Abanindranath Tagore, Nandalal Bose, Amrita Sher-Gil, M.F. Husain and S.H. Raza.

The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of a painting as cultural heritage of India:

Painting as Cultural Heritage of India





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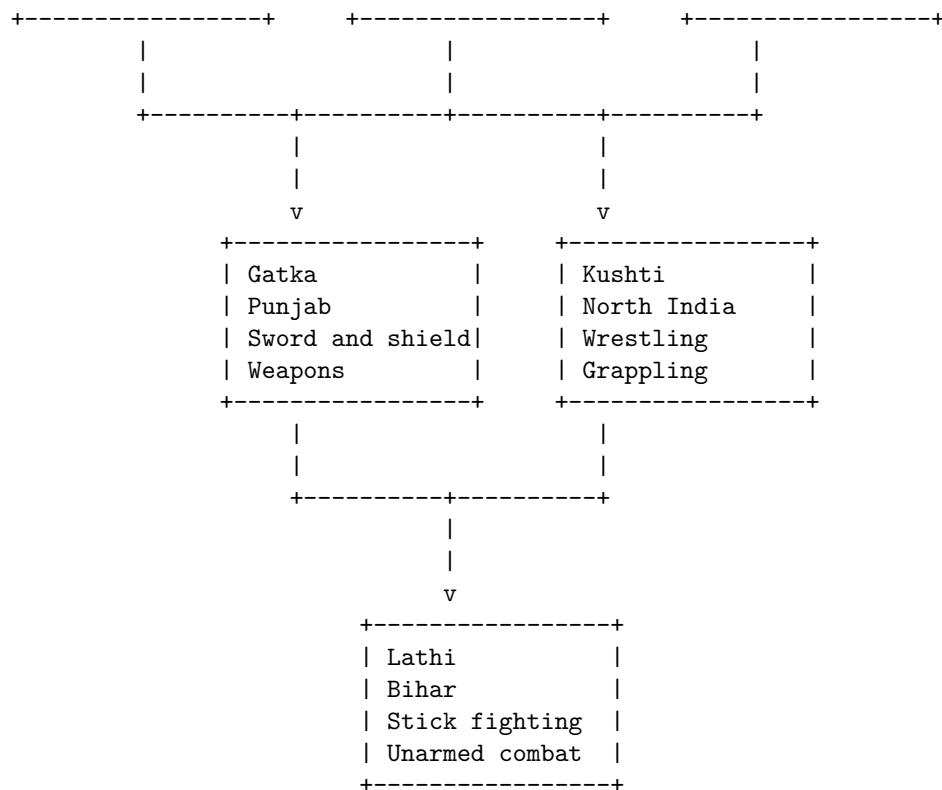
Martial Arts Traditions of India

Martial arts are codified systems and traditions of combat practices, which are practised for a variety of reasons – self-defence, competition, physical health and fitness, entertainment, as well as mental, physical, and spiritual development. India has an ancient tradition in diverse martial arts. Some of the famous martial arts in India are:

- Kalaripayattu: Originated from Kerala, it is one of the oldest martial arts in the world. It is based on the principles of animal movements and uses weapons such as swords, daggers, spears, shields, and bows and arrows.
- Thang-Ta: Originated from Manipur, it is a form of sword and spear fighting. It also includes unarmed combat techniques such as kicks, punches, locks, and throws.
- Silambam: Originated from Tamil Nadu, it is a form of stick fighting. It uses bamboo staffs of various lengths and also incorporates other weapons such as knives, swords, and axes.
- Gatka: Originated from Punjab, it is a style of sword and shield fighting. It was developed by the Sikh warriors as a means of self-defence and warfare. It also includes the use of other weapons such as chakrams, kirpans, and lathis.
- Kushti: Originated from North India, it is a form of wrestling. It involves grappling, takedowns, pins, and submissions. It is also known as Pehlwani or Malla-Yuddha.
- Lathi: Originated from Bihar, it is a form of stick fighting. It uses wooden sticks of about six feet long and also incorporates kicks, punches, and blocks.

The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of a martial arts traditions of India:

+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
Kalaripayattu	Thang-Ta	Silambam
Kerala	Manipur	Tamil Nadu
Animal movements	Sword and spear	Stick fighting
Weapons	Unarmed combat	Weapons



Fairs and Festivals as Cultural Heritage of India

The following ascii diagram shows some of the major fairs and festivals that are celebrated in India, along with their regions, dates, and significance.

Region	Fair	Festival	Date	Significance
North India	Kumbh Mela	Diwali	Jan/Feb	Largest
		Holi	Oct/Nov	religious
			Mar/Apr	gathering,
				festival of
				lights,
				festival of
				colors
South India	Pongal	Pongal	Jan	Harvest
		Onam	Aug/Sep	festival,
				festival of
				prosperity

West India	Pushkar Mela	Ganesh Chaturthi	Nov	Camel fair,
		Navratri	Aug/Sep	festival of
			Sep/Oct	elephant god,
				festival of
				dance
East India	Poush Mela	Durga Puja	Dec	Cultural fair,
		Bihu	Sep/Oct	festival of
			Jan/Apr/Oct	goddess,
				harvest
				festival
Central India	Khajuraho Dance	Hareli	Feb	Classical dance
	Festival		Jul/Aug	festival,
				festival of
				greenery
North-East India	Hornbill	Bihu	Dec	Cultural
	Festival		Jan/Apr/Oct	festival,
				harvest
				festival

Current developments in Arts and Cultural in India

The following is an attempt to draw a detailed ascii diagram for the current developments in arts and cultural in India, based on the information from the search results. The diagram is not to scale and may not be accurate in all details. It is meant to give an overview of some of the major trends and initiatives in the field.

The diagram consists of four parts: A, B, C, and D. Each part represents a different aspect of arts and culture in India.

- A) This part shows the UNESCO Global Network of Learning Cities, which is a platform for policy dialogue and peer learning among cities that promote lifelong learning for all. Three Indian cities have joined this network recently: Thrissur and Nilambur in Kerala, and Warangal in Telangana. These cities have demonstrated their commitment to enhancing the quality of life and social inclusion of their citizens through education, culture, and innovation.
- B) This part shows the Museum of Art and Photography (MAP), which is a new museum that will open in Bangalore in 2022. The museum will showcase the diversity and richness of India's artistic and cultural heritage, spanning from the ancient to the contemporary. The museum will also host

exhibitions, workshops, lectures, and other programs to engage the public and foster dialogue and appreciation of art and culture.

- C) This part shows the Kochi-Muziris Biennale, which is India's largest and most prestigious contemporary art event. The biennale, which started in 2012, showcases the works of artists from India and around the world, reflecting on the social, political, and cultural issues of our times. The biennale also features performances, film screenings, talks, and educational activities, attracting a large and diverse audience.
- D) This part shows the Tagore Cultural Complexes (TCC), which are a scheme of the Ministry of Culture to promote the legacy and vision of Rabindranath Tagore, India's Nobel laureate poet and polymath. The scheme aims to establish cultural centers in various states and regions of India, where Tagore's works and ideas can be disseminated and celebrated through various art forms and media. The scheme also provides scholarships and fellowships for young artists and scholars to pursue their studies and research in the fields of art and culture.

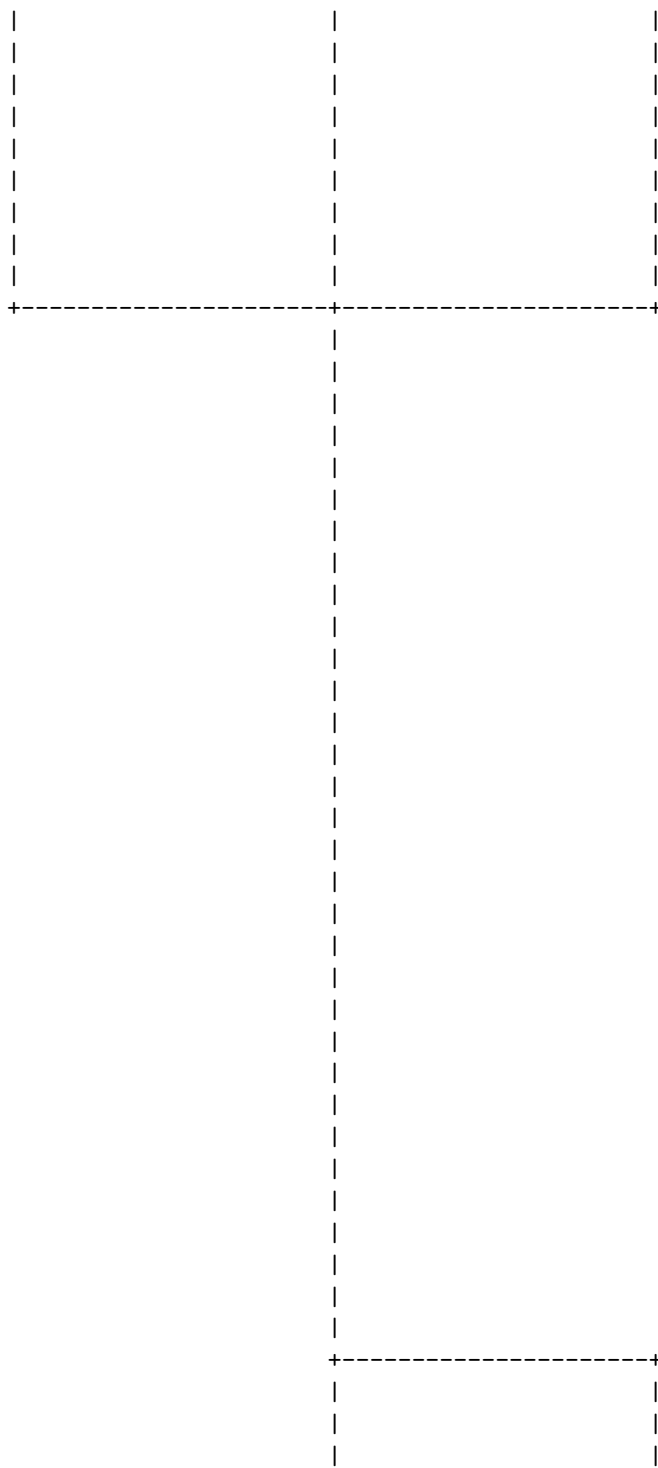
The diagram is as follows:



[illegible]

A) UNESCO Global Network of Learning Cities

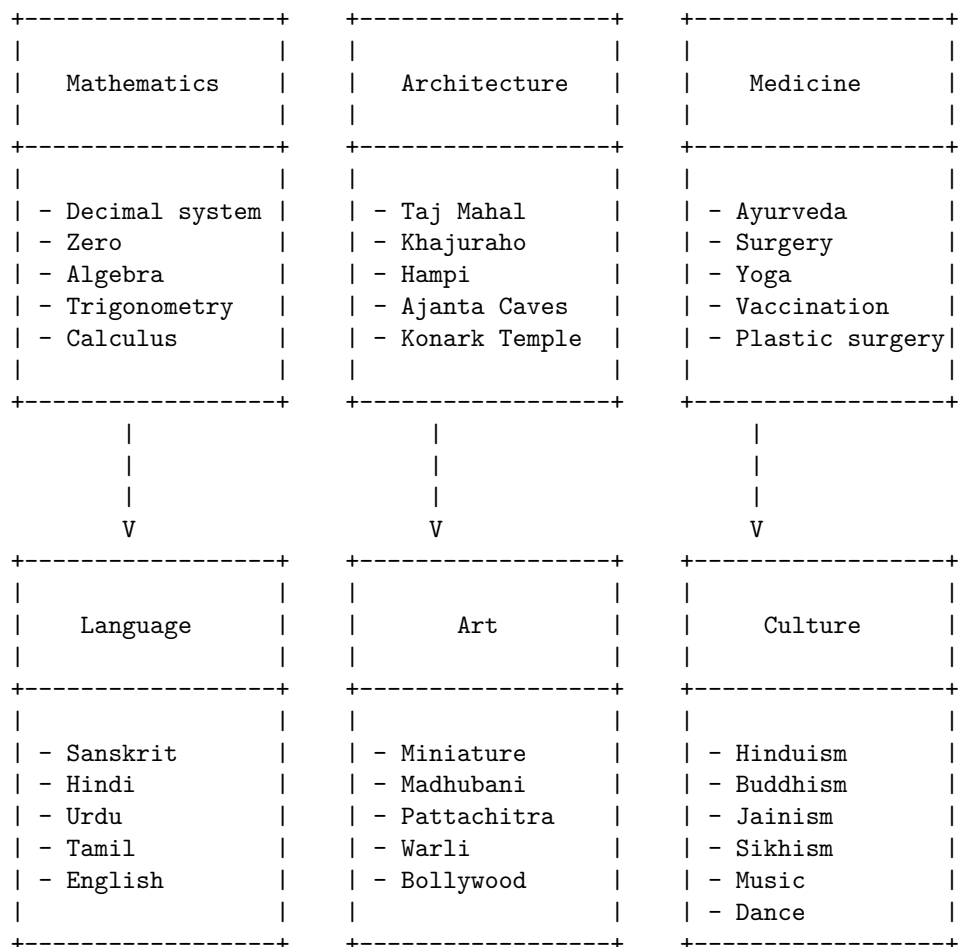
Diagram illustrating three locations: Thrissur, Nilambur, and Warangal. Each location is represented by a dashed rectangular box. Below each box is a vertical dashed line extending downwards.





Indian's Cultural Contribution to the World

The following diagram is an attempt to illustrate some of the major contributions of India to the world in various fields such as mathematics, architecture, medicine, language, art and culture. The diagram is drawn using ASCII characters and is not to scale or proportion.



Indian Cinema is one of the most popular and influential forms of performing

arts in India. It combines elements of drama, music, dance, comedy, romance, action, and social commentary. Indian Cinema has a rich and diverse history that spans over a century, from the silent era to the present day. Indian Cinema reflects the cultural, linguistic, religious, and regional diversity of India, as well as the changing socio-political and economic realities of the country.

The following diagram illustrates the basic architecture of Indian Cinema as a Performing Art in India using ascii characters:

Indian Cinema as a Performing Art in India

+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
Film Industry	Film Audience	Film Criticism
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
- Production	- Consumption	- Evaluation
- Distribution	- Appreciation	- Interpretation
- Exhibition	- Participation	- Education
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
Film Form	Film Taste	Film Theory
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
- Genre	- Preference	- Aesthetics
- Style	- Emotion	- History
- Narrative	- Identity	- Politics
- Technique	- Culture	- Ethics
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+
+-----+	+-----+	+-----+